

Foreword

Roman, as the Burgenland Roma call their language, is one of the Romani dialects of the former Kingdom of Hungary, spoken primarily along its western edge, where it has long been influenced by both German and Croatian. Now located in Burgenland, Austria's easternmost and multi-ethnic province, it plays a key role in shaping the identity of the Burgenland Roma as an integral part of the county's diversity.

As the group within the Austrian Roma community most severely affected by the Holocaust—only around 10% survived the mass murder in the concentration camps—the survivors and their descendants continue to face prejudice and discrimination to this day. In the post-war decades, the resulting effort to shed their "Gypsy identity" to live as full Austrian citizens without ethnic stigma led to a sharp decline in the use of the language.¹

In the 1980s, *Roman* was rarely used and held in low esteem within the ethnic group; if noticed at all by the majority population, it remained stigmatised. It was only with the emergence of self-organisation in the late 1980s that attitudes towards the language began to change. The decline in the use of Romani came to be perceived as a loss, particularly by younger, active members of the community, and consideration was given to teaching and writing in their own language. This led to a project to codify Roman and develop teaching materials in collaboration with linguists from the University of Graz. After the project's objectives had been achieved in the early 2000s through the publication of the codification results and the use of Roman in teaching and the media, the Roma-Service association assumed responsibility for follow-up activities.

However, while the use of Romani is increasing in formal public contexts—both spoken and written—and serving as a marker of identity for the community, its use in the everyday lives of the Burgenland Roma continues to decline. To address this trend and allow future generations to continue cultivating their language of origin, it is necessary to compile the materials from the codification project and subsequent activities. The results of these efforts are a comprehensive online dictionary and this publication.

The book's six chapters are divided into a three-part introductory section and a three-part linguistic-descriptive section. A socio-historical overview of the situation of the Burgenland Roma up to their recognition as an ethnic group in 1993 is followed by a brief description of the sociolinguistic situation. These two chapters—"History" and "Situation"—outline the context for the project to codify and develop teaching materials for the Romani language, which follows under the heading "Project".²

1 The term "Gypsy" should generally be rejected as discriminatory. In descriptive or academic texts, however, its use may be justified in order to quote sources accurately, highlight linguistic mechanisms of exclusion, and illustrate discrimination. It is precisely through its deliberate, contextualised use that one can demonstrate the derogatory connotations conveyed by the word. Clear distancing and contextualisation are always essential; in general usage, the term is inappropriate, and "Roma" should consistently be used instead.

2 These three chapters are largely based on the article "The Burgenland Romani Experience" (Halwachs 2013), which was published online in 2013. For sources and preparatory work related to the other three chapters, see the relevant entries in the bibliography.

The core of the publication consists of three sections: "Structure", "Lexicon", and "Spelling"; that is, a reference grammar, a description of the vocabulary and the online dictionary, and an explanation of orthography and the resulting rules.

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1_History

The first mentions of Roma in the former western Hungarian region that is now Burgenland, Austria's easternmost province, date back to the 15th century. The earliest documents on Romani settlements stem from the second half of the 17th century: in 1664 and 1674, Christoph Battyhány, Count of Németujvár/Güssing, initiated the settlement of Roma in what is now southern Burgenland.

Their situation at that time depended on the respective local rulers. While they often remained unmolested in Batthyány territory, the imperial residence bans intended to solve the so-called "Gypsy problem" were enforced almost as rigorously on Esterházy and church estates as they were on Austrian crown territory.

The violent peak of this persecution was the "Gypsy hunts" of the Baroque period under Charles VI in the first half of the 18th century. No less inhumane was the assimilation policy of his successors, Maria Theresa and Joseph II, which included compulsory registration, forced settlement, a ban on endogamy, the removal of children from their families and a ban on the Romani language.

At the beginning of the 19th century, there was a brief improvement in the Roma's situation, but the authorities' general attitude remained very similar to that of Joseph II's time. Legal measures against the Roma remained in force, and the administrative basis for their implementation and registration was maintained.

The 1873 census contains the first references to newly arrived Romani horse traders, the Lovara, in the Seewinkel region of northern Burgenland.³ This so-called "Gypsy invasion" was again met with regulations aimed at settling them, which were tightened during the First World War: horses and carts were confiscated, men between the ages of 18 and 25 were conscripted into the army, and those unfit for service, as well as women, were obliged to work under the War Labour Act.⁴

The inclusion of Burgenland to Austria following a referendum in 1921 did little to change the situation of the Roma, because

as early as 1922, the Burgenland provincial government issued a decree to detain all Gypsies in their home communities, prevent them from wandering, and take action against foreign Gypsy families by expelling and deporting them.

schon 1922 erging ein Erlass der Burgenländischen Landesregierung, alle Zigeuner in ihren Heimatgemeinden festzuhalten, sie am Umherwandern zu hindern und gegen fremde Zigeunerfamilien mit der Ausweisung und Abschiebung vorzugehen. Mayerhofer (1988: 37)

In the following years, the Romani population is systematically registered: fingerprints are taken from everyone over the age of 14, photographic records are created, and the gendarmerie conducts censuses showing an increase from approximately 5,000 in 1925 to around 7,000 in 1927. Against the backdrop of widespread anti-Roma prejudice, this increase contributes to Roma being blamed for the economic hardship and mass unemployment of the inter-war period. It also calls into question the previously mutual relationship of acceptance that

3 Lovara < hun. lo 'horse' with the nomina agentis suffix sg -ari / pl -ara are so-called Vlach Roma. After the abolition of serfdom and slavery in the principalities of Moldavia and Wallachia – Valachia > Vlach –, large numbers of them left what is now Romania in the mid-19th century. Lovara most likely left even earlier.

4 For a detailed account of the history of the Burgenland Roma, see Mayerhofer (1988: 11–52); for the history of the Burgenland Roma after 1945 in particular, see Baumgartner/Freund (2004).

had existed between Roma and the other population groups in Burgenland—Germans, Croats, Jews, and Hungarians—up to the beginning of the 20th century.

Although at the bottom of the social scale and relegated to the outskirts of settlements in so-called "Gypsy houses", Roma are nevertheless integrated into the villages and markets of Burgenland as niche service providers: blacksmiths, musicians, basket weavers, harvest workers, and others. Almost every settlement has its "Gypsies", is connected to them to some extent, and also feels, at least in part, responsible for them. The economic crisis and the accompanying attribution of blame to Roma—a narrative that the press both mirrors by repeatedly raising the "Gypsy question" and simultaneously disseminates and reinforces—fundamentally changes the relationship between Roma and the majority population:

Around 1921, two-thirds of the population felt sympathy for the Gypsies and one-third despised them; the proportion of those who despised them grew steadily during the interwar years, and after their deportation in the Third Reich, the Gypsies left no real vacuum in the feelings of the majority.

Um 1921 hatten zwei Drittel der Bevölkerung Mitleid mit den Zigeunern und ein Drittel verachtete sie; der Anteil der Verächter wuchs im Lauf der Zwischenkriegszeitjahre immer stärker an, und nach ihrer Deportation im Dritten Reich ließen die Zigeuner im Empfinden der Mehrheit kein echtes Vakuum mehr zurück. (Mayerhofer 1988: 59f.)

The situation of the Roma worsened in the 1930s, and the "preparations" for the Nazis' policy of extermination and genocide culminated in the highly publicised "Memorandum of the Governor of Burgenland" on the "Gypsy question," prefaced with the motto:⁵

If you, German, want to become the gravedigger of Nordic blood in Burgenland, just overlook the danger that the Gypsies pose to it!

Willst Du, Deutscher, Totengräber des nordischen Blutes im Burgenland werden, so übersehe nur die Gefahr, die ihm die Zigeuner sind! (Portschy 1938)

In May 1938, Roma were banned from attending school; shortly afterwards, their right to vote was revoked, and mixed marriages were prohibited. In the same year, an order was issued to send men who were not needed for harvest work to Dachau and Buchenwald. In November 1940, the Lackenbach detention camp was opened; a year later, 2,000 inmates were deported to Łódź/Litzmannstadt, none of whom survived. The "Auschwitz Decree" of January 1943, which provided for the extermination of all "racially inferior persons", had a massive impact on the registered, interned and consequently "ready" for transport to the concentration camps Burgenland Roma.

According to estimates, fewer than 10% of those deported from Burgenland to the extermination camps as "Gypsies" survived. Baumgartner and Freund (2004: 52) cite figures of around 9,500 murdered and refer to a 1952 gendarmerie document that draws on a 1948 census showing 870 Roma living in Burgenland. It can be assumed that there were hardly any Lovara among them. Since at least the second half of the 20th century, they have been concentrated in the greater Vienna area. The same applies to some Austrians with Burgenland Roma ancestors, who have also moved to the greater Vienna area and to other cities in eastern Austria.

Stigmatisation and discrimination did not end with the fall of the Nazi terror regime and the end of the Second World War. Attitudes towards Roma remained negative after 1945, both among broad sections of the majority population and within the authorities. Baumgartner/Freund (2004) provide comprehensive documentation of the difficulties, problems, and

5 Mindler (2006) offers a critical examination of Portschy.

harassment survivors faced at the hands of the authorities. The attitude of parts of the population is illustrated by the fact that, even today—and more often than before—some regulars in pubs openly express regret that there were any Romani survivors.

The genocide almost destroyed the social structure of the Burgenland Roma, so it is hardly surprising that ongoing discrimination led to a form of self-imposed assimilation. Before this, their partial integration into village communities, together with strong cohesion within their extended families, had enabled the Roma to cope, at least in part, with the discrimination and humiliation they faced up until the interwar period. However, the degree of integration into the multi-ethnic village community had already begun to decline in the interwar years, and the genocide then shattered the remaining extended family structures; many relatives, particularly those of the grandparent generation, were murdered.⁶ Many Roma, lacking the security of their community, traumatised by their experiences in concentration camps, and still facing marginalisation and discrimination, no longer want to be identified as "Gypsies." This desire for assimilation manifests, on the one hand, in the aforementioned migration into the anonymity of eastern Austrian cities, particularly Vienna, and, on the other hand, in a rejection of and distancing from their origins. As a result, some avoid endogamy, change their names, and in some cases even deny their parents and relatives.

In the second half of the 20th century, those Roma who remained in Burgenland and were unable to integrate socio-economically— and therefore did not assimilate into the majority population—continued to bear the stigma of being labelled "Gypsies." This ongoing discrimination was evident in the housing and labour markets as well as in public life: "Gypsies" were rarely able to rent or purchase property, were shunned as direct neighbours, and often remained confined to the outskirts of villages and small towns. At employment offices in Burgenland, job postings marked "no Gypsies" were just as common as bans excluding young Roma from restaurants and public leisure facilities.

This marginalisation produces deep social malaise, rooted in the trauma of the Holocaust and reinforced by social policies that address only its symptoms. Partial exclusion from work and social life, and the resulting lack of prospects, intensify unemployment and resignation, which are passed down from one generation to the next. Consequently, some people now consider education and training pointless, as "Gypsies" are seen as having no chance anyway.

The murder of relatives and ancestors in Nazi extermination camps is also interpreted as placing the state under a permanent obligation to provide financial support to Roma. For decades, within the framework of a purely reactive social policy, this has been the only visible achievement of the state. These financial contributions, offered without accompanying measures, primarily perpetuate a cycle of perceived entitlement, social malaise, and sentimentality.

6 The majority of Burgenland Roma refer to the Holocaust as *samudarípe*, literally 'all killing'; the same as *samudaripén* in the Romani variety of the Sinti. This term is preferable to the now internationally accepted *porajmos*, also *porrajmos* or *pharrajimos*. On the one hand, it contains an abstract suffix, *-imos*, which is only found in a few, albeit prominent, varieties of Romani, as opposed to the generally Indian-derived *-ipe(n)*. On the other hand, the meaning of the underlying verb is problematic: *phoravel* or *pharavel* has the basic meaning of 'to split', and the corresponding *pharál* < **pharavel* in Roman only has this meaning. In a figurative sense, the verb is also used in several varieties of Romani to mean 'to rape', with an additional use for 'to kill' and 'to murder' occurring only in specific contexts of a few varieties. The linguistic term 'variety' is a neutral designation that leaves open the exact classification of a means of communication as a language, dialect, sociolect, etc.

The absence of coherent social policy concepts for Roma is especially evident in education. Romani children who, because of their social circumstances and socio-cultural background, do not meet standard school requirements are often relegated to special schools for children with developmental or intellectual disabilities; "being a Gypsy" is effectively equated with mental disability. As a result, many Roma leave school with no or inadequate qualifications for suitable vocational training.

The social system appears to address the descendants of Holocaust survivors almost exclusively in terms of their potential financial entitlements. As noted above, even this is often handled inadequately and, in some cases, is experienced as harassing and humiliating by those affected.

In summary, the development of the Burgenland Roma up to the 1980s can be described as that of a marginalised ethnic minority transitioning into a socially marginalised group. Their identity is equated with social malaise by the majority population and the authorities. In the minds of large sections of the population, "being a Gypsy" is synonymous with social marginalisation, at least partly caused by the individuals themselves, and the resulting massive problems.⁷ Apart from romanticised Hungarian "Gypsy music", Roma are not associated with any cultural values, let alone a substantial contribution to valued diversity.

In the second half of the 1980s, the first sustainable form of Roma self-organisation emerged. Committed social workers motivated young Roma—despite the fears and reservations of some older community members—to stop accepting discrimination by the majority population and the authorities and to take action. This development marked the first serious step towards addressing social problems and ending the Roma community's tolerance of prejudice, exclusion, and the resulting self-pity.

This development was prompted by a local ban imposed on young Roma in 1987. Following a complaint, the then Federal President visited Oberwart to clarify the matter on site. Subsequently, as part of the 1988 commemorative year marking 50 years since Austria's "Anschluss" to Germany, a study was commissioned to document the living conditions of the Burgenland Roma and Jews, with the aim of developing social, cultural, and other support projects [50 Jahre "Anschluss" Österreichs an Deutschland—eine Studie zur Erfassung der Lebenssituation der burgenländischen Zigeuner und Juden im Hinblick auf zu schaffende soziale, kulturelle und sonstige Unterstützungsprojekte].⁸

Following the study, its authors, Lotte Hirl and Renate Holpfer, became actively involved in improving the situation of the Roma. Their engagement led to the founding of the Romani Association in Oberwart in 1989. In 1991, this was followed by the establishment of the Vienna-based association Romano Centro and the Cultural Association of Austrian Roma. The latter's founder and chairman until his death, Rudolf Sarközy, played a decisive role in achieving official recognition of the Roma as an Austrian ethnic group, which the Austrian parliament granted on 16 December 1993.

7 Of course, many Burgenland residents know a "Gypsy who is hard-working and clean and doesn't steal". However, this in no way affects the stereotypical prejudice with the opposite group image. This is probably a common pattern in relation to stigmatised minorities.

8 See Kasper (2009: 41f.) and Samer (2001: 56f.).

2_Situation

Burgenland Romani, hereinafter BR, or *Roman*,⁹ as it is known to its speakers, is a variety spoken on the western edge of the former Hungarian region and, as such, a dialect of *the* so-called *Ungrika Roma*, as the Roma living in what is now and was formerly Hungarian territory from the 15th century onwards are also known. Like all other varieties spoken by early immigrants in the former Hungarian region, BR is a south-central variety of Romani.¹⁰

Very similar varieties are spoken in the Slovenian region of Prekmurje and in parts of the adjacent Hungarian counties of Vas and Zala, which have a Slovenian minority. It is highly likely that these three varieties, which can now be distinguished from one another, formed a continuum until the early 20th century, and that, due to their distribution following the First World War across three states with, in some cases, strict demarcations and borders, they developed into three distinct varieties.

This former unity is evident not only linguistically but also, for example, through identical surnames across borders. Loose connections, primarily between the Burgenland and Prekmurje Roma, but also with families living in Hungary, began to (re-)establish in the final decades of the 20th century.

For the ancestors of today's Burgenland Roma, BR has been the language of socialisation for centuries, the language every child grows up with. BR is the intra-group code or intimate variety used within the family and with relatives and friends. In addition to its dominance in the private spheres of the social microcosm, BR is also used in the social macrocosm, in everyday contact with other Roma, both known and unknown, and in intergroup contact.

In addition, the languages of the surrounding population are used, making Roma plurilingual in everyday life; at least those who travel widely speak all the other languages of what was then Western Hungary: German, Croatian, and Hungarian. In formal domains, which are almost exclusively limited to dealings with the authorities, the dominant one of the three listed languages is used depending on the situation and context.

Seen in this light, the linguistic repertoire of the Roma also reflects their socio-political status: the fact that BR dominates exclusively in private settings and is used in everyday life only with other Roma is a symptom of marginalisation; and, in conjunction with the multilingualism in everyday life—which extends to mastery of all other languages of the region—it is also a symptom of the Roma's integration into society, albeit at the lower end of the social scale. At the same time, multilingualism in everyday life and in public reflects both the dominance of all other ethnic groups and the Roma's dependence on them as itinerant service providers.

The sociolinguistic situation of the Burgenland Roma outlined above persists into the interwar period. Although multilingualism in everyday life as well as in formal contexts is on the decline—due to political changes, German increasingly dominates the other languages too—the dominance of BR in the private spheres of the social microcosm remains unchanged.

9 The term '*Roman*' derives from the reduction of final syllables in high-frequency adverbs in the Romani spoken by the Burgenland Roma. Consequently, the modal adverb **Románes*, which is also used as a noun meaning 'in the manner of the Roma', becomes **Románe(h)* and then the language designation *Román*. The same applies to *Gadschikan*, the term for the language of the 'non-Roma', which in the case of the Burgenland Roma refers to German.

10 In linguistics, 'variety' is a neutral term that does not specify whether a means of communication is a language, dialect, sociolect, or another type.

Children grow up with BR; the mother tongue is a natural part of ethnic identity and, as such, is not consciously perceived. This situation persists even in the concentration camps.

The BR's first documentation also dates from this period. The fact that this was carried out on behalf of the SS research institution Ahnenerbe—as it was believed that the Roma's fairy tales contained remnants of an 'Aryan myth'—is evident from a letter dated January 1943 from SS-Standartenführer Sievers to the then Dean of the Faculty of Philosophy at the University of Vienna, SS-Hauptsturmführer Christian:

As I have learnt from the Reich Criminal Office's Central Bureau for Gypsy Affairs, of the approximately 9,000 Gypsies who were settled in Burgenland until recently, around 5,000 have already been resettled. [...] As only a few people are likely to need to be interviewed for the dissertation on the language of the Burgenland Gypsies, this could also be carried out at the Lackenbach concentration camp near Vienna. Particular haste is required, as, according to the Central Office for Gypsy Affairs, further resettlement operations are to be carried out shortly.

Wie ich beim Reichskriminalamt Zentralstelle für Zigeunerfragen in Erfahrung bringen konnte, sind von den annähernd 9000 Zigeunern, die bis vor Kurzem im Burgenland sesshaft waren, ca. 5000 bereits umgesiedelt worden. [...] Da für die Abfassung des Dissertationsthemas über die Sprache der burgenländischen Zigeuner vermutlich nur wenige Leute verhört zu werden brauchen, würde sich dieses auch im Konzentrationslager Lackenbach bei Wien durchführen lassen. Besondere Eile ist geboten, da, wie die Zentralstelle für Zigeunerfragen mitteilte, in Kürze weitere Aktionen bezüglich Umsiedlung durchgeführt werden würden.

(quoted from Heuß 1992: 104f.)

It is not known whether Johann Knobloch, the doctoral candidate tasked with conducting the 'interviews', was aware of the background to the research commission and the conditions in the Lackenbach camp. In a 1990 interview, he denied having known of this (Eder 1993: 241).

Approved in 1943, the dissertation was published in 1953. What is open to criticism is not the fact that Knobloch, as a young doctoral candidate, complied with his 'supervisor's' request and made the notes in Lackenbach. What career-minded doctoral candidate would not follow the advice of his supervisor? What is open to criticism is that Knobloch also refers to Christian's support in the preface to the 1953 publication and expresses his gratitude to “the brown children of these carefree little people” (Knobloch 1953: 8) without mentioning the problematic research context or the genocide in any way.

The genocide is—as already mentioned—a watershed in the socio-historical development of the Burgenland Roma. Its consequences have not been overcome to this day. The social structure within the extended family, which functioned right up into the interwar period, is thus just as irretrievably lost as the long-standing integration of the Roma into village communities had been before. This also affects the transmission of the language, which has been severely compromised because the generation of grandparents—who are of immense importance for the transmission of a marginalised minority language—was hardest hit by the massacres in the extermination camps.

Due to the self-imposed forced assimilation of many Burgenland Roma in response to ongoing discrimination, BR is also, for the first time, consciously perceived as part of a negatively connoted ethnic identity and consequently rejected as "Gypsy-like" just as "Gypsy existence" is. The resulting refusal to speak the language is a further step along the path of BR, from a vital Romani variety to one used little or not at all in everyday life.

Its nature as a secret language also contributes to this. This developed against the backdrop of the trauma caused by the genocide, as a reaction to the ongoing discrimination against the Roma who remained in Burgenland and who had not succeeded in assimilating and becoming part of the majority population. The demands for secrecy stem from fears that the majority population's knowledge of Romani could harm the Roma, but also from fears of being stigmatised as "Gypsies" due to the use of BR. These fears of stigmatisation lead Roma, in the presence of *Gadsche* 'non-Roma', to use only the dominant language amongst themselves, so as not to stand out as 'different'. This avoidance strategy is also a prerequisite for preventing outsiders from acquiring BR.

However, the demand to exclude *Gadje* from communication processes through an intra-group code is not only based on utilitarian grounds but also stems from negative experiences and fears. Interest in Roma, their culture, way of life and language was frequently linked to surveys and, subsequently, to the intensification of discrimination and persecution; consequently, keeping BR secret also enhances the subjective sense of security and thus serves the group's internal psychological well-being. Through the development outlined above, BR also becomes a conscious factor in the identity of its remaining speakers.

However, only those Roma born during and in the years following the Second World War, who were socialised in BR, acquire full linguistic competence. Their use of BR in informal contexts is illustrated by the following example from 1969:¹¹

<i>Upro them ajom X / mer Y / odaj dur samahi / enja bersch odaj samahi / dschimeg o haburi sina / akor kher gejam / korkor samahi, t'afka fuat dschalahi / igen latsche na dschalahi amenge / mindig iste dschanahi le kojaha / te hal anahi / te kudulinel iste dschanahi, o dschuvla / o murša nana kher / na dschalahi amenge igen latsche / afka fuat gelo / taj akor mri daj mursche peske lija / t'odoleha khetan le sina, te soharel / na soharde mentisch / fuat ladnani / buti kerlahi / ov fotosinlahi, dschanes, pirtscha, tshurtscha kerlahi / katscha schlajfinlahi taj saj buti / ham te hal sin amen mindig / tikno dschukloro amen sina / le borsen astarlahi / mindig sin te hal / le grasta sin / biknelahi len t'afka, dur berscha / kija, pantsch vaj schov berscha afka gelo / akor kher gejam / fatschuvtscha, mri phen, so i bareder sina / oja imar phuraneder sina / andi schul na geli / amen meg terne samahi / andi schul kesdintschom te dschal / duj samahi / uso cile Roma /</i>	Auf die Welt kam ich in X / nahe Y / dort sind wir lange gewesen / neun Jahre sind wir dort gewesen / solange der Krieg war / danach gingen wir nach Hause / alleine sind wir gewesen und so ist es fortgegangen / sehr gut ist es uns nicht gegangen / immer haben sie gehen müssen mit der Sache / zu essen haben sie gebracht / betteln haben sie gehen müssen, die Frauen / die Männer waren nicht zuhause / es ist uns nicht sehr gut gegangen / so ging es fort / und dann nahm sich meine Mutter einen Mann / und mit dem war sie zusammen, um zu heiraten / verheiratet waren sie nicht gleich / fortgefahren sind sie / gearbeitet hat er / er hat geflickt, weißt du, Töpfe, Messer hat er gemacht / Scheren hat er geschliffen und solche Arbeit / aber zu essen hatten wir immer / einen kleinen Hund hatten wir / die Igel hat er gefan- gen / immer gab es zu essen / er hatte Pferde / verkauft hat er sie und so, lan- ge Jahre / etliche, fünf bis sechs Jahre ging es so / dann gingen wir nach Hause / Kinder, meine Schwester, die größer war / sie war schon älter / in die Schule ging sie nicht / wir sind noch jung gewesen / in die Schule fing ich an zu	I was born in X / near Y / we stayed there a long time / we were there for nine years / for as long as the war lasted / afterwards we went home / we were on our own and that's how it went on / things didn't go very well for us ly / they always had to go out to sort things out / they brought food / the women had to go begging / the men weren't at home / things didn't go very well for us / that's how it went on / and then my mother took a husband / and she was with him, to get married / they weren't married straight away / they moved away / he worked / he mended things, you know, pots, he made knives / he sharpened scissors and did that sort of work / but we always had food / we had a little dog / he caught hedgehogs / there was always food / he had horses / he sold them and so on, for many years / quite a few, five or six years it went on like that / then we went home / Children, my sister, who was older / she was already older / she didn't go to school / we were still young / I started going to school / there were
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11 Heinschink Collection at the Phonogram Archive of the OAW / Archive No.: B 37244 PHA (SH 1937).

tschak duj fatschuvtscha / they had a lot of trouble with the school / they had a hard time / Valasar went / to school / at school he went / often he had to walk a long way.

gehen / zwei sind wir gewesen / aus all den Roma / nur zwei Kinder / aber wir haben uns schwer getan zu lernen / aber es ist doch gegangen / irgendwie ging es / wir lernten / in der Schule ging es gut / acht Jahre hab' ich durchgehalten.

two of us / out of all the Roma / just two children / but we found it hard to learn / but it worked out in the end / somehow it worked out / we learnt / things went well at school / I stuck it out for eight years.

This informal spoken narrative text, with its characteristic features – a statement roughly corresponding to a sentence containing a single clause – contains only a few lexemes from German: although the lexeme *iškola* is available for 'school', the use of *šul* < deu. *Schule* in this context is logical, as schools are always associated with German as the language of instruction. Similarly, in the case of the verb stem *šlajf-* < deu. *schleifen*, for which the verb stem *mor-* 'to grind' would also be available: the customers of this service of knife, scissors and tool grinding are mostly German-speaking, which is also reflected in the frequently encountered occupational term *šlajferitike Roma* 'grinder Roma', which is also used as an ethnonym by neighbouring groups.¹²

The particles *fuat* < deu. *fort* and *duax* < deu. *durch* are integrated into the BR due to the replication of German prefixed verbs: *fuat džav* deu. *fortgehen* 'to go away', *fuat ladav* deu. *fortfahren* 'to drive on', and *duax likerav* deu. *durchhalten* 'to persevere'.¹³ The reproduction of German, or rather German dialectal, patterns affects not only the area of prefix or particle verbs, but above all also phraseology and idioms. In the present text, this is illustrated, among other things, by the expressions *upro them avav* deu. *auf die Welt kommen* 'to come to the world' and *kesdinav te džav andi šul* deu. *anfangen in die Schule zu gehen* 'to start going to school'. The simultaneous reproduction or replication of the lexicon and structure of the dominant language is less a symptom of *language attrition* than a general phenomenon of language contact. In highly asymmetrical contact situations, it is normal for not only lexical but also structural elements to be adopted from the dominant language into the dominated language.

Structurally speaking, Burgenland in the post-war period differed little from the interwar period. The functional changes, however, are profound. Whilst the growing German influence during the interwar period mainly displaced the other minority languages of Burgenland—Croatian and Hungarian—from everyday use, in the post-war period, the functions of BR were affected not only in everyday life but also in the private sphere. If at all, BR is now used only in public, informal contexts with close acquaintances. Furthermore, German is increasingly used in private, informal contexts within the family and with immediate Roma neighbours. Over time, BR is being pushed back to a few functional niches in everyday life and is also losing its former dominance in the private spheres of the social microcosm.

The functional restriction of BR also reduces its frequency of use and, in conjunction with negative attitudes towards the language, jeopardises its transmission. On the one hand, speaking BR is avoided in large areas of everyday life; on the other hand, the Burgenland Roma are also developing the attitude found among many other multilingual minorities, namely that

12 The ethnonymic character of *šlajferitiko* Rom is also indicated by the ending *-itiko*. In the BR, this ending occurs almost exclusively with adjectives derived from ethnic group or people designations – ethnonyms or demonyms – such as *englitiko* 'English', *rustitiko* 'Russian', etc.

13 As Romani lacks a synthetic infinitive, the first-person singular present indicative is used as the lemmatic form.

the stigmatised ethnic language is merely an obstacle to their children's participation in the affluent society. The primary reason for this attitude is the monolingual education system, which generally regards pupils' proficiency in minority languages as an educational barrier. BR is now mostly used only by the grandparents' generation and, rarely, by the parents' generation in contact with them. The primary language between the generations is German. Even parents with proficiency in Romani generally speak almost exclusively German with their children.

Furthermore, this situation is exacerbated by the general social developments of the second half of the 20th century. The transformation of rural structures through the mechanisation and industrialisation of agriculture has led to massive changes in village life, forcing the Burgenland Roma, among others, to abandon their traditional niche occupations, as these no longer provide a livelihood. The simultaneous decline in the number of three-generation households meant that grandparents no longer served as children's primary caregivers or language mediators. Furthermore, mixed marriages became increasingly common, and commuting and rural exodus were also observed among the Burgenland Roma.

The consequence of the functional developments of the BR outlined up to the 1970s is a language shift. This primarily affects the younger generations, who, if at all, acquire only partial proficiency in BR: the range of active partial proficiency extends from use in private contact with grandparents, through the use of a few set phrases and expressions, to passive proficiency, which in turn ranges from understanding almost everything said in BR in their environment to passive comprehension of individual phrases and words. Viewed as a group, the children and young people of the Burgenland Roma therefore possess only a monolingual German repertoire.¹⁴ The parents' generation uses BR—if at all—in contact with their parents, the grandparents' generation; otherwise, it is the language of special occasions and occupies only functional niches, as in the following example:

A: <i>Meg prindschares man?</i> <i>Me i A som, X-iskeri phen,</i> <i>ando Y.</i>	Kennst du mich noch?	Do you still remember me?
B: <i>He, dur na diklom tut.</i>	Ich bin die A, die Schwester des X, aus Y.	I'm A, X's sister, from Y.
<i>Sar dschal take?</i>	Ja, lange hab' ich Dich nicht gesehen.	Yes, I haven't seen you for ages.
A: <i>Latsche, taj tumenge?</i>	Wie geht es Dir?	How are you?
B: <i>Palikerav, latsche.</i>	Gut, und Euch?	Fine, and you?
<i>Atschen andi Betschi?</i>	Danke, gut.	Thanks, fine.
A: <i><u>Ja, seit fünfzehn Jahren</u></i> <i><u>schon. ...</u></i>	Wohnt ihr in Wien?	Do you live in Vienna?
	<u>Ja, seit fünfzehn Jahren schon. ...</u>	<u>Yes, for fifteen years</u> <u>now. ...</u>

This conversation-opening sequence took place in 2002 between two women, then in their sixties, following a funeral that brought together many Burgenland Roma, including some from the neighbouring region of eastern Austria. The two women had not seen each other for years and re-established their long-interrupted contact through their former intimate language, Romani, which they most likely spoke to each other as children. After this introduction, the familiarity is restored, and the rest of the conversation proceeds in German. Such language use corresponds to that of speaker groups following a shift from a dominated

14 Due to socio-political developments in the 20th century, proficiency in Croatian and Hungarian has also declined sharply. Only Roma who live in or grew up in Hungarian or Croatian localities possess proficiency in one of the other two minority languages of Burgenland.

minority language to the dominant majority language. Although proficiency in the minority language remains, it is not used in everyday life; it is used only in exceptional cases such as the one just described.

Although the grandparents' generation still possesses full proficiency in Romani, they have few opportunities to use it actively. This makes many of *them* so-called '*rusty speakers*', who, due to a lack of language practice, do not have the words and structures at their disposal in the few situations where they still use Romani, and instead resort to spontaneous borrowings and structures from the dominant German.

As mentioned, the Burgenland Roma underwent a language shift during the second half of the 20th century, with BR being replaced by German in all domains and, indeed, already replaced in the younger generation's repertoire. The use of BR, once dominant in private domains, continues to decline steadily and, if this trend persists, is highly likely to lose all its functions within a few generations. By the early 1980s, BR was a minority language falling into disuse, which received little appreciation from its speakers and, even within the majority population, if noticed at all, remained stigmatised.

It was not until the emergence of self-organisation in the late 1980s that attitudes towards language began to change. Alongside social and political tasks, the newly founded associations also championed cultural causes from the outset. Through these contacts with other organisations, the Burgenland Roma came into contact with members of Romani groups in which Romani continued to dominate internal communication, such as the *Kalderaš* and *Lovara* communities based in Vienna. Although for the latter, Romani was less a primary means of communication in everyday life than the language of a romanticised past of true Romani culture, *Romanšago*;¹⁵ nevertheless, or perhaps precisely because of this, it is used on official occasions within the framework of self-organisation.

Such events and experiences contribute, among other things, to representatives of the Burgenland Roma beginning to perceive the language shift and the decline in the use of BR as a loss. This marks the first time there is positive language awareness. BR is seen as an integral part of identity, leading to initial considerations of language use and preservation. Although older Roma and established members of the Burgenland Roma association reject this due to the desire for secrecy outlined above—which stems from negative experiences and fears— young Roma are beginning to look for ways to counteract the decline in language use. The *Romano Centro* association subsequently establishes contact with linguists at the University of Graz, from which the *Roman project* develops.

15 The form *Romanšago*, formed here with an abstract suffix borrowed from Hungarian, appears in other varieties as *Romanipe*. In BR, the latter of the two forms is more common.

3_Project

The *Roman Project*, officially called the *Project for the Codification and Didactisation of Roman*, was launched by Mozes F. Heinschink, a researcher and friend of the Roma who is highly respected far beyond Austria's borders. Heinschink brought the Burgenland Roma into contact with linguists at the University of Graz.

The linguists, who had spontaneously agreed to help preserve BR, initially felt confused and overwhelmed. This was eased by what, in retrospect, proved to be the only truly sound advice from Norman Denison, then head of the Institute of Linguistics at the University of Graz: "Set aside linguistic expertise and scientific standards, go to the Roma, and 'behave like human beings'". The same recommendation came from Karl Sornig, also a sociolinguist at the Institute of Linguistics at the time. Without his support, the project would hardly have been possible.

The Roman project, launched at the beginning of 1993, began as a tentative, learning-by-doing process that combined cautious initial inquiries with project seminars to develop knowledge about the Roma and the Romani language. Yet the decisive element in this early phase was the research team's active involvement in the community life of the Burgenland Roma, especially through regular participation in local events. The mutual trust that grew from this engagement laid the foundation for a successful collaboration, whose most important outcomes are presented below:

- 1995: Alphabet primer,
- 1996: Grammar, glossary, texts and first teaching materials,
- 1997: Extracurricular language courses,
- 1998: bilingual quarterly magazine and children's magazine in BR,
- 1999: BR is used on the radio for the first time and taught at a school,
- 2000: Illustrated fairy tale book and bilingual text book with CD.

Within a decade, the project fundamentally transformed BR's status. At the outset, BR was scarcely noticed by the public, rarely passed on, and a hardly used "language" of a marginalised group isolated within European Roma society and regarded with little respect even by its speakers. Over the course of the project, and in the context of broader political developments, BR evolved into the most prominent variety of an officially recognised Austrian minority language, now present in the media and in education. At the same time, BR became the primary marker of identity for the majority of Burgenland Roma.

Beyond the crucial relationship of trust between linguists and Roma as the foundation for cooperation, several further factors are essential to ensure the successful implementation of the project:

- The initiative comes from the Roma themselves.
- Roma are actively and equally involved in the work process.
- The Roma respected the linguists as experts.
- The results are promoted and disseminated by a representative who is accepted and respected by a wide range of Burgenland Roma.

3.1_Framework conditions

The project launch timing is ideal. It coincides with the first sustainable self-organisation of young Roma and unfolds in a generally positive socio-political climate that is driving recognition of Roma as an ethnic group. This development is fostering a spirit of optimism and enabling the emergence of a positive Roma identity for the first time, both among the Burgenland Roma themselves and within the majority population.

The situation regarding the documentation and description of BR is markedly different, almost the opposite. Besides the annotated texts from the 1940s (Knobloch 1956) and a few scattered, poorly documented or undocumented fragments, there is only one edited and annotated text based on a transcribed audio recording (Heinschink/Meissner 1976). This text belongs to a corpus of 18 conversations in BR and German, totalling just under four hours, recorded 1968–1971 and again in 1993. The first series contains barely two hours in BR, while the 1993 recordings comprise just under one hour.¹⁶

Although the available material lacks a solid foundation, the few edited texts still provide an initial impression of BR. They also permit comparison with other, well-documented varieties of Romani, thereby enabling the development of targeted query strategies in the early stages of the codification process.

3.2_Codification

Assigning codification as a task to representatives of a speaker community is certainly unusual and greatly facilitates access to the group, but it also has problematic aspects. At first, participation by members of the ethnic group is limited to activists and outsiders. The activists tend to act more as clients and initiators than as informants, while the outsiders, as primary informants, expect prestige and recognition from both the clients and the entire speaker community. This can sometimes lead to over-fulfilment in answering researchers' questions and, consequently, to distorted results. In addition, primary informants in such settings often try to monopolise contact with the research team and to obstruct the involvement of other speakers, or at least to insist on having a say in their participation. Under these conditions, the "ordinary speaker" is not directly accessible to the research team as an informant, at least in the initial phase.¹⁷

The "ordinary speaker" is not directly involved in the association's activities, as they appear there in a specific context that is not part of everyday life. During the research team's active participation in the association life of the Burgenland Roma, BR emerged only as a marginal topic, if at all. In these public situations, BR is rarely used, even by the few competent speakers present, primarily for communicative necessity—namely, comprehensibility and domain specificity. In this context, the previously mentioned strategy of avoiding visibility as "different", together with the protective language attitude that keeps the ethno-language inaccessible and incomprehensible to outsiders, is particularly salient among older speakers. As a result, participant observation in public settings does not yield usable data for codifying BR. However,

16 These recordings are archived in the Heinschink Collection at the Phonogram Archive of the Austrian Academy of Sciences and are partially accessible online: <http://catalog.phonogrammarchiv.at>.

17 An "ordinary speaker" is defined as a member of the speaker community who uses BR in everyday life and does not play a leading role in the self-organisation process, is not an active member of an association and therefore does not appear as an "activist" or "primary informant".

it does provide valuable insights into its functions and the language attitudes of its speakers. The same holds for semi-public situations, such as the communicative behaviour of the Burgenland Roma in the association's premises, which function as an advice centre, communication hub, and classroom for afternoon tutoring for schoolchildren, among other purposes. In all of these contexts, however, the use of BR remains a rare exception.

Given this situation, initial contact with BR speakers during the codification process is restricted to working meetings at the association's premises. Only later does this extend to ordinary speakers' involvement. Collaboration with BR speakers proceeds in three phases.

- Phase 1:
Contacts and working meetings between the research team and primary informants in the associations' premises; beginning with queries, initially only lexical, then increasingly regarding structural features, the collaboration develops into joint text analysis and text creation; in addition, preparation of the
- Phase 2:
Contacts and working meetings between primary informants and other speakers of BR in their everyday environment; indirect involvement of the "ordinary speakers" by ethnic group co-workers who are trained for these tasks in the working meetings of phase 1 and who, among other things, are integrated into the research team on an equal footing as a result of this activity. This then results in
- Phase 3:
Contacts between the research team's linguists and the native speakers of BR in their everyday environment.

The contact situations in these three phases overlap to some extent. The linguists' field research activities run in parallel with those of the primary informants, and working meetings take place throughout the survey period. The work process is divided into four steps, some of which also run in parallel:

- Questioning,
- Transcription,
- Text collection,
- Analysis.

3.2.1_Interviewing

Initiatives to preserve minority languages usually focus on putting the ethnic language into writing and promoting its use in the media and in language teaching. However, an essential prerequisite is often neglected: assessing the sociolinguistic situation of the language. This includes examining its vitality and functionality, its acceptance within the speaker community, and the objectives pursued by community representatives.

The aim of this survey is therefore to determine whether the outcome envisaged by the representatives of the Burgenland Roma, strategies and materials to counteract the threat of language loss, corresponds to the ethnic group's expectations. To this end, the survey not only records patterns of language use but also investigates the language attitudes and concerns of the speaker community regarding the status and functionality of Burgenland Romani (BR).

The survey is being conducted across southern Burgenland and in parts of central Burgenland during spring and early summer 1994.¹⁸ Because of ongoing fears of registration, since, as noted, surveys are often linked to increased discrimination and persecution based on past experiences, only Burgenland Roma, the primary informants mentioned above, are working as interviewers. This benefits not only the survey itself but the overall project work:

- Co-workers from the ethnic group become fully aware that they are actively involved in a project in the group's interests.
- By using anonymous questionnaires administered by trusted individuals, it becomes clear to respondents that there are no negative consequences to participating.
- The project becomes known and widely accepted, as its goals are explained by Roma, who are actively involved in the work. This makes it clear that this is a Roma project and that scientists are working on it as commissioned specialists.

Of the 400 questionnaires distributed, 320 were returned, making this certainly the project's first major success.¹⁹ The questionnaire consists of 61 questions divided into three sections:

- Questions 01-09: General, including age, gender, and household size;
- Questions 10-47: Language use, language competence, and use by domain;
- Questions 48-61: Language attitude, "mother tongue", future functionality of BR.

In terms of general information, the female-to-male ratio is 44% to 56%. In terms of age, the established 20- to 50-year-olds dominate, accounting for almost 75%. The fact that only just under 7% of respondents live in a three-generation household confirms social change and thus the decline of the extended family structure, which naturally influences language erosion; everyday contact between grandparents and grandchildren is a key factor in the preservation of minority languages.

The results confirm the low level of language use that had already been suspected based on impressions gained up to that point. BR still functions as an intimate variety in a few families. If at all, it is used almost exclusively in private situations alongside German, which dominates in all domains.

As for language attitudes, the majority of respondents, including those who rate their language skills in BR as very low, describe BR as their "mother tongue". Furthermore, over 90% of respondents want BR to be used more in the future. This is linked to the demand for books and newspapers, the use of BR in the media, especially in education, and the desire for

18 Because the self-organisation movement originated in southern Burgenland, the centre of codification work is based in Oberwart. Primary informants have strong networks across central Burgenland, but not in the north. The Roma living in northern Burgenland are not actively involved in the emancipation movement. Nonetheless, informal contacts with Roma from northern Burgenland in later stages of the project show that, apart from local and idiolectal features, their varieties of BR do not differ significantly from those spoken in central and southern Burgenland.

19 The results of the 1991 census show that 122 people throughout Austria spoke Romani as their everyday language (Statistik Austria 2002a: 19), 93 of them in Burgenland (Statistik Austria 2002b: 18). The return of 320 questionnaires puts these figures into perspective and highlights the problem of demographic data regarding the use of languages other than the respective national language. The 2001 census used a modified survey methodology—check boxes instead of text entries—to record the languages spoken by ethnic groups in Austria, resulting in 208 Romani speakers in Burgenland. From the 2011 register census onwards, language use is no longer documented.

adequate teaching materials. This confirms the need to provide the Burgenland Roma with the means and opportunities to promote language preservation and thus preserve group identity (see Halwachs/Ambrosch/Schicker 1996).

The survey results suggest that the positive attitude towards the use of BR and its extension into formal written domains stems more from the survey situation itself than from the general language attitudes of the Burgenland Roma, among whom BR was hardly used at the time. For most, BR is of little everyday relevance; only through the survey are the language attitudes of activists and primary informants transmitted to broader segments of the group, generating a quasi-positive language awareness. This, however, does not alter the survey's core finding, which may also be viewed as an implicit feasibility study for the project. The results indicate that implementing the planned codification measures could support language maintenance and, perhaps even more importantly in retrospect, strengthen the Burgenland Roma's self-esteem and self-confidence by fostering appreciation of their language and culture.

3.2.2_Spelling

Writing is a prerequisite for the emancipation of dominated languages. Writing serves functional purposes in public-formal domains and is associated with prestige. In the case of an orally transmitted language such as BR, writing is therefore the most urgent concern. The aim is to establish conventions that are usable and acceptable to the majority of the ethnic group, which is why external, primarily general-language policy, and, in some cases, scientific requirements are considered secondary. The writing process is primarily about finding a balance between the diverging ideas of the speakers, linguistic necessities and existing international writing trends.

At first, proposals were made to adopt scientific transcription conventions using diacritics from the South Slavic Latin script. However, most Burgenland Roma who encountered this proposal rejected it vehemently, as shown by the statement of a co-worker of the ethnic group:

A Horvath doesn't like Croatian accents.

In addition to revealing that adopting existing conventions is ineffective, the discussions clarify previously vague ideas about writing. To explore these more systematically, a word-list survey is conducted with 40 participants, who are asked to translate German lexemes into BR. The expected BR lexemes particularly involve the representation of affricates and plosives. The lists are then read aloud and recorded, and the items are, where possible, cross-checked against recordings of spontaneous speech. As the examples in the following table show, there is a clear preference for transcription based on the German model:

Table 1: Transcription

No.	List 1	List 2	List 3	international	German	Transcription
1	<i>beng</i>	<i>peng</i>	<i>benk</i>	<i>beng</i>	'devil'	<i>beng</i>
2	<i>dukavav</i>	<i>tukavaf</i>	<i>dugawaw</i>	<i>dukhavav</i>	'I hurt'	<i>dukavav</i>
3	<i>dschaf</i>	<i>tschav</i>	<i>tschaf</i>	<i>džav</i>	'I am going'	<i>džav</i>
4	<i>gotschar</i>	<i>godschar</i>	<i>gocsar</i>	<i>godžaver</i>	'clever'	<i>godschar</i>
5	<i>jack</i>	<i>jag</i>	<i>tschag</i>	<i>jakh</i>	'eye'	<i>jak</i>
6	<i>jag</i>	<i>jack</i>	<i>tjak</i>	<i>jag</i>	'fire'	<i>jag</i>
7	<i>prahlpe</i>	<i>pralipe</i>	<i>prallibe</i>	<i>phralipe</i>	'brotherhood'	<i>phralipe</i>

8	<i>chacho</i>	<i>chadjo</i>	<i>csacso</i>	<i>čačo</i>	'true'	<i>tschatscho</i>
9	<i>chukel</i>	<i>dschugel</i>	<i>gyukel</i>	<i>džukel</i>	'dog'	<i>dschukel</i>
10	<i>tschuwli</i>	<i>tshufli</i>	<i>gyuvli</i>	<i>džuvli</i>	'woman'	<i>dschuvli</i>

The variation within these ten selected examples from three of the word lists, in relation to the conventions commonly used in the international scientific context, illustrates the problem of transcription:

- The affricates /tʃ/ and /dʃ/ in examples 3, 4, 8, 9, and 10 are mostly rendered according to the German model with the graphemes <tsch> and <dsch>; in examples 8, 9, and 10 in list 3, they are also rendered according to Hungarian with <cs> and <gy>, respectively. However, the Hungarian spelling can be disregarded. It occurs rarely, and when it does, the test subjects are mostly inconsistent in their spelling and also use German-based conventions, as in examples 3 and 5 of list 3.
- Just like the use of the two affricate graphemes, the written representation of voiced and voiceless plosives is relatively arbitrary. This results from the strong German dialectal influence on the phonetics of BR, which in turn is related to the fact that German is the primary language of the Burgenland Roma. The contrast in standard German between initial and medial fortis or voiceless aspirated plosives on the one hand and lenes or voiced unaspirated plosives on the other is largely neutralised in the German contact varieties of BR, as well as in the final position of the standard. In BR, too, only aspiration distinguishes voiceless plosives from formerly voiced ones. This suggests that both affricates and plosives should be written according to international conventions (), with the graphemes <tsch> and <dsch> representing <č> and <ďž>, respectively; see lines 4 and 6 in the table above.
- The aspirated voiceless plosives, known as *Tenuis Aspiratae* /p^h, t^h, k^h/, are a typical feature of Romani and developed from the Old Indian *Mediae Aspiratae*. As in other Romani varieties, aspiration is no longer detectable in medial and final positions in BR. However, minimal pair tests, such as *perav* : *pherav* 'to fall : to fill', have shown differences in aspiration intensity: voiceless plosives are slightly aspirated in all positions in German and, consequently, also in BR. Due to this difference in intensity, initial aspiration is written down, which connects BR to other varieties by marking a typical Romani feature. From the speaker's point of view, this phonological feature, which does not occur in other European languages, is seen as a unique feature of the ethnolanguage, as explained by the linguists involved, and is therefore accepted.
- As far as the sibilants /s/ : /z/ and /ʃ/ : /ʒ/ are concerned, the dichotomy [± voiced] is also neutralised, which is why they are rendered with <s> and <sch> respectively. This also avoids the realisation of the grapheme <z>, which would denote the voiced fricative, as an affricate /ts/ according to the German model.
- In German, the graphemes <f>, <v> and <w> stand for the labial fricative /v/. Avoiding <w> when writing the BR allows for a clear distinction between /f/ and /v/.

- The labial fricatives help to illustrate another transcription strategy: the primacy of morphological criteria over phonological ones. Due to the aforementioned neutralisation of plosives and fricatives in the final position, the lexeme 'village' is realised as /gaf/. However, since the labial always appears as /v/ in case forms, /gaveste/ 'in the village', the lexeme is written as *gav* in the nominative. This approach also corresponds to the strategy of adapting BR to international conventions in writing wherever possible; *gav* is the general realisation and thus also the spelling.

This outline for the transcription of BR conveys both the fundamental problems and the need to strike a balance among speakers' ideas, linguistic necessities, and international conventions (see also Halwachs 1996). This seems to have been achieved to a certain extent. Although the written form, especially about the typeface of individual lexemes, is still criticised by some, the conventions chosen and the majority of the written lexemes are acceptable to the vast majority of speakers.

Ultimately, acceptance of the written form is decided by a simple practical test. After brief introductory explanations, schoolchildren with German as their mother tongue and limited competence in BR read short texts, allowing competent speakers to recognise their language. Based on this test, proponents of codification, together with older, proficient speakers, make the final decision. Thus, developing the writing system is also a learning process for the research team. What appears optimal from a linguistic perspective, here, a writing system based on the South Slavic Latin script, does not always align with the prevailing language attitudes in the speaker community. Consonant grapheme clusters, as in *fatschuvtscha* 'children', may seem less desirable than the diacritical spelling *fačuvča*, but they match the preferred writing habits of most BR speakers and are therefore the most appropriate spellings.

The transcription process is carried out collaboratively between representatives of the ethnic group or primary informants and the research team. By taking into account prevailing speaker preferences, it clearly demonstrates the equal status of Roma and linguists in the work process. In this way, the codification of BR ultimately becomes the shared goal of a collaboration between equals.

3.2.3_Text collection

The collection of texts, a necessary prerequisite for codification, is an ongoing process that began in the preparatory phase with the indexing of the few existing written texts and the approximately three hours of recordings from the Heinschink collection. Over almost five years, from autumn 1994 to summer 1999, additional recordings were made, expanding the corpus to just under 50 hours. In addition to another seven hours archived in the Heinschink collection, most of the remaining 40 hours were recorded by co-workers of the ethnic group. As part of their collaboration in the codification process, they were asked to conduct non-standardised interviews. Their only task was to create an atmosphere in which interviewees would agree to audio recordings and, ideally, be encouraged to tell fairy tales, stories, and historical-biographical accounts. Since the texts are primarily used for linguistic analysis, the content is always subordinate to the conversational process and flow.

The focus is on everyday spoken BR, which could scarcely, if at all, be documented through direct contact between proficient speakers and linguists unfamiliar with it. Linguistically competent Burgenland Roma are usually older speakers who often display the protective language

attitude mentioned above. By contrast, co-workers of the ethnic group generally know their conversation partners well, creating the trust needed for open conversation. Moreover, involving representatives of the ethnic group demonstrates not only to them, but especially to members who are not engaged in the association's activities, that codification is a project of the Burgenland Roma themselves and not merely a scientific study; an aspect that must be communicated and reaffirmed repeatedly throughout the codification process.

More than 50 people participated in the 70 interviews, which ranged in length from a few minutes to an hour and a half. Fewer than ten per cent are under 30 years old. More than half of the interviewees are over 60, and the vast majority are in their 70s at the time of recording. This is significant because these speakers were born in the interwar period, when BR was the primary means of communication within the family and in everyday group life, and thus the main language of socialisation. The most detailed and productive conversations are held with these speakers.²⁰ Except for seven interviews from the Heinschink collection, all are conducted by a linguistically competent member of the post-war generation who is familiar with the interlocutors. This constellation not only makes such conversations possible but also ensures their high quality, making them the core of the text corpus for linguistic analysis.

This core is supplemented by interviews with speakers of the post-war generation, for whom BR was still an equal language alongside German in their childhood. Although the use of BR in this age group has declined significantly over time, those who remained in Burgenland generally still have active competence in Roman. The interviewees of this generation, therefore, also make an essential contribution to codification.

A further two hours of reading texts are also recorded. Once the ethnic-group collaborators are sufficiently familiar with the transcription conventions, some begin transcribing stories and fairy tales, often retellings of popular German fairy tales. These texts and the associated recordings document, for the first time, the literary use of BR in the context of the codification work.²¹

Initially, the linguists' recording activities focus on documenting word and sentence lists, which will be discussed in the following section. They also hold weekly working meetings with representatives of the ethnic groups at the association's premises. These meetings serve as field research notes, improving traceability and enabling verification of the results obtained. German is used as the working language. Only after establishing contact with members of ethnic groups not directly involved in the codification process do the linguists begin recording conversations. Most of these recordings, however, fall outside the relevant time frame for codification. While these texts expand the collection beyond the 50 hours discussed here, they are not included in the text analysis for the codification process. Nevertheless, they contribute

20 As this age group constitutes the generation of survivors of the genocide in the concentration camps, their biographical narratives serve as key documents of oral history. They are also important sources for the oral tradition of fairy tales and stories, which, although no longer part of the everyday life of the Burgenland Roma at the time of codification, remain crucial for fostering a positive ethno-cultural consciousness.

21 While the dichotomy between oral and written describes the communicative mode or medium, the contrasting pair *orat*–*litterat* refers to stylistic features. Thus, we can speak of *literate oral* communication, as in the idiom "speaking according to the script", and of *orat written* texts, such as text messages, various online media, and hastily jotted notes. Although written, these texts formally align with oral language use in terms of style (see Maas 2010 for more details).

to enlarging the BR's lexical inventory, which continues to be documented to this day. The same applies to additional texts produced by members of the ethnic groups.

At first glance, 50 hours of recordings for codifying a linguistic variety may seem insufficient. However, given the sociolinguistic situation of BR, limited functionality, few competent speakers, protective language attitudes, and so on, 70 recordings actually represent a substantial corpus. They are sufficient to document the basic lexical inventory and core structures of BR and to provide the spontaneous linguistic verification needed for other analytical results. These results are based on the aforementioned word- and sentence-list elicitation, which can also be applied to the expanded text corpus.

3.3_Analysis

As with the text collection, the analysis begins with the limited materials available before the project began. These materials make it possible to situate BR in relation to other varieties of Romani and thereby, among other things, to develop initial query strategies at the outset of the work process. The process starts with questions about basic lexemes, such as personal pronouns, and idiomatic expressions, such as greetings, which are embedded in relatively trivial conversations on general topics related to BR. This informal metadiscourse enables linguists to verify the results obtained from the initial analysis of written sources.

More importantly, these conversations establish the framework for future working sessions with members of the ethnic group as co-workers. These sessions do not follow predetermined models or strategies but are spontaneous and situation-appropriate, although lists, questions, and texts are always prepared as a framework for each session. The results of a working session under these conditions represent only one possible outcome, subordinate to the process itself and to the dynamics of the discussion. Any result relating to BR is desirable, even if it diverges from the prepared materials. Working sessions are therefore open-ended and, precisely because of this strategy, lead to the outcomes necessary for codification.

As with the text collection, the analysis also follows the three phases outlined above. First, linguists work with representatives of the ethnic group. Second, these representatives collaborate with other competent BR speakers. Third, linguists work with additional speakers. In terms of content, the query situation can be divided into three interlocking areas, or three parallel processes:

- Lexical queries,
- Grammatical queries,
- Combined queries and text analysis.

3.3.1_Lexical queries

In lexical elicitation, initial informal word inquiries are conducted to verify existing knowledge and gauge members of the ethnic group's metalinguistic abilities. These are followed by surveys using prepared word lists. The structured inquiries first focus on pre-European vocabulary, i.e., lexemes of Indo-Aryan, Iranian, Armenian, and Byzantine Greek origin (cf. Boretzky 1992). As in many other Romani varieties, more than half of these approximately 1,000 lexemes occur in BR, indicating the typical homogeneity of Romani in its basic vocabulary.

Of the 100 basic lexemes in the Swadesh list, 92 are of pre-European origin: two each from Iranian, Armenian and Byzantine Greek, and 86 from Indo-Aryan.²² The remaining eight lexemes come from European languages: three from Slavic, four from Hungarian and one from German. This distribution reveals the lexical strata and, therefore, the contact languages of BR.²³ The pre-European and some of the Slavic borrowings are typical of Romani in general. In contrast, the Hungarian and German elements are variety-specific and mark BR as a south-central variety of the former Hungarian region. The western edge of this region has long been subject to German linguistic influence and now belongs to Austria, where German is the dominant language.

Drawing on the results of these initial word-list queries, including the above-mentioned searches conducted in the context of transcription, the lexical survey concentrates on completing word fields in basic domains such as colour, body, and kinship terms. As expected, the lexemes collected at this stage come predominantly from European contact languages, since in an asymmetrical contact situation, every lexeme of the dominant language is a potential lexeme of the dominated language.²⁴

Recollections of how the elders spoke often prompt the use of alternative terms from Slavic, Hungarian, or pre-European layers, such as the Indian-derived *phiko* 'shoulder' instead of the German-derived *šulteri*. In spontaneous BR speech, numerous lexemes are borrowed from German, typically appearing in bilingual mode as spontaneous borrowings, a phenomenon linked to the generally low level of language use. In contrast, in targeted elicitation settings, speakers tend to favour lexemes of non-German origin. When no non-German lexeme exists for an everyday concept, members of the ethnic group seek to identify or reconstruct one, frequently turning to elders as a resource.

Most likely, the opaque origins of Hungarian and Slavic lexemes, or their "foreignness," make them acceptable in BR, unlike German borrowings. For example, in the metalinguistic discourse of the query situation, *betovtscha*—plural of *betó* < hun. *betű* 'letter'—is preferred to the equally possible and frequently occurring spontaneous borrowing *alfabet*. From this perspective, lexical elicitation can also be characterised as a process between the reality of spontaneous borrowings from German and the claim to independence of lexical differentiation from this dominant language.

In some cases, the integration of multiple European lexemes into BR introduces new designations that modify the meanings of pre-European lexemes. The Greek-derived *drom* 'path, road, journey' illustrates this development: in general usage, its meaning has narrowed to 'path' due to the integration of *uca* < hun. *utca* 'street' and the synonymous *poštita*, and to the adoption of *roas* < ddial. /roas/ 'journey' in everyday speech. Nonetheless, the original, broader meaning is preserved in combinatorial use within noun phrases, as in *dromeskero*

22 A Swadesh list is a standardised set of basic words (e.g. body parts, pronouns, basic verbs) which, based on the assumption that basic vocabulary changes particularly slowly, can be used to compare languages and estimate their degree of relatedness or separation time. A list according to Swadesh (1971) can be found in the chapter of the same name, along with a detailed description of the lexicon.

23 In this context, Slavic refers to South Slavic varieties. Specific borrowings from Burgenland Croatian are only found in those varieties of BR with speakers in close contact with Burgenland Croatian communities. However, such local varieties of BR are hardly in use at the time of codification.

24 BR is integrated into an areal contact scenario between German, Slavic and Hungarian, as illustrated by the lexeme *kirali* 'king': *kirali* < hun. *király* < sla. *kralj* < deu. *Karl* = *Charlemagne*.

bučari 'road worker'.²⁵ German dialect idioms similarly influence the lexical semantics of BR. The verb *khelav* 'to play' now corresponds to the German idiom 'to make music', whereas *bašav*, the usual Romani verb for this activity, only means 'to bark' and 'to crow' in BR.

However, the lexical survey reveals not only BR's vocabulary but also aspects of its phonetics. These include the lengthening and frequent diphthongisation of stressed vowels, as in *kher* [kʰeɪr] 'house', and the deletion of intervocalic consonants, as in *paj* [pɑ̃] < *pani* 'water'.

For the first time, the results of word-list queries conducted in close collaboration with members of the ethnic group document the lexical diversity of BR. The survey of basic domains comprises approximately 2,000 lexemes. Ongoing text analysis and additional word-list translations steadily expand the lexicon and increase the number of entries to more than 5,500 by the end of the codification process (Halwachs/Ambrosch 1999).

3.3.2_Grammatical queries

From the outset, the lexical analysis is linked to the grammatical analysis by embedding query elements in sentences to determine their scope of meaning and function, and by asking about plural and inflectional forms during the working sessions. Grammatical analysis is likewise conducted discursively in these sessions. In contrast to the frequent use of word lists in lexical analysis, however, prepared sentence lists are only occasionally employed. The aim is to identify and fully document the basic structures of BR, including inflectional, derivational, and integrative morphology as well as syntactic structures. The phonology of BR arises as a by-product of the transcription process and was already roughly documented during the intensive phase of grammatical analysis; it is subsequently reviewed and supplemented as part of the structural analysis.

First, morphosyntactic results from the lexical survey and the analysis of existing texts are compared with the general structures of Romani as described in the literature. On this basis, preliminary, often incomplete, inflectional paradigms are established. In a second step, these paradigms are discussed during the working sessions and completed through additional elicitation. Three strategies are used in this process:

- Structural questions,
- Phrase translations,
- Passive competence queries.

During the working sessions, structural questions form part of the metalinguistic discourse. They involve direct questions about grammatical categories, including noun declension (gender, number, and case) and verb conjugation (person, number, tense, mood, and aspect). The questions are always phrased in a way that is understandable and comprehensible to the ethnic group co-workers.²⁶

25 The broader meanings of pre-European lexemes are linked to the predominantly oral character of Romani. In oral languages, the specific meanings of multifunctional lexemes emerge within each communicative situation, through contextual disambiguation. Only with the advent of written Romani did greater lexical differentiation and more precise semantics become necessary. Without the support of contextual cues, terms with narrower meanings and more precise semantics became essential for ensuring the comprehensibility of written texts.

26 One piece of first advice for working with the Burgenland Roma is to "behave like a human being and put linguistic knowledge aside." A key challenge in the codification process is formulating linguistic content in a way that is generally understandable. This applies not only to structural issues, but also to questions from

Phrase translations involve asking members of the ethnic group to translate syntagms or short sentences from German into BR spontaneously. This method serves first to verify the findings of the metalinguistic discourse and second to identify complex issues that cannot be expressed unambiguously in everyday language.

Passive competence testing employs two strategies: one direct and one indirect. In the direct method, linguists construct grammatical forms or paradigms, along with phrases and sentences, in BR. Members of the ethnic group then confirm or correct these, and their corrections frequently trigger discussions and insights that exceed initial expectations.

In the indirect passive competence test, linguists assume the role of language learners. In everyday conversations with members of the ethnic group, they use BR to test questionable forms and phrase structures—some spontaneously, others prepared. As competent speakers, members of the ethnic group act as language teachers, correcting the linguists' mistakes. This, in turn, prompts new questions about structure and phrase translation, illustrating that the three strategy types are not used in isolation but are combined as appropriate to the situation.

The survey process is not linear but cyclical. In working meetings, linguists and employees from the ethnic groups raise and discuss questions. The linguists then reflect on and document the results, which are revisited in subsequent research team meetings with refined questions. This cycle of questioning, reflection, documentation, and refinement is repeated frequently. It is sustained by regular weekly meetings between representatives of the ethnic group and the research team's linguists.

The grammatical analysis offers an initial, comprehensive description of BR's structure. Its inflectional morphology reveals a characteristic distinction between pre-European and European lexical strata. For instance, verbs from more recent contact languages are marked by an integration marker, in contrast to pre-European verbs: *pis-in-av* < sla. *pisati* 'to write' versus *ker-av* < inc. *karoti* 'to make'.

Despite ongoing language change, BR maintains morphological homogeneity in both its nominal and verbal systems. The same is true of syntax: phrase structure and sentence syntax largely correspond to the features described in Matras (2002). At the same time, BR also exhibits contact-induced change in this domain.²⁷

3.2.3_Text analysis

Text analysis begins with the transcription of spontaneous speech conversations, initially carried out by co-workers from the respective ethnic groups. These transcripts are then discussed in working meetings with the linguists, who normalise them with respect to transcription and notation conventions and analyse them at both the lexical and grammatical levels. Grammatical structures such as those outlined above are verified through these spontaneous speech texts or are identified only during their processing and then incorporated into the analysis. The results are discussed and refined within the cyclical survey process described above until they are conclusively established. Working together on transcription and analysis is also a learning process for the linguists in the research team, increasing their metalinguistic and

ethnic group representatives about the purpose of elicitation situations and the structural description of BR. This experience demonstrates to the research team that complex linguistic relationships are fully understood only when they can also be expressed in everyday language.

27 The grammatical phenomena outlined above are discussed in detail in the next chapter.

linguistic competence in BR and ultimately enabling them to transcribe and analyse text recordings independently.

The central component of grammatical description in the codification process is the systematic evaluation of texts. The results of corpus queries and discussion-based working meetings play a crucial role in this, although they can also pose challenges. German serves both as the source language for word lists, translation requests, and similar tasks, and as the language of communication in joint meetings between representatives of the ethnic group and linguists. Consequently, when translating phrases and sentences, BR speakers operate in a bilingual mode in which the collaborative communicative context reinforces German dominance. This affects the lexical dimension of the survey more than the grammatical one, since members of the ethnic group already make a conscious effort to identify lexemes of non-German origin.

The functional distinction between perfective and imperfective preterite forms—such as *kerčas* vs. *kerehahi* 'you did'—is a case in point, as it cannot be clearly established through elicitation alone. The ethnic group collaborators' responses are either indifferent (both forms are said to be usable for past-tense reference) or interpret the difference between the two forms in parallel with the German contrast between the perfect and the imperfect. Only the analysis of spontaneous speech texts from older BR speakers reveals an aspectual distinction between processes or states in the past whose completion is irrelevant to the speaker's perspective (i.e., non-perfective) and specific events or processes completed in the past (i.e., perfective).

On the other hand, verifying grammatical structures solely based on spontaneous speech can be difficult. In the entire corpus of approximately 50 hours, there are only two examples of perfective preterite forms, such as *ker-č-om-ahi*, which in most Romani varieties function primarily as a past perfect. The paradigm reconstructed from these data, along with its associated function, is corroborated by passive competence tests and phrase translations. These two spontaneous forms, however, do not function as a past perfect, but rather as a perfective subjunctive or irrealis: *ker-č-om-ahi* 'I would have done'. Further elicitation confirms that this is the only function commonly used in BR.

This last example shows that useful results often emerge only from a combination of text evaluation and analysis, specifically through structural questions, phrase translations, and passive competence queries. In grammatical surveys, however, the findings from text evaluation should, in principle, be given priority over the results of pure queries. Data obtained from discursive query situations or query lists must always be checked against spontaneous language texts so that we capture not only possible structures but also their actual functionality in general language use.

3.4 Method and principles

Methodologically, the codification of BR does not follow any fixed template or model. The only requirement is to gather sufficient material and relevant information during the work process to enable a description of BR that allows for straightforward implementation in formal domains, especially in the media and education. The specific situation determines the method appropriate for each open task. The intuitive metalinguistic knowledge of the ethnic group co-workers and their competence as BR speakers, together with the linguists' intuitive understanding of linguistic structures in general and Romani in particular, as well as their field

research experience, are all integral parts of the codification process. The combined intuitive knowledge of the research team is applied appropriately to each situation to achieve the goal.

The strategies described are part of this process-inherent methodology. Standard tools of language assessment, such as word list queries, structural questions, passive competence queries, and text analysis, are often embedded in predefined methodological and content-related frameworks and therefore tend to produce only the expected results of a so-called self-fulfilling prophecy. This alone argues for an open-ended approach to each codification process.

Additional factors reinforce this need. Cooperation with ethnic group representatives is marked by uncertainties, including varying levels of participation and commitment, and the generally low level of language use within the ethnic group. Thus, it is often impossible to predict whether relevant structures can be identified together with ethnic group representatives in working meetings, or whether additional field research or discussions with older, more proficient speakers will be required.

The choice of method must therefore be made intuitively and in accordance with the specific situation. As already mentioned, any result is valuable as long as it provides useful information for documenting BR. This open-ended, intuitive approach to codifying BR is based on three principles:

- Flexibility,
- Participation,
- Practicability.

We have already discussed in detail why flexibility and spontaneity should take precedence over a schematized, checklist-based approach in the codification process. When spontaneity is appropriately adapted to the specific work situation, it consistently produces useful codification outcomes, unlike rigid, predefined guidelines.

Participation involves, first, the involvement of BR speakers in the codification process as equal partners and, second, the participation of the research team's linguists in the association's life and self-organisation. This second dimension is often subordinated to results-oriented work within the codification framework. Yet, the linguists' participation in the activities of the ethnic group can be described as limited participant observation, as they rarely engage in the everyday life of the Burgenland Roma. Instead, their presence is largely restricted to the periods immediately before and after working meetings at the association's premises, as well as to special events.

Practicality in the work process, accepting what is feasible rather than what is planned and prioritising what is currently possible over what has been prepared, is closely linked to flexibility. This principle also applies to implementing the codification results, a process that begins during the survey and, to some extent, shapes it. Only an approach that delivers practically implementable results will lead to the desired outcomes: the use of BR in formal contexts and measures to support potential language preservation.

3.5_Results

The primary result and basis of all other codification products is a descriptive grammar and documented vocabulary.

The first product is an alphabet primer (Halwachs et al. 1995) that primarily presents the written language. At the request of representatives of the Burgenland Roma, it follows a traditional design: a linear sequence of individual letters and letter combinations, supplemented by word lists, short sentences, and illustrations for basic vocabulary items, primarily relating to people, animals, and everyday objects. As the first book in Burgenland Romani, the primer is more symbolic than practical.

Indirect literacy instruction through computer games is significantly more effective than traditional alphabet primers. To complete the tasks in simple games, players need lexical knowledge of BR and must know how to spell individual lexemes, some of which are presented acoustically. Besides visitors to the association, who also receive the alphabet primer on this occasion, the games are frequently used by children and adolescents participating in the association's learning support programme. Since most of them have little or no competence in BR, the games also serve as a tool for language instruction.

Even more significant, however, is the resulting increase in the language's prestige. In the 1990s, computer-based language games were not yet widespread, and using a marginalised and stigmatised minority language such as BR in this context was unusual, at least in rural Austria. This transfer of technological prestige to linguistic prestige helps to raise interest in BR, particularly among children and young people.

Lexical documentation and grammatical description follow common templates; the latter covers phonology, morphology, and syntax. Morphology is traditionally divided into nouns, verbs, and particles. In this description, preference is given to practical and proven models rather than linguistically sophisticated ones or a single theoretical framework. The structural documentation of BR is guided by the principles of practicality and ease of implementation, which are presented comprehensively for the first time in Halwachs/Wogg (2002a, 2002b).

3.5.1_Language teaching

Early versions of the dictionary, grammar, glossaries, and structural descriptions are made available for internal use at an early stage and form the basis for developing teaching materials. From the outset, this work has focused on an illustrated textbook (Halwachs/Martens/Gläser 1998a) with detailed commentary. The textbook takes the form of a comic; the future primary target group, pupils supported by the association's learning assistance activities, chose the comic's future protagonists themselves. They selected a pair of hybrid, animal-like extraterrestrial fantasy figures: two-legged giraffes in blue and yellow, star-patterned trousers and jackets.

In the first lesson, these two fall from the sky in a box, are delivered to the school by the post office, and then visit the school together with the children. The framework and form of this textbook are significant because, through the choice made by the primary target group, they stand in stark contrast to the ethno-folkloric characteristics often found in teaching materials in the European minority context. In terms of content, everyday school life is presented, short stories are told, and on this basis, basic communication skills are taught. The teaching of ethno-tradition, which is common in such textbooks, is deliberately omitted.²⁸

28 The traditionalist orientation of teaching materials is usually decided by mostly older representatives of the respective minority, whereby the presentation of teaching content appropriate to the target group is often ignored in favour of ethno-folkloristic tradition transfer.

The primary teaching aid is a detailed teacher's commentary (Halwachs/Martens/Gläser 1998b). Beyond the lesson texts and their translations, it offers a comprehensive description of the vocabulary and idioms in each lesson, together with the relevant grammatical forms and communicative functions. It also includes guidance on reinforcing lesson content through games, as well as philosophical reflections tailored to children. These reflections deepen the content of individual lessons in a discursive manner. For example, the arrival of two unfamiliar and unusual textbook characters serves as a starting point for discussing "being foreign and being different" and "similarity and difference." Addressing these issues from the children's perspective is essential, and the staff involved receive special training for this purpose.

Teacher training is carried out in parallel with codification and the development of teaching materials. Ethnic group co-workers interested in this field prepare the materials in close cooperation with the linguists commissioned for the task and, in doing so, acquire the skills needed to use them appropriately. Extracurricular language courses, launched in autumn 1997, are team-taught by co-workers from the ethnic group and linguists. In addition to sporadic courses that focus primarily on the written form of BR, the programme targets children and young people in the association environment.

Experience gathered in these extracurricular courses forms the basis for school-based instruction. BR is offered as non-compulsory enrichment classes at primary schools in Oberwart/Felsőőr/Erba and neighbouring Unterwart/Alsőőr/Telutni Erba, as well as at the secondary school in Oberwart. To attend these weekly two-hour afternoon lessons, parents must register their children separately.

Teaching activities also take place at the multilingual grammar school in Oberwart, which offers German, Croatian, and Hungarian as languages of instruction, as well as through courses provided by the University of Graz. Curricula and suitable teaching materials are being developed for primary and secondary schools, as well as for grammar schools and universities. However, fluctuating demand, shaped by the commitment of those involved and hindered by the lack of structural support from the educational authorities, who remain relatively passive apart from verbal backing for the use of BR in teaching, results in limited continuity in these teaching activities.

3.5.2_Public language use

The use of BR in public domains began long before its introduction in school lessons. At first, it was restricted to a few oral uses, notably in religious contexts, for instance, during a Catholic bishop's mass, where intercessions were translated into BR.²⁹ With the emergence of a written variety, symbolic formal use expanded. Soon, bilingual written invitations to events and oral greetings in BR were joined by other sacred texts, mainly prayers, which were translated and used in church services dedicated to Roma communities. As noted above, once Roma co-workers familiar with writing conventions began writing down stories from memory, the production of functional texts within associations increased, and the symbolic use of BR at public events became commonplace. The next development was the publication of print media:

- The monolingual children's magazine *Mri Tikni Mini Multi* 'My Little Mini Multi', published continuously since 1998, and *Mri Nevi Mini Multi* 'My New Mini Multi' since 2003;

29 From the outset, the Catholic Church in Burgenland has supported the self-organisation of the Roma community there. Over the years, this commitment has led to the appointment of a Roma chaplain and a pastoral assistant, along with a wide range of other measures.

- The quarterly magazine *Romani Patrin* 'Roma Blatt', also founded in 1998 and ceasing publication in 2016, has been replaced by the magazine d|ROM|a, founded in 2004; the name is a combination of *Roma* and *droma* 'paths'.

BR was first broadcast in 1999 on Radio Mora, following the introduction of private radio stations in Austria. Radio Mora initially offered a multilingual programme supported by the Croatian ethnic group in Burgenland. When this programme was discontinued due to changes in the media market, the state broadcaster ORF took over responsibility for producing content in ethnic-group languages from 2001 onwards. Since then, BR has been represented on ORF radio, television, and online platforms.

At the beginning of 2023, the re-established Radio Mora expanded its programming to include Burgenland Romani and Hungarian. In the interim, it had been broadcasting in Burgenland Croatian as a school station and later as a community station in the Oberpullendorf area. Its programmes are available online and via terrestrial channels in the Oberpullendorf district, with plans to extend coverage to the Oberwart district.

Toward the end of the codification process, a series of printed publications, regularly featured at readings and other cultural events, also emerged as key public outputs of the project. They comprise edited fairy tales and stories from the text collection. An illustrated fairy-tale volume in BR (Ambrosch et al. 2000) was followed by a bilingual, annotated text volume (Halwachs et al. 2000) with an accompanying CD (Fennesz-Juhasz et al. 2002). These anthologies both mark the completion of the codification work and, for the first time, document the oral culture of the Burgenland Roma. The fairy tales and songs, recorded at only nineteen and seven, respectively, are the last remnants of a once-rich tradition eroded by social change in the second half of the 20th century. Above all, self-imposed assimilation in response to ongoing discrimination after the Nazi genocide, which destroyed the social structure of the Burgenland Roma, together with broader social change that ended multi-generational extended family life, has led to ongoing language erosion and declining language use. Rising media consumption has further accelerated the disappearance of oral culture. The collected fairy tales and songs, therefore, constitute the final relics of this tradition, in some cases reconstructed and edited with quasi-linguistic-archaeological precision. With the publication of these texts, the codification work is complete.

3.6 Effects and subsequent developments

After the intensive phase of the codification process, a consolidation phase will begin, following six years of close cooperation. Alongside the continuous expansion of the text collection, activities will concentrate on teaching and the use of BR in the media. The central aim is to shift responsibility for ongoing activities and future initiatives from the university-based research team to the ethnic group staff involved in the process. This aim is supported by the emerging restructuring of the Burgenland Roma's self-organisation. Due to steadily increasing obligations, the supporting organisation of the Burgenland Roma, the Roma Association in Oberwart, is showing clear signs of strain after more than ten years of work. In response, tasks were reorganised, leading to the founding of the Roma Service Association.³⁰ This new association initially focused on language-based cultural work and set language teaching and public

³⁰ With the dissolution of the Roma Association in 2016, the Roma Service Association has finally taken over the entire spectrum of activities again.

language use as its primary goals. It is supported by young Burgenland Roma and former research assistants from the codification team, who work together as equals in line with their qualifications under the responsible leadership of a member of the ethnic group. Their cooperation is grounded in the results of the codification process.

Functional change, which began long before codification, is reflected in changes in the collective linguistic repertoire of the Burgenland Roma:

Table 2: Historical language use

Domains	1920s	1960s	2000s	Description
Public	GERMAN Croatian/Hungarian	ENGLISH	ENGLISH	Varieties of public-formal domains used in administration, politics, the media, education, religious practice, etc.
everyday	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	ENGLISH	Varieties of the social macrocosm used in everyday life with acquaintances at work, during leisure time, etc., and with strangers while shopping, etc.
private	German Croatian/Hungarian ROMAN	GERMAN Croatian/Hungarian Roman	ENGLISH Roman	Varieties of the social microcosm used in private settings with one's partner, within the family, with close friends, etc.

Capital letters indicate which language is dominant. The label "1920s" refers to the period before the Holocaust; "1960s" marks the transitional phase, when BR was still used as an additional language in informal domains.

There has been a sharp decline in both multilingualism and the use of BR, triggered by genocide and reinforced by social developments in the second half of the 20th century. As described in the previous section, this shift from BR and other minority languages of Burgenland to German in everyday and private domains is, de facto, leading to collective monolingualism. While individual competence in BR still exists, depending on age, family background, interests, and other factors, the general means of communication and the preferred, default language of the Burgenland Roma in all domains is now German.

Today, BR is used, if at all, only in a few private situations: in contact between older members of the ethnic group and occasionally by younger members when interacting with them. It is also heard at gatherings on special occasions, such as celebrations and funerals. The example from the previous chapter of language use during a funeral in 2002 is paradigmatic of this type of situational use. In contrast, at the funeral of a prominent member of the ethnic group in 2012, BR was not perceptible in either a communicative or a symbolic function. This does not yet mark the complete end of BR, but it is a further indication that the Burgenland Roma are now almost monolingual German speakers.

Against the backdrop of socio-historical developments, a comparison between the sociolinguistic situation of BR in the early 21st century and that of the first half of the 20th century suggests that the language's vitality was effectively destroyed in the concentration camps, along with a large proportion of its speakers. The resulting decline in language use and the persistent shift toward German appear largely irreversible. Codification has done little to alter this trajectory. From a communicative-functional perspective, its impact is primarily limited to the language practices of so-called "activists", that is, members of ethnic groups involved in self-organisation and actively participating in processes of emancipation.

Table 3: Current language use

Domains	General	Elders	Activists	Description
Public	GERMAN	GERMAN	ENGLISH Roman	Varieties of public-formal domains used in administration, politics, the media, education, religious practice, etc.
everyday	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	Varieties of the social macrocosm used in everyday life with acquaintances at work, during leisure time, etc., and with strangers while shopping, etc.
private	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	ENGLISH Croatian/Hungarian Roman	Varieties of the social microcosm that are used in private settings with one's partner, within the family, with close friends, etc.

In this table, "elders" refers to individuals aged 80 or older. At the same time, "activists" are primarily younger members of the ethnic group, whose use of BR in organisational contexts can also influence their immediate social environment. Overall, however, the language use of the Burgenland Roma corresponds to the aforementioned de facto monolingualism. BR is now used privately only in a few cases, and even more rarely in everyday domains. This use is mostly confined to older generations, who use BR more frequently than younger ones do. When members of this age group live with younger generations, the likelihood increases that the younger generations will also occasionally use BR. As already noted, three-generation households are rare. The shift from BR to German and the dominance of German across all domains thus characterise the repertoires of all BR users. Their communicative behaviour remains largely unaffected by codification, even when they participate in club activities. For the vast majority of Burgenland Roma involved in such contexts, the use of BR remains restricted to the niche functions mentioned above. Overall, codification has no lasting impact on their communicative behaviour.

The increase in communicative functions brought about by codification appears only among the subgroup of "activists". In addition to German, they use BR in everyday club activities and occasionally in daily interactions with familiar members of the ethnic group who are proficient in Roman. For this group, however, the symbolic functions of BR in public-formal domains are far more important than its communicative role. When BR is used symbolically in speech, it is usually followed by a consecutive translation into German. This practice preserves its communicative function while ensuring general comprehensibility for all participants, both members of the ethnic group and other population groups. These public-formal statements differ from informal uses of BR by their more literary style and thus reflect the language change triggered by codification.³¹

Contact-induced language change in BR is primarily driven by developments in contact varieties resulting from written language. Before the emancipation movement and the subsequent codification, BR was mainly characterised by dialectal and regiolectal varieties of German. With the spread of written usage, however, the range of contact broadened and shifted towards supra-regional varieties and standard forms. The German written standard largely

³¹ The primary function of language is interaction and communication—social contact and the exchange of information. In this sense, language is the repertoire of all means that enable individuals or groups to meet their communicative needs. It is only through its secondary, symbolic function that human communicative means differentiate into distinct languages. These languages serve identificatory functions, symbolising membership in groups whose members share the same or similar linguistic repertoires. As a marker of identity and group affiliation, language is therefore also a means of separation and exclusion from others.

served as a model for extending BR into formal domains. This process not only led to the integration of domain-specific vocabulary but also affected the structural properties of BR. In contrast to informal spoken narrative texts, such as the examples in the chapters above, which contain only a few German lexemes and in which an utterance roughly corresponds to a sentence with a single proposition, the syntactic structures in written expansion texts in BR are more complex, and the number of borrowings is considerably higher:

<i>Aja <u>publication</u>, savi uso Vienna Festival <u>presents ol</u>, andar o kulturakero <u>festival</u> Romale!10 ari ali, savo ando linaj 2010 la akademijatar Gereci o dujtovar kerdo ulo. Romale! is a unique format, featuring discussions, presentations and family-friendly events involving artists, cultural figures, politicians and researchers from the Roma community in Europe.</i>	Diese <u>Publikation</u> , die nun auch im Rahmen der <u>Wiener Festwochen</u> <u>präsentiert</u> wird, ist aus dem <u>Kulturfestival Romale!10</u> hervorgegangen, welches im Sommer 2010 von der <u>Akademie Graz</u> zum zweiten Mal veranstaltet wurde. <u>Romale!</u> ist eine <u>Plattform</u> , die der <u>Diskussion</u> , der <u>Präsentation</u> und der <u>Vermittlung</u> von <u>Kunst</u> , <u>Kultur</u> , <u>Politik</u> und <u>Forschung</u> der Roma in Europa <u>dient</u> .	This <u>publication</u> , which is now also being <u>presented</u> as part of the <u>Vienna Festival</u> , emerged from the <u>Romale!10 cultural festival</u> , which was organised for the second time by the <u>Graz Academy</u> in the summer of 2010. <u>Romale!</u> is a <u>platform for discussion</u> , <u>presentation</u> and <u>communication of art</u> , <u>culture</u> , <u>politics</u> and <u>research relating to the Roma</u> in Europe.
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This example from the magazine d|ROM|a (30/2/2011: 10) largely follows the German model. Most of the borrowed lexemes are domain-specific items integrated into BR from standard German. The translation replicates not only missing lexical items but also German syntax. In spoken BR, attributive relative clauses are rare and occur mainly after the introduction of written usage. When they do occur, the relative pronoun is not *savo* 'this, which' but *so* 'what'. In this short excerpt, both phrase-level and sentence-level syntax closely follow the German model.

Within the ethnic group, only a small number of people produce translations and other written texts. The same is true of other expanding minority languages and would not in itself be problematic if there were adequate quality control or better feedback from competent speakers or critical readers. In bilingual magazines, it is primarily the German texts that convey information and thus fulfil the communicative function. The BR texts, by contrast, are mainly symbolic and are usually read only as a supplement. Because the overall level of language use is extremely low, the speaker control indispensable to such a process is rarely available. As a result, individual idiosyncrasies become entrenched, and inconsistencies and errors remain uncorrected. At the same time, the low level of language use reduces written BR texts largely to a symbolic role, pushing their communicative function into the background in favour of status. For this reason, the lack of speaker or reader control currently has no serious effect on the language behaviour of the few active BR users within the group. In the unlikely event of a revitalisation of BR, this could also lead to lasting changes in oral language use.

Codification brings only peripheral changes to the collective linguistic repertoire of the Burgenland Roma and has relatively little impact on informal oral use, and thus on the oral style of BR. Instead, language change appears mainly in written usage and in symbolic oral use in public-formal domains, which generally follow the written style. At the same time, the status of BR is undergoing a fundamental shift: in the 1990s, it developed from a stigmatised minority variety into a recognised ethnic group language. This change stems from codification initiated in response to the group's emancipation efforts, set against the backdrop of broader political developments. Written language and public language use have therefore become central symbols of the Burgenland Roma's emancipation, particularly in media and in

educational settings. As a result, BR has become a key marker of identity not only for the activists driving the emancipation process, but also for other segments of the ethnic group.

However, this newly acquired linguistic prestige has had no significant impact on everyday language use. The same is true of the school-based teaching activities outlined above. Following the intensive codification phase, classes initially started successfully in primary and secondary schools but were soon discontinued and are now (as already noted) confined to the Roma Service association's learning support programme.

The obstacles are numerous and persistent. Establishing BR classes depends on parental involvement, which is often insufficient despite activist support. Instruction is offered as so-called non-compulsory exercises, held in addition to regular lessons and competing with other, often attractive, leisure activities. Low birth rates mean that the minimum number of pupils cannot be reached at a single school. This requires cooperation among several schools, which frequently fails due to logistical difficulties or a lack of willingness to resolve them.

Although state educational institutions support and promote such teaching, it always remains dependent on the commitment of subordinate bodies. School autonomy and the disinterest of local decision-makers often undermine promising approaches, casting doubt on the usefulness of openly teaching BR. As a result, successful initiatives are rarely sustainable, and BR teaching in schools depends more on favourable circumstances and extracurricular efforts than on regular, routine provision. Non-compulsory exercises at a few schools are therefore repeatedly interrupted by periods with no BR classes at all, during which teaching occurs exclusively in association settings. Consequently, the statement from 2011 still holds today:

The success of language teaching in schools is difficult to measure in terms of numbers. Experience over the past few years has shown that the original strategy of offering Roman lessons as non-binding exercises in as many schools as possible is ineffective. Voluntary language lessons in the afternoon are not as competitive as football or dance. [...] Another insight from recent years is that language cannot be preserved through language courses and school lessons. That is why, for example, we completely redesigned the Romanh course in Deutsch Kaltenbrunn. Ostensibly a cooking course, it brings language teaching directly into the family—we meet with representatives of all generations in the kitchen, cook and speak only in Roman. Der Erfolg des Sprachunterrichts an den Schulen lässt sich mit Zahlen weniger gut messen. Die Erfahrung der letzten Jahre hat gezeigt, dass die ursprünglich verfolgte Strategie, an so vielen Schulen wie möglich Romanunterricht in Form von Unverbindlichen Übungen anzubieten, nicht zielführend ist. Freiwilliger Sprachunterricht am Nachmittag ist im Vergleich zu Fußball oder Tanz wenig konkurrenzfähig. [...] Eine weitere Erkenntnis aus den letzten Jahren: Man kann eine Sprache nicht mit Sprachkursen und Schulunterricht erhalten. Deshalb gestalteten wir beispielsweise den Roman-Kurs in Deutsch Kaltenbrunn komplett neu. Vordergründig ein Kochkurs, trägt er den Sprachunterricht direkt in die Familie – wir treffen uns mit Vertretern aller Generationen in der Küche, kochen und sprechen dabei nur Roman.(d|ROM|a 31 / 3/2011: 22)

Extracurricular activities such as the mentioned Roman cooking class bring families and their neighbours, as well as the elders of the respective community, together. Such unusual gatherings correspond to the described use of BR for specific occasions and lie between communicative and symbolic functionality. However, despite having little influence on language use in private and everyday domains, these activities promote interest in BR, develop partial language competence, and, most importantly in this context, foster positive language awareness, especially among younger participants. This, in turn, results in the most important effect of such activities, namely their significant contribution to a positive image of being a *Romani*

man or woman. This can help children and young people in particular to cope better with ethnic stigmatisation and the associated discrimination in everyday life. Ethnic self-awareness increases self-esteem and contributes significantly to the integration of young Roma.

The integrative function is also the only economic argument for financing both the codification of a minority language that is hardly used actively anymore and the associated follow-up activities. Strengthening ethnic self-awareness and self-esteem enhances the capacity of stigmatised, marginalised groups to integrate and thus significantly reduces the social costs of marginalisation. In the specific case of BR, two additional arguments apply. First, the Burgenland Roma have a legal claim against the Republic of Austria to support and fund the cultural activities of this ethnic group. Second, the majority population has a moral obligation to show appropriate appreciation for this culture, largely destroyed in the concentration camps together with its bearers, as an integral part of Austrian culture.

The structural conditions for revitalising BR as an everyday language are lacking, and the language shift has most likely already progressed too far to be reversed. Even under optimal circumstances, the communicative functions of BR can hardly be reactivated for most Burgenland Roma. Nevertheless, to preserve the integrative aspect of codification grounded in its symbolic functions, appropriate measures by the ethnic group must continue to receive adequate and consistent support. The opportunity to learn and use their ancestral language, even if primarily symbolically, should not be an option but a self-evident right of the Burgenland Roma.

4_Structure

This grammatical description follows established models and covers the three areas of phonology, morphology, and syntax, giving preference to practical approaches rather than a single theoretical framework. The example sentences are largely drawn from the codification sample, and the abbreviations, as well as the interlinear grammatical notation, are based on international standards.

4.1_Phonology

This chapter deals with consonants, vowels and stress patterns. Typical features of BR include the use of diphthongs, the loss of aspiration in /tʰ/, palatalisation, the sound shift /s > h/, loss of /s/ in final position, and the contraction of sound clusters containing /v/. The original phonemes /z/ and /ʒ/ occur only as allophones of /s/ and /ʃ/ respectively.

4.1.1_Consonants

BR has 29 consonant phonemes. The aspirated fricatives occur only in pre-European lexemes, while the velar fricative /x/ appears only in recent loanwords from German.

Table 4: Consonant phonemes

PLACE TYPE	labial				coronal				dorsal				laryngeal			
	bilabial		labio-dental		alveolar		post-alveolar		palatal		velar		uvular		glottal	
Plosives	p	b			t	ɖ					k	ɡ				
<i>aspirated</i>	p ^h				t ^h						k ^h					
<i>palatalised</i>					tʲ	ɖʲ					kʲ	ɡʲ				
Frikatives			f	v	s		ʃ				x				h	
Affricates					ʦ		tʃ	ɖʃ								
Approximants										j						
Nasals		m				n										
<i>palatalised</i>						nʲ										
Vibrants						r										
Laterals						l										
<i>palatalised</i>						lʲ										

The graphemes are listed in the following table in alphabetical order:³²

Table 5: Consonant graphemes

Graphemes	b	c	č	d	d'	dž	f	g	ğ	h	j	k	ķ	kh	l	l'	m	n	ñ	p	ph	r	s	š	t	t'	th	v	x
Phonemes	b	ʦ	tʃ	ɖ	ɖʲ	ʦʃ	f	ɡ	ɡʲ	h	j	k	kʲ	k ^h	l	lʲ	m	n	nʲ	p	p ^h	r	s	ʃ	t	tʲ	t ^h	v	x

³² In contrast, the Burgenland Roma prefer a spelling system based on German conventions, that does not use diacritical marks. Accordingly, the phonemes /tʃ/ are rendered as <tsch>, /dʒ/ as <dsch>, /ʃ/ as <sch>, /x/ as <ch>, and palatalisation indicated by a following <j> as in <dj, gj, kj, lj, nj, tj>.

BR exhibits several sound changes resulting from contraction. The most common is the reduction of clusters containing intervocalic /y/.³³

<i>iva</i>	> <i>ija</i>	: <i>ia</i>	* <i>sívas</i>	> <i>síjas</i>	'we sew'
<i>ova</i>	> <i>oja</i>	: <i>oa</i>	* <i>róvav</i>	> <i>rójav</i>	'I cry'
<i>uva</i>	> <i>uja</i>	: <i>ua</i>	* <i>garúvas</i>	> <i>garújav</i>	'we hide'
<i>avi</i>	> <i>aji</i>		* <i>asavípe</i>	> <i>asajípe</i>	'laughter'
<i>ivi</i>	> <i>iji</i>		* <i>dživípe</i>	> <i>džijípe</i>	'life'
<i>ovi</i>	> <i>oji</i>		* <i>rovípe</i>	> <i>rojipe</i>	'crying'
<i>uvi</i>	> <i>uji</i>		* <i>garuvípe</i>	> <i>garujípe</i>	'hiding'
<i>ave</i>	> <i>aj</i>		* <i>sikáves</i>	> <i>sikájs</i>	'you show'
<i>ove</i>	> <i>oj</i>		* <i>róves</i>	> <i>rójs</i>	'you cry'
<i>uve</i>	> <i>uj</i>		* <i>garúves</i>	> <i>garújs</i>	'you hide'
<i>ave</i>	> <i>a</i>		* <i>sikável</i>	> <i>sikál</i>	'(s)he schows'
<i>ove</i>	> <i>o</i>		* <i>róven</i>	> <i>rón</i>	'you/they cry'
<i>uve</i>	> <i>u</i>		* <i>garúvel</i>	> <i>garúl</i>	(s)he hides
<i>ive</i>	> <i>i</i>		* <i>sível</i>	> <i>síl</i>	(s)he sees'

As the examples above show, the cluster /ye/ is generally reduced to /j/ before the fricative /s/, while it is omitted in other contexts.

Intervocalic /l/ or /n, nʲ/ are sometimes also elided:

* <i>phabalín</i>	> <i>phabajín</i>	'apple tree'
* <i>badarkína</i>	> <i>badarkíja</i>	'female doctor'
* <i>páni</i>	> <i>páj</i>	'water'
* <i>khóni</i>	> <i>khóji</i>	'tallow'

4.1.1.1 Plosives

BR has three aspirated voiceless plosives /pʰ, tʰ, kʰ/ alongside the corresponding unaspirated ones /p, t, k/:

<i>pérav</i>	: <i>phérav</i>	'to fall' : 'to fill'
<i>tán</i>	: <i>thán</i>	'clothes' : 'place'
<i>kér!</i>	: <i>khér</i>	'do!' : 'house'

As in German, the relationship between the plosives /b, d, g/ and /p, t, k/ is better described as a fortis–lenis contrast rather than a voiced–voiceless contrast:³⁴

<i>báj</i> /bʰaʲ/	: <i>páj</i> /paʲ/	'sleeve' : 'water'
<i>dáj</i> /dʰaʲ/	: <i>táj</i> /taʲ/	'mother' : 'and'
<i>gér</i> /gʰer/	: <i>kér!</i> /ker/	'scabies' : 'do!'

In word-final position, the plosives /b, d, g/ are realised as fortis, but in inflected forms, the lenis variants always occur.

<i>dráb</i> /dʰrap/	: <i>drab-a</i> /dʰraɓa/	'herb' : 'herbs'
<i>dád</i> /dʰat/	: <i>dad-éske</i> /daɗeske/	'father' : 'for father'

33 Lexemes marked with an asterisk (*) do not occur in this form in BR, but they are found in other Romani varieties or in "Early Romani" (Matras 2002) reconstructed on the basis of varieties spoken today.

34 Lenis variants are represented as devoiced voiced phonemes: /Ç/.

hánig /hanik/ : *hanig-áte* /hanigate/ 'well' : 'in well'

In some words, the fortis is lexicalised in the final position, as in *phúrt* < **phurd* 'bridge', cf. *phurtóri* 'footbridge', or *sík* < **sig* 'fast', cf. *síkípe* 'speed'.

The palatalised plosives /ɟʲ, tʲ, ɡʲ, kʲ/ are the result of secondary processes at morpheme boundaries or of borrowings from contact languages.

hurďójav < *húrd+ój-av* 'to become smaller' < 'little+derivation suffix'

butári < *búti+ári* 'worker' < 'work+agent suffix'

váġo < hun. *vagyon* 'assets'

4.1.1.2_Affricates

The affricates in BR include /c/, /tʃ/ and /dʃ/.

cerha 'tent'

čoro 'poor'

džav 'to go'

The originally aspirated affricate /tʃʰ/ in Romanes has been reduced to /tʃ/, as in *čavo* < **čhavo*. A further sound shift, /g/ > /dʃ/, occurs, among others, in certain variants of the noun *gili*, yielding the variant *dschili* 'song'.

Influenced by local Hungarian dialects, the original palatal /j/ is changing to /dʃ/ in initial and post-consonantal positions, yielding two possible realisations.

járo : *džáro* 'flour'

jálo : *džálo* 'raw'

jív : *dživ* 'snow'

jévend : *džénd* 'winter'

Sometimes /j/ is also realised as /tʃ/.

ják : *čák* < **džak* 'eye'

jék : *čék* < **džek* 'one'

In post-consonantal position, the affricate /dʃ/ is generally pronounced as /tʃ/ under the influence of German: *čorčal* < **čordžal* < **čorjal* 'secretly'.

As a result of a similar development, the originally palatalised dental /ɟʲ/ is alternatively realised as /tʃ/ in post-consonantal position:

dandérďa > *dandérča* '(s)he bit'

thóďom > *thóčom* 'I washed'

On the other hand, /ɟʲ/ becomes /dʃ/ in word-initial position and between vowels:

**godar* > *góďžar* 'clever'

**ďomra* < hun. *gyomor* > *džómra* 'stomach'

**faďo* < hun. *fagy* > *fádžo* 'frost'

The initial /z/ in Slavic and Hungarian loanwords becomes the affricate /dʃ/:

džámba < sla. *žaba* 'frog'

džíla < sla. *žila* 'vein'

džído < hun. *zsídó* 'jew'

An exception is the Slavic-derived *čúto* < **džuto* < **žuto* < sla. *žut* 'yellow', where the originally voiced affricate becomes voiceless.

The affricate /ʦ/ occurs in some Greek-derived words and, in particular, in recent loans:

cípa < grc. *tsípa* 'skin'

gránica < sla. *granica* 'border'

cedúla < hun. *cédula* 'document'

becírk < deu. *Bezirk* 'district'

4.1.1.3_Fricatives

The fricatives are /f, v, s, ʃ, x/ and /h/. Unlike in other Romani dialects, /z/ and /ʒ/ in BR are merely allophones of /s/ and /ʃ/. The lenis realisations, i.e. /z̥/ and /ʒ̥/, are common in the immediate vicinity of sonorants, while in intervocalic position, slight voicing is also possible, yielding /z/ and /ʒ/. The phonemes /v/ and /f/ also exhibit a lenis-fortis opposition:

fa- /fa/ < deu. *ver-* 'verbal prefix' : *vá* /va/ 'hand'

In word-final position, /v/ is always realised as fortis, but in inflected forms, its lenis variants consistently appear:

gáv /gaf/ : *gav-éste* /gaʋeste/ 'village' : 'in village'

rúv /ruf/ : *rúv-a* /ruʋa/ 'wolf' : 'wolves'

The original velar fricative /x/ merges with the glottal /h/, probably due to Hungarian influence, e.g. **xuxur* > *húhur* 'chanterelle'. Through German loanwords, the velar /x/ is reintroduced into the BR, e.g. *dúax* < deu. *durch* 'through'. The original consonant cluster /xt/ is generally replaced by /st/ as in *bást* < **baxt* 'luck' and *mósto* < **moxto* 'chest', but by /ft/ in *ófto* < **oxto* 'eight'.

Initial /s/ is retained only in pronouns and forms of the existential verb 'to be':

só; sávo 'what; which'

sóm; somáhi 'I am; I was'

sín(a) '(s)he was / they were'

The exception is the third-person singular present tense, *sí* > *hí* 'he/she is', although *sí* is still rarely used.

The shift from /s/ to /h/ in intervocalic position is an innovation of the BR:

**soresa* > *soréha* 'with power'

**kerasa* > *keráha* 'we will make'

**kerasasi* > *keráhahi* 'we made'

**kerd'amasi* > *kerčámahi* 'we would have make'

The final fricative /s/ has been lost in

a) Endings of Greek-derived masculine nouns:

**foros* > *fóro* 'town'

**papus* > *pápu* 'grandfather'

**amonis* > *amoni* 'Amboss'

b) Reflexive pronouns:

**pes* > *pé* 'himself/herself'

c) The third person singular perfective:

**kérďas* > *kérča* '(s)he made'

d) The masculine singular forms of the obliques:

**manúšes* > *manúše* 'human'

e) Adverbs:

**polokes* > *polóke* 'slowly'

The final /s/ is, however, retained in the second-person singular and first-person plural forms of the present tense, e.g. *kéres* 'you do' and *kéras* 'we do'.

4.1.1.4_Nasals, Laterals und Vibrants

The nasals are /m/, /n/ and the palatalised /nʲ/. The lateral /l/ also has a palatal counterpart, /lʲ/. The original Romanes fricative /ř/ has merged with /r/, e.g. **bař* > *bár* 'stone'.

The final /n/ is lost in the original suffix of abstract nouns **-ipen* and **(i)ben*, and, together with the preceding /e/, in the participle suffix **-imen*:

**čaćipen* > *čačipe* 'law'

**xaben* > *hábe* 'food'

**cidimen* > *cídím* 'pulled'

The original cluster **/ndř/* is completely replaced by /r/:

**mindřo* > *mró* 'mine'

**mandřo* > *máro* 'bread'

**pindřo* > *pró* 'foot'

**xandřo* > *háro* 'sword'

**kandřo* > *káro* 'thorn'

Like the palatalised dentals, the palatalised lateral /lʲ/ is the result of phonological processes at morpheme boundaries.

gulárav < *gúlo+ár-av* 'to sweeten'

Apart from a few Greek lexemes, the palatalised /nʲ/ occurs primarily in loanwords:

éňa grc. *ennéa* 'nine'

lépiňa sla. *lepinja* 'apple pie'

suňóga hun. *szúnyog* 'mosquito'

As a result of morphophonological processes, /nʲ/ appears in

a) Inflected forms of feminine nouns:

phéňa < *phén* 'sisters' < 'sister'

b) verbs formed with the suffixes *-ov-* and *-ar-*:

selenőjav < *seleno+ov-av* 'to blossom; to turn green' *seléno* 'green'

parňarav < *parno+ar-av* 'to fade; to turn white' *párno* 'white'

4.1.1.5_Palatal

The palatal consonant in BR is the approximant /j/. In some words, it varies freely at the beginning of a word with the affricates /tʃ/ or /dʃ/:

járko : *čárko* 'trench'

járo : *džáro* 'flour'

The phoneme /j/ appears in the perfective forms of verbs ending in a vowel, arising from the deletion of intervocalic /nʲ/, which often results in diphthongs.

**asaňam* > *asájam* 'we laughed'

**rodiňom* > *rodíjom* 'I searched'

4.1.1.6_Positions of the consonants

Except for /x/, all consonants of the BR occur at the beginning of a word. The palatal /j/, the fricative /h/, and the aspirated plosives /p^h, t^h, k^h/ do not occur at the end of a word; the latter are restricted to the middle of compound words, e.g. *sakothan* 'everywhere' < *sako* 'every' + *than* 'place'. The palatalised plosives and the nasal /nʲ/ occur only in medial position.

Table 6: Position of the consonants

	initial	medial	final	translation
	<i>bríga</i>	<i>bobórka</i>	<i>dráb</i>	'worry', 'cucumber', 'herb'
<c>	<i>cípa</i>	<i>klínco</i>	<i>špíc</i>	'skin', 'nail', 'tip'
<č>	<i>číb</i>	<i>bočkóra</i>	<i>pánč</i>	'language', 'shoe', 'five'
<d>	<i>dráb</i>	<i>kéden</i>	<i>dánd</i>	'medicinal herb', 'Tuesday', 'tooth'
<dʰ>	–	<i>lonďárav</i>	–	'to salt'
<dž>	<i>džúvli</i>	<i>vódži</i>	<i>ládž</i>	'woman', 'heart', 'shame'
<f>	<i>fóro</i>	<i>kéfa</i>	<i>héf</i>	'town', 'brush', 'hole'
<g>	<i>gúlo</i>	<i>flógo</i>	<i>jág</i>	'sweet', 'people', 'fire'
<ğ>	–	<i>banğárav</i>	–	'to bend'
<h>	<i>híšo</i>	<i>múlhi</i>	–	'shadow', 'fog'
<x>	–	<i>blóxo</i>	<i>jóx</i>	'sheet metal', 'yoke'
<j>	<i>járo</i>	<i>bíjav</i>	–	'flour', 'wedding'
<k>	<i>kát</i>	<i>kéčka</i>	<i>jak</i>	'scissors', 'goat', 'eye'
<ķ>	–	<i>faboķárav</i>	–	'to starve'
<kh>	<i>khér</i>	<i>fakhélel</i>	–	'house', 'gamble away'
<l>	<i>lóš</i>	<i>melálo</i>	<i>mól</i>	'joy', 'dirty', 'wine'
<m>	<i>máro</i>	<i>moméli</i>	<i>čám</i>	'bread', 'candle', 'cheek'
<n>	<i>nák</i>	<i>kénva</i>	<i>phén</i>	'nose', 'book', 'sister'
<ň>	–	<i>éňa</i>	–	'nine'
<p>	<i>pér</i>	<i>pápin</i>	<i>rúp</i>	'stomach', 'goose', 'silver'
<ph>	<i>phúv</i>	<i>faphándel</i>	–	'earth', 'connect'
<r>	<i>rík</i>	<i>báro</i>	<i>búr</i>	'page', 'big', 'bush'

<s>	<i>sáp</i>	<i>bórso</i>	<i>khás</i>	'snake', 'hedgehog', 'hay'
<š>	<i>šúkar</i>	<i>bríšind</i>	<i>trúš</i>	'beautiful', 'rain', 'thirst'
<t>	<i>tór</i>	<i>táto</i>	<i>bást</i>	'axe', 'warm', 'happiness'
<t̥>	–	<i>bastáke</i>	–	'fortunately'
<th>	<i>thúd</i>	<i>fathárel</i>	–	'milk', 'burn'
<v>	<i>véřda</i>	<i>ásvin</i>	<i>gáv</i>	'cart', 'tear', 'village'

4.1.2_Vowels und Diphthongs

The original vowels of Romani are <a, e, i, o, u>. The rounded vowels <ö, ü> are found only in German loans:

peasönlix < deu. *persönlich* 'personal'

špülinel > deu. *spülen* 'to rinse'

Table 7: Vowel phonemes and graphemes

Position	front		back	
high	/ɪ/	/y/		/ʊ/
	<i>	<ü>		<u>
middle	/ɛ/	/ø/		/ɔ/
	<e>	<ö>		<o>
low	/a/			
	<a>			
rounding	–	+	–	+

The loss of the final /e/ is standard after nasals and optional after /r/ and /j/.

**čačikáne* > *čačikán* 'true'

**khetáne* > *khetán* 'together'

**náne* > *nán* 'is not'

**určime* > *určím* 'dressed'

khére : *khér* 'at home'

korkóre : *korkór* 'alone'

lináje : *lináj* 'in summer'

Stressed vowels are pronounced long in BR. However, vowel length is not a phonological feature.

The falling diphthongs <aj, oj, uj> are also found in pre-European lexemes, among others:

rášaj /raʃaj/ < inc. *r̥si* 'priest'

rój /roʃ/ < inc. *ḍova* 'spoon'

múj /muʃ/ < inc. *mukha* 'mouth'

BR has adopted a further two falling diphthongs <au, ej> and four rising diphthongs <ea, ia, oa, ua> with German dialectal loanwords:³⁵

35 In a falling diphthong, the nucleus is the first vowel and the sonority decreases (e.g. /aʊ/), whereas in a rising diphthong, the nucleus is on the second vowel and the sonority increases (e.g. /ia/).

autéri /aʊte:ri/ < deu.dial. *Auto* 'car'
bejchéri /beʲxeri/ < deu.dial. *Becher* 'cup'
šeá /ʃeǎ/ < deu.dial. *Scher* 'mole'
íádeni /iǎdeni/ < deu.dial. *irden* 'earthen'
oáxlina /oǎxlina/ < deu.dial. *Eichel* 'acorn'
luám /lʊǎm/ < deu.dial. *Lehm* 'clay'

Table 81: Diphthongs

/aʲ/↑	/ɛʲ/↑	/oʲ/↑	/uʲ/↑	/aʊ/↑	/ɛǎ/↓	/iǎ/↓	/oǎ/↓	/ʊǎ/↓
<aj>	<ej>	<oj>	<uj>	<au>	<ea>	<ia>	<oa>	<ua>

4.1.2.1 Positions of vowels and diphthongs

Apart from <ö> and <ü>, which occur only medially, vowels can be found in any position. Of the diphthongs, <oj> and <ua> do not occur at the beginning of a word.

Table 9: Position of vowels and diphthongs

	initial	medial	final	Translation
<a>	<i>ákor</i>	<i>ráni</i>	<i>mamúca</i>	'nut', 'lady', 'monkey'
<aj>	<i>ájgeni</i>	<i>cájt</i>	<i>rášaj</i>	'own', 'time', 'priest'
<au>	<i>autéri</i>	<i>káunlina</i>	<i>čáu</i>	'car', 'jug', 'boy/son'
<e>	<i>éňa</i>	<i>lén</i>	<i>búke</i>	'nine', 'river', 'liver'
<ej>	<i>éjnkl</i>	<i>vejtéri</i>	<i>hokej</i>	'grandson', 'weather', 'hockey'
<ea>	<i>eášti</i>	<i>geám</i>	<i>šeá</i>	'first', 'yeast', 'mole'
<i>	<i>ivend</i>	<i>hánig</i>	<i>pajtási</i>	'winter', 'well', 'friend'
<ia>	<i>íádeni</i>	<i>fíabéri</i>	<i>šía</i>	'earthly', 'fever', 'at least'
<o>	<i>ófto</i>	<i>hórdo</i>	<i>góno</i>	'eight', 'barrel', 'sack'
<ö>	–	<i>röméri</i>	–	'Roman'
<oj>	<i>ójav</i>	<i>bójd</i>	<i>rój</i>	'become', 'soon', 'spoon'
<oa>	<i>oáxlina</i>	<i>roás</i>	–	'acorn', 'journey'
<u>	<i>údud</i>	<i>dúr</i>	<i>fáču</i>	'light', 'far', 'child'
<ü>	–	<i>fülfedéri</i>	–	'fountain pen'
<uj>	<i>Ujvára</i>	<i>sapújn</i>	<i>dúj</i>	'Güssing', 'soap', 'two'
<ua>	–	<i>luám</i>	–	'clay'

4.1.3 Stress

BR generally has penultimate stress, i.e. the penultimate syllable of a word is stressed:³⁶

ávas 'we come'
físo 'band'
akárav 'I call'
barúno 'stony'
pajtási 'friend'
eňáto 'nine'
muršéske 'for the man'

³⁶ Throughout the text stress is indicated by an acute accent (´) placed on the stressed vowel.

Antepenultimate stress, i.e. stress on the second-to-last syllable, characterises

a) Genitive forms of nouns:

pajtašískero 'of the friend'

manušéngero 'of the people'

b) the non-perfective past forms of verbs, except the first person singular:

phiréhahi 'you have gone'

phírlahi '(s)he has gone'

c) Adjectives derived with the suffix *-ítik-*:

felítiko 'various'

rustítiko 'Russian'

Ultimate stress, or the stress on the final syllable, is mostly caused by contraction:

adá < **adáva* 'this'

akán < **akána* 'now'

asáj < **asáve* 'such'

baról < **baróvel* '(s)he grows'

džidó < **džidóvo* 'Jew'

kerá < **keráva* 'I will do'

parájs < **paráves* '(s)he splits'

sikál < **sikável* '(s)he shows'

Final stress is also found in the pronouns *amén* 'we', *tumén* 'you', *pumén* 'yourselves', *adáj* 'here', and *odój* 'there'.

In the case of recent nominal borrowings from German, their stress in the basic form is also adopted:

cájtigi 'early'

štúfnina 'step'

reákcija 'reaction'

However, the corresponding inflected forms and derivations usually revert to penultimate stress:

cajtigípe 'timeliness'

štufnúno 'gradual'

reakcijáke 'for the reaction'

4.2_Morphology

This chapter deals with nominals, verbs and particles. The distinction between words of pre-European origin and European loanwords is evident in their different inflexions.

4.2.1_Nominals

Nominals include nouns and their articles, adjectives and numerals, as well as pronouns.

4.2.1.1 Nouns

BR exhibits the typical features of south-central varieties: the abstract suffix *-šag/-čag-*, borrowed from Hungarian, alongside the original suffix *-ipe*; the Slavic-derived derivational suffix *-kija* for feminine nouns; the loss of the synthetic vocative; the omission of the final *-s* in the accusative singular of masculine nouns, and the gradual replacement of the synthetic ablative and locative by analytic constructions with prepositions.

4.2.1.1.1 Declination

Nouns are characterised by the categories of gender (masculine : feminine), number (singular : plural) and case. Within the latter category, a distinction is made between the primary cases (nominative : oblique) and the five secondary cases derived from the oblique (dative, ablative, locative, instrumental, genitive).

Table 10: Singular declension of pre-European nouns

Singular		masculin		feminin	
Rectus	Nominative	<i>mánuš</i>	<i>khór-o</i>	<i>rákl-i</i>	<i>jág</i>
Oblique	Accusative	<i>manúš-e</i>	<i>khór-e</i>	<i>rákl-a</i>	<i>jág-a</i>
	Dative	<i>manuš-és-ke</i>	<i>khór-és-ke</i>	<i>rakl-á-ke</i>	<i>jag-á-ke</i>
	Ablative	<i>manuš-és-tar</i>	<i>khór-és-tar</i>	<i>rakl-á-tar</i>	<i>jag-á-tar</i>
	Locative	<i>manuš-és-te</i>	<i>khór-és-te</i>	<i>rakl-á-te</i>	<i>jag-á-te</i>
	Instrumental/Sociative	<i>manuš-é-ha</i>	<i>khór-é-ha</i>	<i>rakl-á-ha</i>	<i>jag-á-ha</i>
	Genitive	<i>manuš-és-ker</i>	<i>khór-és-ker</i>	<i>rakl-á-ker</i>	<i>jag-á-ker</i>

mánuš 'human' / *khóro* 'jar' / *rákl-i* 'girl' / *jág* 'fire'

Table 11: Plural declension of pre-European nouns

Plural		masculin		feminin	
Rectus	Nominative	<i>manúš-a</i>	<i>khór-e</i>	<i>rákl-a</i>	<i>jág-a</i>
Oblique	Accusative	<i>manúš-en</i>	<i>khór-en</i>	<i>rákl-en</i>	<i>jág-en</i>
	Dative	<i>manuš-én-ge</i>	<i>khór-én-ge</i>	<i>rakl-én-ge</i>	<i>jag-én-ge</i>
	Ablative	<i>manuš-én-dar</i>	<i>khór-én-dar</i>	<i>rakl-én-dar</i>	<i>jag-én-dar</i>
	Locative	<i>manuš-én-de</i>	<i>khór-én-de</i>	<i>rakl-én-de</i>	<i>jag-én-de</i>
	Instrumental/Sociative	<i>manuš-én-ca</i>	<i>khór-én-ca</i>	<i>rakl-én-ca</i>	<i>jag-én-ca</i>
	Genitive	<i>manuš-én-ger</i>	<i>khór-én-ger</i>	<i>rakl-én-ger</i>	<i>jag-én-ger</i>

The case markers are *-ke/-ge* for the dative, *-te/-de* for the locative, *-ha/-ca* for the instrumental, and *-ker/-ger-* for the genitive. The genitive is additionally marked by gender, e.g. *manusch-én-ger-o* 'human-OBL.PL-GEN-M.SG; of humans. The third primary case of Romanes, the vocative, has been replaced by the nominative in the BR, apart from a few fossilised forms such as *rája* 'Sir!' or *Devla* 'God!'.

4.2.1.1.2 Noun classes

The origin of nouns plays an important role in their classification into declension classes. While the nominative and oblique endings of pre-European nouns differ from those of nouns of European origin, the secondary case suffixes remain unchanged.

Nouns from European contact languages take the nominative singular adaptation suffixes *-o*, *-i*, *-u* and *-a*, which are borrowed from Greek. The first three mark masculine nouns, while *-a*

marks feminine nouns. The borrowing of unmarked consonant-final nouns has led to the formation of additional noun classes.

Table 12: Declension classes

Layer	Class	Nominative		Oblique		Example	Translation
		SG	PL	SG	PL		
Pre-european	Ø-M	-Ø	-a	-es-	-en-	<i>khér</i>	'house'
	o-M	-o	-e	-es-	-en-	<i>rákl-o</i>	'boy'
	i-M	-i	-a	-es-	-en-	<i>svír-i</i>	'hammer'
	u-M	-u	-i	-es-	-en-	<i>kúk-u</i>	'egg'
	Abstracts	-e	-ča	-es-	-en-	<i>ašaríp-e</i>	'praise'
	Ø-F	-Ø	-a -ja	-a- -ja-	-en-	<i>džúv phén</i>	'sister' 'louse'
	i-F	-i	-a -ja	-a- -ja-	-en-	<i>rákl-i kún-i</i>	'girl' 'elbow'
	a-F	-a	-i	-a	-en	<i>pháb-a</i>	'Apfel'
European	o-M	-o	-i -ovča	-os- -os-	-en-	<i>gróf-o félh-o</i>	'count' 'cloud'
	Abstracts	-o	-ošca	-os-	-en-	<i>birovčág-o</i>	'court'
	u-M	-u	-uvča	-us-	-en-	<i>fáč-u</i>	'child'
	i-M	-i	-ča	-is-	-en-	<i>badár-i</i>	'doctor'
	Ø-M	-Ø	-ča -ča -ini	-is- -jis- -is	-en-	<i>farájn kafé pėjmsl</i>	'club' 'coffee' 'brush'
	a-F	-a	-i	-a-	-en-	<i>báb-a</i>	'grandmother'
	Ø-F	-Ø	-ča	-a-	-en-	<i>róas</i>	'journey'

The declension of pre-European nouns does not differ significantly from that of "Early Romani" (see Elschík 2000). The regular pre-European classes comprise masculine forms ending in -o or a consonant (Ø-M / o-M) and the feminine forms ending in -i or a consonant (Ø-F / i-F).

Unlike in other varieties, the oblique singular suffix *-as- of pre-European abstract nouns is replaced by -es-, and in the nominative plural, -j- is affricated to -č.

Of the so-called 'u-masculines' from pre-European languages, only the two of Greek origin—*kúku* 'egg' < grc. *kūkki* and *pápu* 'grandfather' < grc. *pappoús*—are attested; of the so-called 'i-masculines', five are attested:

amój-i 'anvil' < grc. *amoni*
simád-i 'pledge' < grc. *simádi*
sirím-i 'belt' < grc. *syrma*
svír-i 'hammer' < grc. *sfiri*
vodž-i 'heart' < arm. *hogi*

In addition, there are five irregular forms. These include *srást-a* 'iron' < inc. *śastra*, which ends in -a and has the regular oblique endings, e.g. *srastéha* 'with iron'.

Furthermore, *dí* 'day' < inc. *divasa* and *Dél* 'God' < inc. *devatā*, which, due to the loss of the intervocalic -v-, have monosyllabic short forms in the nominative singular, but form polysyllabic forms with -v- in the plural and other cases: *divésa* 'days', *devléske* 'for God'.

Similarly, in the case of *grá* 'horse' < arm. *grast* and *vá* 'hand' < inc. *hasta*, the monosyllabic forms in the nominative singular are contrasted with plural and oblique forms extended by *-st-*: *grásta* 'horses', *vasténca* 'with the hands'.

The most striking difference between the declension of European nouns and that of pre-European nouns is the identical vowel component in the oblique and nominative singular suffixes of masculine nouns.

búč-u > *buč-ús-tar* 'fair' > 'from a fair'
gróf-o > *grof-ós-te* 'count' > 'at a count'
moastér-i > *moaster-í-ha* 'master' > 'with a master'

Masculine nouns ending in *-o* or *-u* form the plural with the suffix *-i*. Those with a shortened nominative singular ending form the plural with *-ovča* and *-uvča*. Nouns ending in *-i* in the nominative singular also form the plural with *-ča*.

búč-u > *búč-i* 'fair' > 'fairs'
gróf-o > *gróf-i* 'count' > 'counts'
félh-o < **felh-ov-o* > *felh-óv-ča* 'cloud' > 'clouds'
fáč-u < **fač-uv-o* > *fač-úv-ča* 'child' > 'children'
moastér-i > *moastér-ča* 'master' > 'masters'

In addition, there are masculine nouns of German origin which, in the nominative case, end in a consonant without a suffix.

farajn 'club' < deu. *Verein*

A small group of masculine nouns ending in *-l* or *-n* form the nominative plural with the suffix *-ini*, e.g. *šníci* > *šnicl-íni* deu. *Schnitzel* 'snitzel', following the pattern of feminine nouns such as *regli-na* < deu. *Regel* 'rule', which takes the plural form *reglíni*.

Among the Ø-masculines are recent loanwords ending in a vowel, which are adopted without any inflectional markers in the nominative and form the singular oblique with *-jis-*.

kafé 'kafejíske *kaféča* 'coffee' 'for coffee' 'coffee.PL'

A small group of pre-European feminine nouns—fewer than twenty are attested—forms the nominative singular with the ending *-a*:

líndr-a 'sleep' < inc. *nidrā*
vérd-a 'car' < ira. *wardyūn*
harkúm-a 'copper' < grc. *xárkoma*

Most likely under Greek influence and reinforced by Slavic influence—both languages or language groups have feminine nouns ending in *-a* in the nominative singular—the a-F-declension incorporates feminine nouns derived from loanwords.

gótschk-a 'hen' < sla. *kočka*
désk-a 'board' < hun. *deszka*
tínt-a 'ink' < deu. *Tinte*

Recent feminine nouns ending in a consonant form their plural in the same way as masculines, ending in *-ča*:

roas < deu. *Reise* 'journey' *roasča* 'journeys'

The only irregular feminine noun is *ják* 'eye' < inc. *akši*, which has the suppletive plural *ača* 'eyes'.

4.2.1.1.3 Case functions

Case functions define grammatical relationships and thematic roles. The following table summarises the syntactically encoded case functions.

Table 13: Overview of case functions

Function	Case	Example	Translation
Subject	NOM	<i>Mé ná džánav búter.</i>	'I can't remember.'
Nominale predicate	NOM	<i>Manúšni úli.</i>	'she became a woman.'
Direct object [– animate]	NOM	<i>Díkav ó temetíši.</i>	'I can see the cemetery.'
Belonging	NOM	<i>Ója nán mrí rómní.</i>	'She's not my wife.'
Direct object [+ animate]	ACC	<i>Díkav lé manúše.</i>	'I see the man.'
Possessor	ACC	<i>Trín fačúvča hí mán.</i>	'I have three children.'
Experiencer	ACC	<i>Šíl mán sína.</i>	'I was cold.'
Recipient: <i>dav</i> 'to give'	ACC	<i>Dáv tumén té hál.</i>	'I give you something to eat.'
Recipient: others	DAT	<i>Pré muršéske písínlahi.</i>	'She wrote to her husband.'
Benefactive	DAT	<i>Adá khér kíncam aménge.</i>	'We bought this house for ourselves.'
Possessor(ion): inalienable	DAT	<i>Sá mánge dukálahi.</i>	'Everything hurts.'
Temporal: 'at what time'	DAT	<i>ófto orénge</i>	'at eight o'clock'
Causal-final: 'for the purpose of ...'	DAT	<i>Íste džáhi kašténge.</i>	'I need to go and get some wood.'
	DAT	<i>pánč šelénge</i>	'for five hundred'
Locative-separative	ABL	<i>Khér ávlahi Bečistar.</i>	'He/she came from Vienna.'
Origin/source	ABL	<i>Látar ná uštídija níšta.</i>	'He/she didn't get anything from her.'
Prolative	ABL	<i>Baléndar tút lāv.</i>	'I grab you by the hair.'
Reason	ABL	<i>Lé cirkéndar=lo úlo čálo.</i>	'He stuffed himself with cracklings.'
Possessor(ion): inalienable	ABL	<i>Ó fačúvča lé gadžéndar.</i>	'the children of the gadze.'
Location: stative	LOC	<i>Goblináte táj Boslináte</i>	'in Goberling and Bachselten'
Location: directive	LOC	<i>Pinkafáte íste ládav.</i>	'I have to go to Pinkafeld.'
Besitz(er): Kontakt	LOC	<i>Aménde nán hokóno.</i>	'We don't have a hoe with us.'
Instrument	INS	<i>Kašténca kėrav búti.</i>	'I work with wood.'
Sociative	SOC	<i>Mrá babáha bešahi.</i>	'I sat with my grandmother.'
Comparison: quantitative difference	INS	<i>dúj beršéha ternéder</i>	'two years younger'
Possessor(ion): stative	GEN	<i>mré dadéskero nípo</i>	'my father's relatives'
Temporal: regular/repetitive	GEN	<i>Kurkėskero múšika sína adáj.</i>	'There was music here on Sundays.'
Temporal: timing	GEN	<i>trín oréngero račáha</i>	'three o'clock in the morning'

Nominative and Accusative

The nominative case functions as the subject, nominal predicate, and direct object. Direct objects that are prominent in the discourse—and therefore typically animate—are marked by the oblique case or the accusative.

Ó mūrš kín-el jék khór-o.

ART.M.SG man.M.NOM.SG buy.NPFV-3SG ART jar-M.NOM.SG

'The man buys a jug.'

Ó mūrš dík-el lé rákl-en.

ART.M.SG man.M.NOM.SG see.NPFV-3SG ART.OBL.PL boy-M.ACC.PL

'The man sees the boys.'

In possessive constructions—since Romani has no separate verb for 'to have'—the possessor is in the accusative, while the possessed noun is in the nominative.

Khór-en hí jék dést-o
jar-M.AKK.PL be.3PL ART handle-M.NOM.SG
'Jugs have a handle.'

Amár-e pajtáš-en hí trín grást-a.
our-OBL.PL friend-M.AKK.PL be.3SG three horse-M.NOM.PL
'Our friends have three horses.'

The person experiencing the event is also in the accusative case.

Bár-i vója lá džuvl-ja sína.
big-F joy-F.NOM.SG ART.F.OBL woman-F.AKK.SG be.REM.3SG
'The woman was overjoyed.'

This nominative–accusative dichotomy is rooted in discourse pragmatics: prominent entities such as possessions, animate beings, and agents are marked as direct objects with either the independent oblique or the accusative. By contrast, non-prominent entities remain unmarked in the nominative. The accusative thus encodes a non-agentive referent that nevertheless ranks high on the salience scale (Matras 2002: 86).

Dative

The dative case primarily indicates the recipient.

Óv kín-el čokolád lé čav-én-ge.
he buy.NPFV-3SG chocolate ART.OBL.PL child-M.OBL.PL-DAT
'Er kaufte den Kindern Schokolade.'

Some verbs, such as *parikérel* 'to thank' and *tecínel* 'to like', require the dative case.

Ná parikér-č-a mán-ge.
NEG thank-PFV-3SG I.OBL-DAT
'Er dankte mir nicht.'

Adá tecín-el mán-ge!
DEM.M.SG like.NPFV-3SG I.OBL-DAT
'Ich mag das!'

The dative case marks the benefactive role in bitransitive verbs such as *phénav* 'to say', *phukájav* 'to tell', *ánel* 'to bring', *bikínel* 'to buy', and others.

Akán phuká-č-am l-én-ge úsar amár-o ilét-o.
then tell-PFV-1PL they-OBL.PL-DAT about our-M.SG life-M.NOM.SG
'Then we told them about our lives.'

Akán phén-č-a l-és-ke, só...
then tell-PFV-3SG he-OBL-DAT what ...
'Then he/she told him what ...'

Án-č-om tú-ke šéjr-o, Frédi!
bring-PFV-1SG you-DAT beer-NOM.M.SG Fredi!
'I've brought you some beer, Fredi!'

Kín-el l-és-ke trín tíkn-e balíč-en.
buy.NPFV-3SG he-OBL-DAT three little-OBL.PL piglet-ACC.PL
'He buys him three piglets.'

The possessor of inalienable property is also marked with the dative case.

Sá mán-ge duká-l-ahi.
all I.OBL-DAT hurt.NPFV-3SG-REM
'Everything hurts (me).'

Finally, the dative case expresses both the temporal relation 'at a specific point in time' and the causal-final meaning 'for a particular purpose'.

Ófto or-én-ge té só-l mán-ge gé-j-om.
 eight clock-OBL.PL-DAT KOMP sleeo-INF I.OBL-DAT go-PFV-1SG
 'I went to bed at eight o'clock.'

Íste dž-áhi kašt-én-ge.
 must go-1SG.REM wood-OBL.PL-DAT
 'I need to go and get some wood.'

Ablative

The synthetic ablative, which indicates origin or source, is often replaced by a prepositional phrase. In such phrases, the noun appears in the nominative case.

gav-én-dar : ándro gáva 'from the villages'

dar-á-tar : ándri dár 'out of anger'

bar-és-tar : ándro bár 'made of stone'

As the examples above show, the ablative is also used to express a place of origin and the cause of an action.

Under German influence, the ablative marks an external possessor, particularly in kinship contexts.

Odój még jék sína báč-i amén-dar.
 there also one a.REM.3SG uncle-M.NOM.SG our.OBL-ABL
 'One of our uncles was there too.'

Hám ó Péter nán mán-dar.
 but ART.M.SG Peter be.NEG.3 I.OBL-ABL
 'But Peter isn't mine.'

As in other Romani varieties, the ablative also functions as a prepositional case: 'by means of something; through'.

Kám-l-ahi mán bal-én-dar áfka té cíd-el.
 want-3SG-REM I.AKK hair-OBL.PL-ABL so KOMP pull.NPFV-INF
 'He/she tried to pull my hair.'

Locative

The use of the synthetic locative, which denotes both stative and directive orientations, is restricted to a few lexicalised forms and a small number of place names.

gav-és-te 'in the village'

manuš-én-de 'among the people'

Beč-ís-te 'to Vienna'

Erb-á-te 'to Oberwart'

Far more common is the analytical construction that uses the prepositions *ánde* 'in', *úse* 'to', and *úpre* 'on', combined with the noun in the nominative case. Rarely, and mostly in older texts, the noun instead follows the preposition in the locative case.

Mr-ó phrál ánd-i kójh-a sína.
 my-M.SG brother.M.NOM.SG in-F.SG kitchen-F.NOM.SG be.REM.3SG
 'My brother was in the kitchen.'

Odój tháv-n-ahi amén-ge, ánd-e kojnh-á-te.
 there cook.NPFV-3PL-REM we.OBL-DAT in-OBL kitchen-F.OBL.SG-LOC
 'They cooked for us in the kitchen.'

Úpr-i mesúj-a džá-l-ahi.
 on-F.SG meadow-F.NOM.SG go.NPFV-3SG-REM
 'He/she went out onto the meadow.'

Pronouns that indicate local relationships are always in the locative case and require a preposition.

máškar amén-de 'between us'
páše lés-te 'close to him'
úse tumén-de 'with you'

The synthetic locative case also marks possessors expressed by pronouns that are in physical contact with the possessed object.

Amén-de nán hokón-o.
 we.OBL-LOK be.NEG.3 hoe-M.NOM.SG
 'We don't have a hoe with us.'
Sakon-és-te khor-e ánd-o vá sína.
 each-OBL.M.SG-LOK jug-M.PL in-M.SG hand.M.NOM.SG be.REM.3
 'Everyone had a jug in their hand.'

Instrumental und Sociative

A single case form expresses both functions:

L-é svir-é-ha búti kér-as.
 ART-M.OBL.SG hammer-M.OBL.SG-INS work.F.NOM.SG do.NPFV-1PL
 'We work with a hammer.'
L-é pajtaš-én-ca búti kér-en.
 ART-OBL.PL friend-M.OBL.PL-INS work.F.NOM.SG do.NPFV-3PL
 'They work with friends.'

The case also indicates the quantitative difference between objects.

T' odá sína dúj berš-én-ca phur-éder sár mé.
 even DEM.M.SG be.REM.3 two year-M.OBL.PL-INS old-COMPAR than I.NOM
 'Even he was two years older than me.'

Genitive

The genitive case, which indicates the possessor, functions as an attributive adjective and agrees with the head noun in gender, number and primary case.

lé dad-és-ker-o autéri 'Dad's car'
lé dad-és-ker-e autoríske 'for Dad's car'
lé rakl-én-ger-e kerék-i 'the girls' bikes'
lé rakl-én-ger-e kerek-én-ca 'with the girls' bikes'

In these noun phrases, the article follows the genitive attribute and appears in the oblique case. But in genitive constructions with German compound nouns, the article instead takes the case of the head noun and is nominative.

í kan-és-ker-i karík-a 'the earring'
ó dand-én-ger-o badár-i 'the dentist'

The genitive noun phrase, in its quasi-possessive function, is frequently replaced by constructions using the ablative; this is a consequence of the linguistic change brought about by contact with German.

ó autéri lé dad-és-tar 'the car of the father

lé dadés-ker-o autéri 'the father's car'

The genitive case is also used to express times of day and regularly recurring actions.

trín or-én-ger-o račáha
three clock-M.OBL.PL-GEN-M.SG in the morning
'three o'clock in the morning'

Kurk-és-ker-o múšik-a sína adáj.
sunday-M.OBL.SG-GEN-M music-F.NOM.SG be.REM.3 here
'There used to be music here on Sundays.'

4.2.1.1.4_Derivation

Like other Romani dialects, BR also has productive means for forming feminine nouns, diminutives, abstract nouns, and agent nouns. In addition, new nouns are often created through genitive derivation or compounding modelled on German compounds, e.g. *bočkoréngero físo* 'shoelace' and *butčibčéngero* 'multilingual'.

Abstracts

The vast majority of both denominative and deverbal abstract nouns are formed using the pre-European suffix *-ipe*.

bár-o > *bar-ípe* 'big' > 'size'

selén-o > *selen-ípe* 'green' > 'vegetables'

lád-el > *lad-ípe* 'drive' > 'journey'

The Lenis form *-(i)be* occurs only in the deverbal abstract nouns *hábe* 'eating', *píbe* 'drinking' and *pačábe* 'belief'.

The suffix *-č/šag-* is used with Hungarian loans to form abstract nouns and is marked with the masculine suffix *-o*.

paran-čag-o 'command'

pajta-šag-o 'friendship'

As a rule, forms with the suffix *-č/šag-* borrowed from Hungarian are used alongside those ending in *-ipe*: *parančipe*, *pajtašipe*.

Diminutives

As is generally the case in Romani, diminutives are formed with the morpheme *-or-*. It attaches to both pre-European and European nouns and is further extended with gender-distinguishing suffixes.

bákr-o > *bakr-ór-o* 'sheep' > 'lamb'

bříšind > *brišind-ór-o* 'rain' > 'drizzle'

phúrt > *phurt-ór-i* 'bridge' > 'footbridge'

ág-a > *ag-ór-i* 'branch' > 'twig'

Feminine forms

The suffix *-ni* is used to form feminine versions of pre-European masculine nouns referring to people or animals.

grá (< **grast*) > *grás-ni* 'horse' > 'mare'

ráj > *rá-ni* 'sir' > 'lady'
róm > *róm-ni* 'husband' > 'wife'

The ending *-i*, which indicates that a noun stem is feminine, should also be interpreted as a derivational suffix.

bákr-o > *bákr-i* 'sheep' > 'ewe'
rákl-o > *rákl-i* 'boy' > 'girl'

Neither *-i* nor *-ni* is productive. The productive suffix for forming feminine nouns is the Slavic-derived *-kija*, which is used to form feminine nouns from both pre-European and European masculine nouns.

badár-i > *badar-kija* 'doctor' > 'doctor'
džido > *džidov-kija* 'jew' > 'jewish woman'
sábo > *sabov-kija* 'tailor' > 'tailoress'
vakerár-i > *vakerar-kija* 'spokesman' > 'spokeswoman'

In a few exceptional cases, the suffix *-kija* also marks nouns borrowed from Hungarian.

laboš-kija < hun. *lábás* 'pan'
riteš-kija < hun. *rétes* 'strudel'

Agentive nouns

The original morpheme *-ar-*, which also appears in Slavic languages, is being replaced as an agentive suffix by the morpheme *-aš-/oš-*, which originates from Hungarian. This newer morpheme is now more commonly used, even in pre-European and Slavic lexemes:

ágar > *angar-ár-i/-kija* *angar-aš-i/-kija* 'coal' > 'charcoal burner' inc. *aṅgāra*
hútav > *hut-ár-i/-kija* *hut-aš-i/-kija* 'to jump' > 'jumper' inc. *kṣubda*
karína > *karin-ár-i/-kija* *karin-aš-i/-kija* 'customs' > 'customs officer' sla. *carina*
kerek-o > *kerek-aš-i/-kija* 'wheel' > 'cyclist' hun. *kerék*
krajšinav > *krajš-aš-i/-kija* 'scream' > 'screamer' deu. *kreischen*

The *-oš-* variant of the Hungarian-derived morpheme is frequently used to convey pejorative meanings, even in pre-Hungarian loanwords.

lim-oš-kija 'snot bag' < *lím* < inc. *silimha* > 'snot'
mutr-oš-i 'pee-pee' < *múter* < inc. *mūtra* > 'urine'

Tree names

The suffix *-*lín* > *-jín* > *-ín* forms the names of trees from their corresponding fruits.

akor-ín 'nut tree' < *ákor* 'nut'
dosboj-ín 'green gage tree' < *dosbój-nja* 'green gage'
šliva-jín 'plum tree' < *schlív-a* 'plum'
phaba-jín 'apple tree' < *pháb-a* 'apple'

4.2.1.2_Article

The definite article precedes the noun and indicates definiteness. It agrees with the noun in gender, number, and primary case. Gender and case distinctions appear only in the singular, while the plural forms are formally identical to the masculine singular forms.

Table 14: Article declension

	M.SG	F.SG	PL
Nominative	<i>o</i>	<i>i</i>	<i>o</i>
Oblique	<i>le : ole</i>	<i>la : ola</i>	<i>le : ole</i>

Of the two oblique plural forms, those beginning with a vowel are rarely used, and when they are, it is mainly for emphasis. The consonantal l-form is generally preferred.

Prindžar-éh-ahi I-é Náuci? Ol-é Náuci prindžar-éh-ahi?
 know.NPFV-2SG-REM ART-M.OBL.SG Nauci ART-M.OBL.SG Nauci know.NPFV-2SG-REM
 'Did you know Nauci? Nauci, did you know him?'
Khér á-j-om I-é-ha, ol-é Bal-ó-ha.
 home come-PFV-1SG he-OBL-INS ART-M.OBL Balo-M.OBL.SG-SOC
 'I came home with him, with Balo.'

The indefinite article is formally identical to the numeral *jek* 'one' and is generally used to introduce new referents. In the following example, the indefinite article precedes the noun *gadži* as a new referent.

Ákán jék gádž-i, í phúr-i Mírzi múam, áč-l-ahi mér o Róma.
 then ART Gadz-F.NOM.SG ART.F.NOM.SG old-F.SG Mirzi aunt.F.NOM.SG liv.NPFV-3SG-REM near ART.M.SG Roma
 'There was a non-Romani woman, old Aunt Mirzi, who lived next door to the Roma.'

The indefinite article is also used to refer to any member of a group, such as a pupil, in the following example.

Adí ná sıkló-l níšta jék fáč-u ánd-i šúl.
 today NEG learn.NPFV-3SG nothing ART child-M.NOM.SG in-F.SG school.F.NOM.SG
 'Children don't learn anything at school these days.'

A definite article usually precedes proper nouns.

Me ándar ó Úngrik-o sóm.
 I from ART.M.SG Hungary-M.NOM.SG be.1SG
 'I'm from Hungary.'
Káda í Maríca I-é dík-l-a, dará-n-i I-és-tar.
 as ART.F.SG Marica he-AKK see-PFV-3SG fear -PFV-F.3SG he-OBL-ABL
 'When Marica saw him, she was afraid of him.'

As is generally the case in Romani, the definite article contracts with prepositions ending in a vowel

příki graníca < **prike i granica* 'across the border'
ando veš < **ande o veš* 'in the woods'

Indefinite, uncountable nouns do not require an article.

Gé-j-om mán-ge té ród-el thán.
 go-PFV-1SG I.OBL-DAT KOMP search.NPFV-INF place.M.NOM.SG
 'I went to look for a place.'
Mé ná I-av thúd cúj.
 I NEG take.NPFV-1SG milk.F.NOM.SG to it
 'I don't take any milk with it.'

4.2.1.3_Adjectives

Among the distinctive features of BR are the productive use of the Hungarian-derived derivational suffix *-Všn-*, the loss of productivity of the prefix *bi-* 'without', the integration of adjectives of Slavic and Hungarian origin into Proto-European inflexion, the adoption of indeclinable adjectives of German origin ending in *-i*, and the Hungarian-derived superlative particle *lek* < hun. *leg*.

Slavic adjectives are formed by adding case-specific endings to the stem.

erčáv-o/i < sla. *rđav* 'bad'

módr-o/i < sla. *modar* 'blue'

Some adjectives borrowed from Hungarian have the adaptation marker *-n-*.

es-n-o < hun. *ősz* 'grey'

friš-n-o < hun. *friss* 'fresh'

Adjectives from the German contact dialect are borrowed together with the suffix *-i* and the corresponding stress, and are indeclinable.

blondi < deu. dial. *blondi* 'blonde'

étniši < deu. dial. *etnisch* 'ethnic'

róglati < deu. dial. *roglati* 'shaky'

In predicative usage, the final *-i* is omitted, as in German.

Odá nímco asáj fájn sín.
DEM.M.SG German so fine be.REM.3
'That German was so refined.'

Ój blónd sí.
she blonde be.3SG
'She's blonde.'

4.2.1.3.1_Declination

Adjectives agree with their head noun in number, gender and case. Case agreement is restricted to the primary cases, the nominative and the oblique.

In Romani, there are usually separate inflectional classes for pre-European and European adjectives. However, this is not the case in the BR, where adjectives borrowed from Slavic and Hungarian are treated in the same way as pre-European ones.

Table 15: Adjective declension

	M.SG	F.SG	PL
Nominative	<i>tern-o</i>	<i>tern-i</i>	<i>tern-e</i>
	<i>frišn-o</i>	<i>frišn-i</i>	<i>frišn-e</i>
Oblique	<i>tern-e</i>	<i>tern-a</i>	<i>tern-e</i>
	<i>frišn-e</i>	<i>frišn-a</i>	<i>frišn-e</i>

térno 'young' < inc. *taruṇa* / *fríšno* 'fresh' < hun. *friss*

Agreement in number and gender is retained in predicative usage.

Mr-í dáj térn-i sína.
my-F.SG mother.NOM.F.SG young-F.SG be.REM.3
'My mother was young.'

Leskér-o pró šúvl-o hí.
 his-M.SG foot.NOM.M.SG swollen-M.SG be.3
 'His foot was swollen.'

Hát ó phúr-e sá mül-e hí.
 well ART.M.SG old-PL all dead-PL be.3
 'Well, the old people are all dead.'

As in other Romani dialects, some adjectives—six in total—are indeclinable:

bút 'many'
gódžar 'clever'
hór 'deep'
kúč 'expensive'
sík 'fast'
šúkar 'beautiful'

Adjectives used as nouns are inflected in the same way as the pre-European o-masculines and i-feminines.

lá tikn-á-ha 'with the little one' < *í tikn-i* 'the little one (the little girl)'
lá pheň-á-ke 'for the sister' < *í phén* 'the sister'

4.2.1.3.2_Comparison

The inherited suffix *-éder* forms the comparative of both declinable and indeclinable adjectives. The superlative is built on the comparative and uses the borrowed particle *lek* < hun. *leg* 'most'.

gódžar godžar-éder lék godžar-éder 'smart' 'smarter' 'smartest'
lájxt-i lajxt-éder lék lajxt-éder 'light' 'lighter' 'lightest'
térno tern-éder lék tern-éder 'young' 'younger' 'youngest'

The comparative forms of *láčo* 'good' and *bút* 'much' are irregular. For the former, *féder* 'better' is used, for the latter, *búter* 'more'.

4.2.1.3.3_Derivation

In BR, several suffixes are used to form adjectives

Table 16: Adjective formation

Suffix	Example	Translation	Source or function
-(v)al-	<i>truš-ál-o</i> <i>loš-ál-o</i> <i>brišind-ál-o</i>	'thirsty' 'happy' 'rainy'	physical condition mental state nature
-an-	<i>čiriki-án-o</i> <i>bobork-án-o</i> <i>rom-án-o</i>	'birdy' 'cucumbery' 'Romani'	animals plants (ethnic) group
-un-	<i>blex-ún-o</i>	'blechern'	substance
-ikan-	<i>lol-ikán-o</i>	'reddish'	'to a minor extent'
-itik-	<i>Beč-ítik-o</i> <i>Rust-ítik-o</i>	'Viennese' 'Russian'	locality ethnicity
-utn-	<i>pal-utn-o</i>	'last'	place or time
-Všn-	<i>brig-ášn-o</i>	'un-happy'	Hungarian loans

The base form is generally a noun, e.g. *kášt* 'wood' > *kaštúno* 'wooden', sometimes an adverb, e.g. *pále* 'behind' > *palútno* 'last', or an adjective, e.g. *gúlo* 'sweet' > *gulikáno* 'sweetish'. Most suffixes can be combined with both pre-European and European stems. Exceptions are the suffix *-(v)al-*, which derives adjectives exclusively from pre-European stems, while the suffix *-ítik-* is restricted to more recent loanwords.

The prefix *bi-* 'without' is limited to the lexicalised derivatives *bi-bastálo* 'bad' < *bastálo* 'happy' and *bi-lóndo* 'unsalted' < *lóndo* 'salty'.

4.2.1.4_Numerals

Most numerals are of Indian or Greek origin.

Table 17: Numerals

½	<i>epaš</i>	11–19	<i>deš-u/o-NUM: dešujek / dešojek, ..., dešueña / dešoeña</i>
1	<i>jek</i>	20	<i>biš</i>
2	<i>duj</i>	21–29	<i>biš-u/o-NUM: bišujek / bišojek, ..., bišueña / bišoeña</i>
3	<i>trin</i>	30	<i>tranda</i>
4	<i>štar</i>	31–39	<i>tranda-NUM: trandajek, ... -eña oder tranda taj NUM: tranda taj jek, ... eña</i>
5	<i>panč</i>	40	<i>NUM-val-10: štarvaldeš</i>
6	<i>šov</i>	50–90; 50	<i>NUM-var-10: pančvardeš, ..., eňavardeš; ½-100: epašel</i>
7	<i>efta</i>	100	<i>šel</i>
8	<i>ofto</i>	200–900	<i>duj šel, ..., eña šel</i>
9	<i>eña</i>	1000	<i>eseri</i>
10	<i>deš</i>	2000–9000	<i>duj eseri, ..., eña eseri</i>

The conjunction *-u-* or its variant *-o-* connects tens and numbers between 10 and 30, while the conjunction *táj* is used for numbers above 30. The numeral *pančvardéš* 'fifty' has an optional variant *epašél* < **epaš šel* 'lit. half a hundred, fifty'. The numerals *šel* 'hundred' and *eseri* 'thousand' < *hun. ezer* do not inflect for number, e.g. *dúj šél* (not **duj šela*) 'two hundred'. A rather marginal way of forming tens is multiplication by 'twenty'.

duj-var-biš 'lit. two times twenty; forty'

trin-val-biš 'lit. three times twenty; sixty'

The suffix *-to* forms ordinals when combined with the gender and number markers of adjectives. The exception is *eršti* 'first', which is borrowed from German.

dúj-t-o, trí-t-o, štár-t-o,... 'second, third, fourth, ...'

Multiplicative numbers are formed using *-var-* or its allomorph *-val-*. Irregular forms include *ef-kar* < **jek-var* 'once', *dujar* < **duj-var* and *trijal* < **trin-val*.

štár-val 'fourth'

...

šel-var 'hundredth'

Numerals used as attributes are indeclinable.

mr-é dúj phenj-én-ca
 my-OBL.PL two sister-F.OBL.PL-INS
 'with my two sisters'

On the other hand, numerals are declined in the same way as nouns when used as pronouns.

Adí jék-a legé-d-e ánd-i špíta.

today one-F.ACC.SG bring-PFV-3PL in-F.SG hospital

'Today one was taken to hospital.'

Agún l-é duj-én-dar phúč-n-ahi.

before ART-OBL.PL two-OBL.PL-ABL ask.NPFV-3PL-REM

'Before that, they asked the two (lit: of the two).'

4.2.1.5_Pronouns

The pronouns of BR feature several innovations, including the reduced forms of the first- and second-person singular possessive pronouns, the plural form of the reflexive pronoun, the abandonment of the four-tier system of demonstrative pronouns, and the replacement of the original interrogative **kana* 'when' with the Slavic *káda*.

4.2.1.5.1_Personal, possessive and reflexive pronouns

Pronouns are distinguished by number, gender and case.

Table 18: Personal, possessive and reflexive pronouns

	Personal pronouns				Possessive	Reflexive
	Nominative		Oblique			
	independent	enclitic	independent	stem		
1SG	<i>mé</i>	-	<i>mán</i>	<i>mán-</i>	<i>mr-</i>	<i>mán</i>
2SG	<i>tú</i>	-	<i>tút</i>	<i>tú-</i>	<i>tr-</i>	<i>tút</i>
1PL	<i>amén</i>	-	<i>amén</i>	<i>amén-</i>	<i>amár-</i>	<i>amén</i>
2PL	<i>tumén</i>	-	<i>tumén</i>	<i>tumén-</i>	<i>tumár-</i>	<i>tumén</i>
3SG.M	<i>óv</i>	<i>ló</i>	<i>lé</i>	<i>lés-</i>	<i>lésker-</i>	<i>pé</i>
3SG.F	<i>ój</i>	<i>lí</i>	<i>lé</i>	<i>lá-</i>	<i>láker-</i>	<i>pé</i>
3PL	<i>ón</i>	<i>lé</i>	<i>lé(n)</i>	<i>lé(n)-</i>	<i>lénger-</i>	<i>pumén</i>
REFL SG	-	-	<i>pé</i>	<i>pés-</i>	<i>pr-</i>	-
REFL PL	-	-	<i>pumén</i>	<i>pumén-</i>	<i>pumár-</i>	-

Apart from reflexive pronouns, the third-person singular forms are gender-specific.

Dúj kúrk-e adáj=li sína.

two week-M.NOM.PL here=she be.3SG.REM.

'She was here for two weeks.'

Sár l-és-ker-o dád=lo ár ditschó-l-ahi.

how he-M.OBL.SG-GEN-M.SG father.M.NOM.SG=he out see.NPFV-3SG-REM

'He looked just like his father.'

Except for the first and second person plural, the nominative forms of personal pronouns differ from the corresponding oblique forms. Other cases are formed using the oblique stem and the regular suffixes.

mán-ca 'with me' (S/I)

amén-ge 'to us' (DAT)

tumén-dar 'from you' (ABL)

Possessive pronouns are used both attributively and predicatively and inflect like adjectives. The first- and second-person singular pronouns, as well as the possessive form of the third-person singular reflexive pronoun, have reduced forms: *mr-* < **mir-* 'my', *tr-* < **tir-* 'your' and *pr-* < **pesker-* 'his/her'. The possessive form of the third-person plural reflexive pronoun *pum-ar-* 'their own' is formed in analogy to the possessive forms *am-ar-* 'our' and *tum-ar-* 'your'.

ánd' amár-o gav
in our-M.SG village.M.NOM.SG
'in our village'

l-en-gér-i moschtóvn-i dáj
they-F.OBL.PL-GEN-F.SG step-F.SG mother.F.NOM.SG
'her stepmother'

Sóske mr-á phénj-a már-en?
why my-OBL.F.SG sister-AKK.F.SG beat.NPFV-2PL
'Why are you hitting my sister?'

Prindschár-l-ahi tr-é phrál-en.
know.NPFV-3SG-REM your-OBL.PL brother-M.ACC.PL
'He knew your brothers.'

Óv kám-el pr-á rómn-ja.
he love.NPFV-3SG his.own-F.OBL.SG wife-F.ACC.SG
'He loves his (own) wife.'

The first- and second-person reflexive pronouns are the same as the independent oblique forms. The third-person forms *pé* 'oneself' and *pumén* 'themselves' are innovations.

Úscht-el, úrtsch-el pé táj ári dschá-l.
wake.NPFV-3SG dress.NPFV-3SG REFL.3SG and out go.NPFV-3SG
'He wakes up, gets dressed and goes out.'

Matschár-n-ahi pumén mindig.
get drunk.NPFV-3PL-REM REFL.3PL always
'They were always getting drunk.'

4.2.1.5.2 Demonstratives and Deictics

The four-tier system of demonstrative pronouns (situational vs discursive, specific vs non-specific) is now only partially in use. The originally non-specific pronouns with situational-deictic meaning are now used for both specific and non-specific referents. In contrast, a distinction is made between specific and non-specific referents for demonstratives used in a discursive-deictic manner.

The root of demonstrative pronouns conveys various pieces of semantic information: those beginning with the letter *a-* are used situationally, while those beginning with the letter *o-* are used discursively. The vowel component also indicates the distance between the speaker and the listener: *a*-root demonstratives denote proximity, while *o*-root demonstratives denote distance. Furthermore, the *d*-root denotes unspecific referents, while the *k*-root denotes specific referents. The latter also has the contrastive meaning 'the other'. Demonstrative pronouns are declined like adjectives.

Table 19: Demonstrative pronouns

Case		Nominative				Oblique		
Number/Person		M.SG	F.SG	F.SG	M.PL	F.PL	M.SG	F.SG
Situation		<i>adála/adá</i>	<i>ajá</i>	<i>adálá/ajá</i>	<i>adále</i>	<i>adála</i>	<i>adále(s)</i>	<i>adála</i>
Discourse	<i>(o)ká</i>	<i>(o)ká</i>	<i>(o)kóla</i>	<i>(o)kóle</i>	<i>(o)kóla</i>	<i>(o)kóle(s)</i>	<i>(o)kóla</i>	<i>(o)kóle</i>
	<i>odóla/odá</i>	<i>odóla odá</i>	<i>odóla/ojá</i>	<i>odóle</i>	<i>odóla</i>	<i>odóle(s)</i>	<i>odóla</i>	<i>odóle</i>

The demonstrative *ada* 'this' in the following example refers to the concentration camp mentioned just earlier in the text. As this is part of the speech situation, the *a*-root is used. The demonstrative *oda* 'that', on the other hand, refers to a different concentration camp mentioned previously. As it is an element of the discourse context, the *o*-root is used.

Ó dújto logéri, **adá** sá még šléxter sár **odá**.

'The second camp, this was even worse than the first one.'

In the next example, a man comes upon a tree in the forest and realises that it is the tree he has always dreamed of. The tree is part of the situation, which is why the demonstrative pronoun is used with the a-form. As the tree is familiar to the listener, the narrator subsequently refers to the tree using the o-form.

Adáj mré fačúvča iste sína, mínt **adá** kášt hí, só
mé mindig súne díkahi.—Táj odój térdo ačilo
mér **odá** kášt.

'My children should have been here, because
this is the tree I've always dreamed of.—And he
stayed there by that tree.'

The examples show, that the short forms are generally used in the nominative case.

As already mentioned, the demonstrative with the k-stem is used for specific referents, particularly in direct speech.

"Hánsi", phénča léskero dád,
"káj hí **oká** balítscho?"

"'Hansi,' said his father,
'Where's that (other) piglet?'"

The k-demonstratives are also used in the contrastive sense of 'the other'. In such expressions, the definite article always precedes the demonstrative pronoun.

Ojá még féder sín sár í **kijá**.

'And this woman was better than the other.'

Local deictics

As with demonstrative pronouns, deictic expressions distinguish between distance, -a- for nearby places and -o- for distant places, and specificity, -k- for specific places and -d- for non-specific places. Deictics with an ablative meaning are formed using the corresponding case marker -tar.

Table 20: Local deictics

	'da'	'dort'
Locative	<i>adáj</i>	<i>odáj</i>
Locativ specific	<i>ák (adáj)</i>	<i>ók (odáj)</i>
Allative	<i>ačá</i>	<i>očá</i>
Allative specific	<i>ák</i>	<i>ók</i>
Ablative	<i>adátar</i>	<i>odótar</i>
Prolative	<i>ére</i>	<i>óre</i>

Nána mrí bába **adáj**?

"My grandmother wasn't here?"

Léskero báči **odój** búti kéralahi.

'His uncle worked there.'

Ačá áv, akán.

'Come here, immediately.'

Bečiste feder te áčel sí,
vašóda amen **ák** džáhahi.

'Vienna is better for living,
which is why we went there.'

Ná tróman ó Róma **očá** té džál,
hám léskero čáu mindig **ók** džálahi.

'The Roma are afraid to go there,
but his son always went there.'

Léskeri rómni **adátar** sín.

'His wife was from here.'

Odótar ánes mánge páj.

'You're bringing me water from there.'

Furthermore, BR has borrowed words from Hungarian with a locative meaning: *ére* < hun. erre 'from here, hither' and *óre* < hun. arra 'from there, thither'.

Ó Amerikanérča **ére** ále.

'The Americans came from there.'

Óre sín amáre khera.

'Our houses were over there (in that direction).'

Deictics that refer to specific places have the consonantal k-root.

Ák hí ó grá, só té bíknel hí.

Here is the horse that's for sale.

Akán džá tú tré čavoréha **ók** ánd' ojá pájta, táj
áč léha odój.

'Now go with your sons over to the barn and
stay there with them.'

Comparative deictics

Deictics used in comparisons include the indeclinable *áci* 'so, so many', *áfka* 'so' and *(a)sáj* 'so, as'. In other closely related Romani dialects, the deictic *(a)sáj* is inflected. The innovation in BR results from the word-final contraction *-ve > -j in the nominative plural and oblique **asave* > *asaj*, as well as *-vi > -j in the feminine singular **asavi* > *asaj*. Consequently, this form is also generalised for the masculine singular, i.e. **asavo* > *asaj*.

Akór még nána ó čáro **asáj** kúč.

'But the bowl wasn't that expensive after all.'

Mrí dáj, má rón **áci** vás mánde!

'Mum, don't cry so much over me!'

Sóske tú tré bál **áfka** hárne činčal?

'Why did you get your hair cut so short?'

4.2.1.5.3 Interrogative pronouns

Apart from **kana* 'when, what time', which has been replaced by the loanword *káda* < sla. *kad* 'when', the original interrogative pronouns are preserved in BR.

Table 21: Interrogative pronouns

Layer	Root	Interrogative	Translation
pre-european	k-	<i>káj</i>	'where, to where'
		<i>kíči</i>	'how much'
		<i>kó</i>	'who'
	s-	<i>sár</i>	'how'
		<i>sáv-</i>	'which, what kind of'
		<i>só</i> <i>sóske</i>	'what' *why'
european		<i>káda</i>	'wann'
		<i>mére</i>	'wohin, welche Richtung'
unclear		<i>kiríja</i>	'wie lange, wie weit'

Two groups of interrogatives are distinguished based on the root consonant: k-forms and s-forms. The first group consists of the interrogative pronouns *káj* 'where, where to', *kíči* 'how much(e)' and *ko* 'who', as well as their inflected forms such as *kátar* 'from where', *kičíske* 'for how much' or *kásker-* 'whose'.

Káj áces?

'Where do you live?'

Káj géli?

'Where did she go?'

Kíči=le vaše dénahi?

'How much did they pay (give) for it?'

Kó sín lákeri dáj?

'Who is her mother?'

Mék **kiríja** džíja?

'How long will I be living here?'

Interrogatives beginning with *s-* include the forms *sár* 'how', *so* 'what' and the declinable *sáv-* 'which, what kind of'. The interrogative meaning 'why' is expressed by the dative form of *só* 'what', i.e. *sóske*.

<i>Sár khér péjal?</i>	'How did you get home?'
<i>Só té kérav akán?</i>	'What should I do now?'
<i>Táj sávo hi:</i> <i>bernhardinéri vāj šeferi?</i>	'And what sort of dog is he: a St. Bernard or a (German) shepherd?'
<i>Sóske ná has?</i>	'Why aren't you eating?'

4.2.1.5.4_Indefinite pronouns

Unlike specific, existential and negative indefinite pronouns, which are formed by affixation, universal indefinite pronouns are independent lexemes.

Table 22: Indefinite pronouns

	Universal	Specific / <i>vala-</i>	Existential / <i>-godi</i>	Negative / <i>ni-</i>
Person	<i>cile</i> 'all, everyone'	<i>valakó</i> 'someone, anyone'	<i>kogódi</i> 'whoever'	<i>níko</i> 'nobody'
Thing	<i>sá</i> 'all, everything'	<i>valasó</i> 'something, anything'	<i>sogódi</i> 'whatever'	<i>níšt(a)</i> 'nothing'
Place	<i>sakothán, vídžik</i> 'everywhere'	<i>valakáj</i> 'somewhere'	<i>kajgódi</i> 'wherever'	<i>nikáj</i> 'nowhere'
Time	<i>mindig</i> 'always'	<i>valakáda</i> 'sometime'	-	<i>nikáda, šóha</i> 'never'
Mode	-	<i>valasáj</i> 'somehow'	<i>sargódi; kásar; láfka, táfka</i> 'however'	<i>nisáj</i> '(in) no way'

The prefixes and suffixes used are derived from more recent contact languages. Specifically, the prefix *vala-* is borrowed from Hungarian, while the negative prefix *ni-* and the existential suffix *-godi* are derived from Slavic languages.

Universal pronouns include either pre-European terms such as *sá* 'all' or European lexemes, such as *mindig* < hun. *mindig* 'always', *vidžik* < hun. *végig* 'entirely'. The universal pronoun *cíle* 'all' is the plural of the nominalised adjective *cílo* 'all'.

4.2.2_Verbs

Typical features of BR include the emergence of verbal particles and prefixes, as well as the lack of a synthetic marker for the present subjunctive.

Verb inflexion is based on the lexical root and the addition of suffixes. European loanwords are integrated using the marker *-in-* and are conjugated in the same way as pre-European verbs that end in a consonant.

<i>kér-av</i>	< inc. <i>karoti</i>	'to do'
<i>rés-av</i>	< ira. <i>rasīdan</i>	'to meet'
<i>parún-av</i>	< grc. <i>paraxōnō</i>	'to bury'
<i>dob-ín-av</i>	< sla. <i>dobiti</i>	'to win'
<i>gondol-ín-av</i>	< hun. <i>gondol</i>	'to think'
<i>bit-ín-av</i>	< deu. <i>bieten</i>	'to offer'

4.2.2.1_Conjugation

Conjugation is determined by the aspectual distinction between non-perfective and perfective stems (see the following section for details).

4.2.2.1.1_Non-perfective conjugation

The non-perfective conjugation is based on the verb stem and non-perfective suffixes.

Table 23: Person and number suffixes [– perfective]

1SG	2SG	3SG	1PL	2PL	3PL
-av	-es	-el	-as	-en	-en

The non-perfective stem of most verbs ends in a consonant. In addition, there is a small group of thirteen verbs whose stem ends in an *-a*, which assimilates the initial consonant of the respective suffix.

Table 24: Conjugation

	Stems in -C-		Stems in -a-	
	SG	PL	SG	PL
1	<i>kín-av</i>	<i>kín-as</i>	<i>páča-v</i>	<i>páča-s</i>
2	<i>kín-es</i>	<i>kín-en</i>	<i>páča-s</i>	<i>páča-n</i>
3	<i>kín-el</i>	<i>kín-en</i>	<i>páča-l</i>	<i>páča-n</i>

kínav 'to buy', *páčav* 'to believe'

Due to the intervocalic loss of *-v-*, a typical feature of the BR, contracted forms arise in which the endings have a different vowel quality. The examples given below originally ended in *-v*: *sikaj* < **sikav*- 'to show', *síj* < **sív*- 'to sew', *thoj* < **thov*- 'to wash', *garuj* < **garuv*- 'to hide'.

Table 25: Conjugation of contracted forms

	Contraction in a		Contraction in i		Contraction in o		Contraction in u	
	SG	PL	SG	PL	SG	PL	SG	PL
1	<i>sik-áj-av</i>	<i>sik-áj-as</i>	<i>s-íj-av</i>	<i>s-íj-as</i>	<i>th-ój-av</i>	<i>th-ój-as</i>	<i>gar-új-av</i>	<i>gar-új-as</i>
2	<i>sik-áj-s</i>	<i>sik-á-n</i>	<i>s-í-s</i>	<i>s-í-n</i>	<i>th-ój-s</i>	<i>th-ó-n</i>	<i>gar-új-s</i>	<i>gar-ú-n</i>
3	<i>sik-á-l</i>	<i>sik-á-n</i>	<i>s-í-l</i>	<i>s-í-n</i>	<i>th-ó-l</i>	<i>th-ó-n</i>	<i>gar-ú-l</i>	<i>gar-ú-n</i>

Contracted forms also occur with verbs containing the derivational suffixes *-av-* and *-ov-*.

thul-ój-av < **thul-óv-av* 'thick' 'I'm putting on weight/getting fat'

šun-áj-s < **šun-áv-es* 'to hear' 'you're telling us/letting us know'

bar-ó-l < **bar-óv-el* 'big' '(s)he is growing/getting bigger'

The non-perfective stem and its endings form the basis for forming the future and past .

Table 26: Functions of the non-perfective stem

Person	Present	Future		Past	
1SG	<i>kér-av</i>	<i>ker-á</i>	< * <i>ker-áv-a</i>	<i>ker-áhi</i>	< * <i>ker-áv-ahi</i>
2SG	<i>kér-es</i>	<i>ker-éh-a</i>	< * <i>ker-és-a</i>	<i>ker-éh-ahi</i>	< * <i>ker-és-ahi</i>
3SG	<i>kér-el</i>	<i>ker-l-a</i>	< * <i>ker-él-a</i>	<i>kér-l-ahi</i>	< * <i>ker-él-ahi</i>
1PL	<i>kér-as</i>	<i>ker-áh-a</i>	< * <i>ker-ás-a</i>	<i>ker-áh-ahi</i>	< * <i>ker-ás-ahi</i>
2PL	<i>kér-en</i>	<i>ker-n-a</i>	< * <i>ker-én-a</i>	<i>kér-n-ahi</i>	< * <i>ker-én-ahi</i>
3PL	<i>kér-en</i>	<i>ker-n-a</i>	< * <i>ker-én-a</i>	<i>kér-n-ahi</i>	< * <i>ker-én-ahi</i>

kérav 'machen, tun'

4.2.2.1.2_Perfective inflexion

The perfective inflection combines the perfective stem with the corresponding suffix-set.

Table 27: Person and number suffixes [+ perfective]

1SG	2SG	3SG	1PL	2PL	3PL
-(j)om	-(j)al	-(j)a	-(j)am	-(j)an	-e

Perfective stems are formed from the non-perfective stem with a perfective marker determined by the final consonant of the stem. Apart from the third-person plural, which is a participle form, these markers, together with the perfective suffixes, trigger various processes; in addition to the affrication of **-dj-* > *-č-*, these include **-tj-* > *-l-*, **-ilj-/inj-* > *-ij-* and **-nj-* > *-j-*.

Table 28: Perfective markers

Marker	Final consonant	Example	Translation	3SG	3PL
<i>-č-</i> , <i>-d-</i>	<i>-l-</i>	<i>khel-</i>	'tance'	<i>khél-č-a</i>	<i>khél-d-e</i>
	<i>-n-</i>	<i>an-</i> <i>fešt-in-</i>	'bring' 'dye, paint'	<i>án-č-a</i> <i>fešt-ín-č-a</i>	<i>án-d-e</i> <i>fešt-ín-d-e</i>
	<i>-r-</i>	<i>čar-</i> <i>mač-ar-</i> <i>phag-er-</i>	'lick' 'make drunken' 'shatter'	<i>čár-č-a</i> <i>mať-ár-č-a</i> <i>phag-ér-č-a</i>	<i>čár-d-e</i> <i>mať-ar-d-e</i> <i>phag-ér-d-e</i>
	<i>-v-</i> > <i>-∅</i>	<i>tho(v)-</i> <i>garu(v)-</i> <i>sika(v)-</i> <i>si(v)-</i>	'wash' 'hide' 'show' 'sew'	<i>thó-č-a</i> <i>garú-č-a</i> <i>siká-č-a</i> <i>sí-č-a</i>	<i>thó-d-e</i> <i>garú-d-e</i> <i>siká-d-e</i> <i>sí-d-e</i>
<i>-l-</i> , <i>-l-</i>	<i>-m-</i>	<i>kam-</i>	'love'	<i>kám-l-a</i>	<i>kám-l-e</i>
	<i>-č-</i>	<i>phuč-</i>	'ask'	<i>phúč-l-a</i>	<i>phúč-l-e</i>
	<i>-k-</i>	<i>lak-</i>	'find'	<i>lák-l-a</i>	<i>lák-l-e</i>
	<i>-g-</i>	<i>phag-</i>	'break'	<i>phág-l-a</i>	<i>phág-l-e</i>
	<i>-s-</i>	<i>khos-</i>	'wipe'	<i>khós-l-a</i>	<i>khós-t-e</i>
<i>-š-</i>	<i>-š-</i>	<i>khuš-</i>	'peel'	<i>khúš-l-a</i>	<i>khúš-t-e</i>
	<i>-(i)l-, -(i)l-</i>	<i>sikl-o(v)-</i> <i>kor-isajo(v)-</i>	'learn' 'go blind'	<i>sikl-íl-o/i</i> <i>kor-isáj-(i)l-o/i</i>	<i>sikl-íl-e</i> <i>kor-isáj-(i)l-e</i>
<i>-ij-, -in-</i>	d- Verben	<i>cid-</i>	'pull'	<i>cid-íj-a</i>	<i>cid-ín-e</i>
<i>-j-, -n-</i>	a- Verben	<i>asa-</i>	'laugh'	<i>asá-j-a</i>	<i>asá-n-e</i>

Verbs ending in *-l-*, *-r-*, *-n-*, *-v-* have the perfective marker *-č-*. Those ending in *-n-* may optionally take *-dl-* in the third-person plural, e.g. *hán-dl-e* : *hán-d-e* 'they dug'. The final *-v-* is generally omitted before the marker, **thóv-d-e* > *thó-d-e* 'they washed', though not in *dživ-d-e* 'they lived'.

The marker *-l-* occurs with stems ending in *-k-*, *-g-*, *-m-*, *-č-*, *-s-* or *-š-*.

The marker *-il-* denotes intransitive verbs ending in *-(j)o(v)-* and *-isaj-ov-*. The 3rd-person singular forms of intransitive verbs, as well as some verbs of motion, use the gender-specific endings *-o/-i*—which are identical to those of the past participle—instead of the neutral *-(j)a*.

The suffix *-in-* is added to verbs that (historically speaking) are derived from the verb *dél* 'to give'. Vowel-initial verbs form the perfective stem with *-n-*.

The verbs *dáv* 'to give', *láv* 'to take', *úščav* 'to wake up', *úštav* 'to get up' and *áčav* 'to remain' have the ending *-ino/i* in the third person singular. Other irregular forms include:

<i>á-l-e</i>	< <i>a(v)-</i>	'they came'	< 'come'
<i>há-l-e</i>	< <i>ha-</i>	'they ate'	< 'eat'
<i>hín-d-e</i>	< <i>hi(j)-</i>	'they defecated'	< 'defecate'
<i>legé-d-e</i>	< <i>ledž-</i>	'they carried'	< 'carry'
<i>mú-l-e</i>	< <i>mer-</i>	'they died'	< 'die'
<i>muter-d-e</i>	< <i>mutr-</i>	'they urinated'	< 'urinate'
<i>pé-l-e</i>	< <i>per-</i>	'they fell'	< 'fall'
<i>pí-l-e</i>	< <i>pi-</i>	'they drank'	< 'drink'
<i>rú-n-e</i>	< <i>ro(v)-</i>	'they cried'	< 'cry'
<i>sú-t-e</i>	< <i>so(v)-</i>	'they slept'	< 'sleep'

Suppletive formations are *dža-* 'to go.NPFV' to *ge-* 'to go.PFV' and *oj-* < **ov-* 'to become.NPFV' to *u-* 'to become.PFV'. Both have *-l-* in the third person perfective: *gelo/i/e*, *ulo/i/e*.

<i>Me khére džá-v,</i>	:	<i>Me khére gé-j-om.</i>	<i>Me feder ój-av,</i>	:	<i>Me feder u-j-om.</i>
I home go.NPFV-1SG	I	home go-PFV-3SG	I better become.NPFV-1SG	I	better become-PFV-3SG
'I go home.'		'I went home.'	'I become better.'		'I became better.'

Today, the extended perfective stem is used only in a modal sense as irrealis, i.e. counterfactual conditional. The third person singular is irregular **(j)a-ahi* > *-ahi*, while the third person plural is homonymous with the second person, analogous to the present tense forms: *kéren* 'she/they does/do' *kerčánahi* 'she/they would have done'.

Table 29: Functions of the perfective stem

	Past	Irrealis
1SG	<i>kérč-om</i>	<i>kerč-óm-ahi</i>
2SG	<i>kérč-al</i>	<i>kerč-ál-ahi</i>
3SG	<i>kérč-a</i>	<i>kerč-áhi</i>
1PL	<i>kérč-am</i>	<i>kerč-ám-ahi</i>
2PL	<i>kérč-an</i>	<i>kerč-án-ahi</i>
3PL	<i>kérd-e</i>	<i>kerč-án-ahi</i>

4.2.2.2_Tense, mood, aspect / TMA

The basic TMA category of BR is the aspect dichotomy [$\pm$ perfective]. Tense distinguishes between the two aspectual forms via the [$\pm$ remote] category. Of the moods, the indicative and imperative forms are synthetic, while the subjunctive is analytic or expressed through secondary functions of indicative forms.

Table 30: TMA-marking

Aspect	[– perfective]		[+ perfective]		
Tense	[– remote]		[+remote]	[–remote]	[+remote]
Function	<i>Present</i>	<i>Future</i>	<i>Past</i> [Irrealis=Modus]		
Marker	$\emptyset$	<i>-a</i>	<i>-ahi</i>	$\emptyset$	<i>-ahi</i>

4.2.2.2.1 Aspect and Tense

The unmarked form—i.e. the non-perfective form [– perfective] [– remote]—denotes the present and describes events currently taking place.

Odá čáč-o hí, só tú-ke akán phukáj-av.
DEM.M.SG true-M.SG be.3SG REL you.OBL-DAT now tell.NPFV-1SG
'What I'm telling you now is true.'

The non-perfective form is also used for recurring events that continue into the present.

Ojá sák-o kúrk-o písín-el mán-ge.
DEM.F.SG every-M.NOM.SG week-M.NOM.SG write.NPFV-3SG I.OBL-DAT
'She writes to me every week.'

Furthermore, this refers to events in the near future that are considered certain to occur.

Hós tú táha íste džá-s té síkló-l!
actually you tomorrow must go.NPFV-2SG KOMP learn.NPFV-INF
'Actually, you need to go and study tomorrow!'

The non-perfective form, extended by the suffix *-a*, expresses possible future actions and states, and thus the future.

Áč adí adáj, táha mé khér tút lad-á.
stay.IMP.2SG today here tomorrow I home you.ACC drive.NPFV-1SG.FUT
'Stay here today; I'll drive you home tomorrow.'

The non-perfective form [– perfective] [+ remote], extended by the suffix *-ahi*, refers to past events where the fact that they have been completed or are perfective is irrelevant. It therefore tends to describe processes and longer-term phenomena rather than specific, isolated events that occurred at a particular point in the past.³⁷

Águn bút dég-en talalin-áhi.
then many ceoos-M.AKK.PL meet.NPFV-1SG.REM
'I met a lot of crooks back then.'

Lé gadž-és-ker-o grá sík phur-ól-ahi.
ART.OBL Gadzh-M.OBL.SG-GEN-M horse-M.Nom.SG fast age.NPFV-3SG-REM
'The farmer's horse has grown old quickly.'

The non-perfective past is also used to describe iterative or recurring past events.

Óv sák-o kúrk-o Beč-ís-te džá-l-áhi.
he each-M.SG week-M.NOM:SG Vienna-OBL.M.SG-LOK go.NPFV-3SG-REM
'He used to travel to Vienna every week.'

The perfective stem, [+ perfective] [– remote], expresses completed and thus past actions. The following two sentences illustrate the relationship between the two forms:

Táj sár nás-l-ahi, ék bočkor-ór-i našá-č-a.
and while run.NPFV-3SG-REM one shoe.F-DIM-F.NOM.SG loose-PFV-3SG
'As she was running, she lost one of her shoes.'

Odój ač-áhi, káda ó cvájtí fáč-u úpr-o thém á-l-o.
there live.NPFV-REM.1SG as ART.M.SG second child-M.NOM.SG on-M.SG earth.M.NOM.SG come-PFV-M.3SG
'I was living there when my second child was born.'

While the non-perfective past tense denotes a process or action whose beginning and end require no further definition—such as running in the first example—the perfect past tense

³⁷ In principle, these two forms correspond to the non-perfect tense (unfinished past) and the perfect tense (completed past). However, as the term non-perfect is often mistakenly used to refer to the past tense, e.g. in German, the terms non-perfective past and perfective past are used instead.

refers to a specific, completed event, namely the loss of the shoe. The non-perfect form, meanwhile, describes the background—living in a particular place in the second example—against which the event, the birth of the second son, takes place. This corresponds to the basic definition of aspect as a grammatical category of the verb, which expresses how a speaker perceives the internal temporal progression of an event or state. The same applies to the following examples of the perfective past tense.

Pánč or-én-ge ratscháha ušt-ij-om.
 five hour-OBL.PL-DAT-PL morning awake-PFV-1SG
 'I woke up at five o'clock in the morning.'

Ákor ánd-o khér gé-j-am
 then in-M.NOM.SG house.M.NOM.SG go-PFV-1PL
 'After that, we went inside.'

The perfective stem extended by *-ahi* [+ perfective] [+ remote] denotes, in other varieties of Romani, a more distant, completed past—the so-called pluperfect. In BR, as mentioned above, these forms are now only used in their secondary function as irrealis respectively counterfactual condition. The conjunction *káda* ('after') is used to indicate anteriority or the pre-past tense.

Káda ó jék gé-l-o, l-é avr-é-ha dur-éder vakér-l-ahi.
 after Art.M.NOM.SG one go-PFV-3SG.M ART-M.OBL.SG other-M.OBL.SG-SOC far-COMPAR talk.NPV-3SG-REM
 'After one of them had left, he continued talking to the other.'

Káda dih-a cid-ij-a, akán phén-č-a óda.
 after air-F.NOM.SG pull-PFV-3SG then say-PFV-3SG this-M.NOM.SG
 'When he'd taken a breath, he said it.'

4.2.2.1.2 Mood

In terms of mood, we distinguish among the indicative, which is used to describe the real world or actual events; the subjunctive, which is used to describe hypothetical or possible situations; and the imperative, which is used to issue commands. The indicative forms are covered in the previous section.

The function of the imperative is to directly command another person's behaviour. It issues a direct request for action to the listener and is therefore always in the second person. The singular imperative corresponds to the verb stem—more precisely, the verb stem with markers and derivational suffixes. The plural form is the same as the second-person plural of the corresponding non-perfective indicative form.

garúv! garúv-en! 'hide!'
kér! kér-en! 'do!'
kesdín! kesdín-en! 'start!'
siklój! sikló-n! 'learn)!'

The plural of verbs ending in *-a* and of some monosyllabic verbs is extended by *-en*, resulting in corresponding long forms in the singular.

há! : há-n! há-n-en! 'eat!'
dschá! : dscha-n! dschá-n-en! 'go!'
dé! : dé-n! dé-n-en! 'give!'
lé! : lé-n! lé-n-en! 'take!'

Ákan džá-nen tum-én-ge té só-l!
 now go-IMP.2PL you.PL-OBL-DAT KOMP sleep-INF
 'Now go to sleep!'

The subjunctive also encompasses the conditional mood, which is divided into three types: real (or actual), potential (or possible), and unreal (or impossible).

The perfective past is used in implicative conditional clauses referring to the future, functioning as a so-called conditionalis realis, to express an actual condition.

Té mán ušár-č-al, akór dá-v tút šéjro.
if I.AKK wait-PFV-2SG then give.NPFV-1SG you.ACC Bier
'If you're waiting for me (were waiting for me), I'll buy you a beer.'

The non-perfective past, used as the conditional potential, expresses conditions that can be fulfilled, i.e. possible conditions or the so-called conditionalis potentialis

Té l-és-tar valak-ó mang-él-ahi, óv ná phén-el ná!
if he-OBL-ABL somebody-M.NOM.SG want.NPFV-3SG-REM he NEG say.NPFV-3SG NEG
'If anyone asked him, he wouldn't say no!'

The irrealis expresses hypothetical actions in the past and conveys the counterfactual or impossible conditions of the so-called conditionalis irrealis.

A-j-ál-áhi, mang-l-ál-ahi, d-ij-om-ahi tút.
komm-PFV-2SG-REM frag-PFV-2SG-REM geb-PFV-1SG-REM du.ACC
'If you'd come and asked, I would have given it to you.'

Hám bí šúkar=li sín múlon, áfka sár té sú-č-ahi.
aber so schön=sie sein.REM.3SG tot.ADV so as if schlaf-PFV-3SG.REM
'But how beautiful she looked in death, as if she were asleep.'

The non-perfective indicative as subjunctive is dealt with in the following chapter.

4.2.2.2.3 Modal expressions

These expressions are formed either by a modal particle followed by a finite verb, or by a modal verb combined with an analytic infinitive. This infinitive consists of the non-factual particle *te* and the third-person singular non-perfective form of the verb.

Hám tú ménik né džán-es té gín-el táj té písín-el.
but you not.even NEG know.NPFV-2SG KOMP read-INF and KOMP write-INF
'But you can't even read or write.'

Tégl-i kesdín-č-am té kér-el ús-o moastér-i.
brick-M.NOM.PL start-PFV-1PL KOMP make-INF at-M.SG master-M.NOM.SG
'We started making bricks at the master's (place).'

In the context of the modal expressions discussed below, this infinitive also functions as the subjunctive form mentioned at the end of the previous section. Analytical modal expressions cover the range of functions listed below:

Table 31: Modal expressions

Ability	<i>džánav</i>	'can/be able to'
Requirement	<i>né</i>	'should'
Desire	<i>kamá (FUT)</i>	'want to'
Preference	<i>méreš</i>	'like to'
Necessity	<i>pékav</i> <i>íste</i>	'need to' 'must'
Possibility	<i>šáj</i>	'can/be allowed to'
Impossibility	<i>náštig</i>	'cannot/are not allowed to'
Risk	<i>tromál</i>	'dare to'
Permission	<i>tromál</i>	'may'

Modal particles include *šaj* for possibility, *naštig* for impossibility, *iste* < **si te* for necessity, *né* < *sla. neka* for desire, and *mereš* < *hun. örömet* for preference.

T' akán šaj mán-ca mít áj-s, ná?
and now may I.OBL-INS with come.NPFV-2SG NEG
'And now you can come with me, can't you?'

Ní akór náštig kin-áh-ahi níšta.
no then may not buy.NPFV-1PL-REM nothing
'Back then, we couldn't buy anything.'

T' akór mr-é rónč-i iste l-ij-om táj iste fúat gé-jom.
and than my-PL cloth-M.NOM.PL must take-PFV-1SG and must away go-PFV.1SG
'And then I had to gather my clothes and leave.'

Akór phér tr-í vék-a táj tr-í džúvl-i né thá-l l-éng-e.
than fill.IMP.SG your-F.SG basket-F.NOM.SG and your-F.NOM.SG woman-F.NOM.SG shall cook.NPFV-3SG they-OBL-DAT
'Then fill your basket, and let your wife cook it for them.'

Só méreš há-s?
what like eat.NPFV-2SG
'What would you like to eat?'

The modal verbs in BR are *kamá* 'to want (FUT)', *pekáv* 'to need' and *tromal* 'to dare'. Modal verbs are inflected with the following infinitive.

Khér p-és-ke kám-l-a té mér-el, ná and-í špíta.
home REFL-OBL-DAT want.NPFV-3SG-FUT KOMP die.NPFV-INF NEG in-F.NOM.SG hospital.F.NOM.SG
'He/she wants to die at home, not in hospital.'

Práv mán-ge, mé ánde kam-á té džá-l!
open.IMP.2SG I.OBL-DAT I into want.NPFV-1SG-FUT. KOMP go.NPFV-INF
'Open up for me, I want to come in!'

Ná pekáj-s té ró-l.
NEG need.NPFV-2SG KOMP cry.NPFV-INF
'You don't need to cry.'

Trín másek ná tromá-jom mán prák té sól.
three month.M.NOM.PL NEG dare-PFV.1SG I.AKK through KOMP sleep-INF
'For three months, I didn't dare to sleep through the night.'

Mint odá róm hí, ná tromá-s l-é-ha té džá-l.
since this.M.NOM.SG husband.M.NOM.SG be.3SG NEG may.NPFV-2SG he-OBL-INS KOMP go.NPFV-INF
'Now that he is married, you are no longer allowed to go out with him.'

4.2.2.3 Participles

The non-perfective participle is formed using the suffix *-Vnd-*.

as-ánd- < *ása-v* 'laughing' < 'to laugh'

beš-únd- < *běš-av* 'sitting' < 'to sit'

cid-índ- < *cíd-av* 'pulling' < 'to pull'

pač-ánd- < *páča-v* 'believing' < 'to believe'

rovl-índ- < *rój-av* 'crying' < 'to cry'

In its attributive function, *-Vnd-* is extended to include the suffixes of the adjective that indicate gender and number:

ó cid-índ-o gúruv 'the ox pulling the cart'

le cid-índ-e guruvéha 'with the ox pulling the cart'

í as-ánd-i čáj 'the laughing girl'

lá as-ánd-a čajátar 'of the laughing girl'

ó beš-únd-e džéne 'the people sitting'

le beš-únd-e džénénge 'for the people sitting'

When used as an adverb, the suffix is extended by the indeclinable *-ar*:

Óv phén-č-a rovl-índar.

he say-PFV-3SG cry-PART.NPFV

'He said, weeping.'

Ó fačuv-ča vrišč-ándar khere naš-l-e.

ART.NOM.PL child-NOM.PL shout-PART.NPFV home run-PFV-3PL

'The children ran home screaming.'

The formation of perfective participles depends on the origin of the verb. The participial forms of pre-European verbs are formed using the perfect stem and adjectival suffixes that vary according to gender and number.

d-in-o/i/e/a < *d-av* 'given' < 'to give'

dará-n-o/i/e/a < *dara-v* 'feared' < 'to fear'

garú-d-o/i/e/a < *garu-jav* 'hidden' < 'to hide'

pék-l-o/i/e/a < *pek-av* 'baked' < 'to bakes'

phén-d-o/i/e/a < *phen-av* 'said' < 'to say'

sikl-il-o/i/e/a < *sikl-ojav* 'learnt' < 'to learn'

European loanwords form the perfective participle using the suffix *-im-* and the gender- and number-specific adjectival suffixes.

gondol-ím- o/i/e/a < *gondol-in-av* 'thought' < 'to think' < hun. *gondol*

pis-ím- o/i/e/a < *pis-in-av* 'written' < 'to write' < sla. *pisati*

scholt-ím- o/i/e/a < *scholt-in-av* 'switched' < 'to switch' < deu. *schalten*

Due to the productivity of the suffix *-im-*, pre-European verbs with the perfective marker *-in-* often have analogous alternative forms:

cid-in-o : *cid-im-o* 'pulled'

uscht-in-o : *uscht-im-o* 'woken up'

Perfective participles, together with the existential verb 'to be' (in function as a copula), form analytical passive constructions. In such cases, the participial ending of verbs of European origin takes the form *-im*, which is neutral in terms of number and gender.

Tél ó kášt béš-t-i=li sína.

under ART.M.SG tree sitsitz-PART.PFV-F.SG=she be.REM.3SG

'She was sitting under the tree.'

Ò štróm ar hi šolt-im.

ART.M.SG power.M.NOM.SG out be.3SG switch- PART.PFV

'The power is switched off.'

4.2.2.4_Verb formation

BR has various suffixes for forming transitive and intransitive verbs.

Table 32: Verb formation

Derivation base	Derived verbs	Suffix
Intransitive verbs	transitive Verben	-a(v)-
Pre-european adjectives/nouns/verbs	transitive Verbs: factitive Verbs	-(j)ar-
Pre-european nouns		-al-in-

Transitive verbs	intransitive Verbs	-(j)o(v)-
Pre-european adjectives European adjectives/nouns	intransitive Verbs: inchoative Verbs	-(j)o(v)- -isaj-o(v)-
Pre-european adjectives European Verbs	iterative Verbs	-in-ger- -ger-

The suffix *-av-* forms transitive verbs from intransitive ones. The transitive forms of a-verbs (see below) are formally identical to the base form. While the stress in the intransitive form falls on the first or penultimate syllable, in the transitive form it falls on the final syllable.

áč-av > **ač-áv-av* > *ač-áj-av* 'to stay' > 'to let it stay'
kér-av > **ker-áv-av* > *ker-áj-av* 'to do' > 'to let it be done'
ród-av > **rod-áv-av* > *rod-aj-av* 'to search' > 'to let them look for it'

Other transitive verbs are derived from adjectives and nouns using the suffix *-ar-*, and less commonly also from verbs.

beš-ár-av < *béš-av* 'to sit down' < 'to sit'
jag-ár-av < *jág* 'to heat' < 'fire'
šuš-ár-av < *šúš-o* 'to clean' < 'clean'

The Hungarian-derived denominative suffix *-al-*, when combined with the marker *-in-* of European verbs, also occurs in derivations with a pre-European base.

but'-al-in-av < *but-i* 'to work' < *búti* 'work'
karč'-al-in-av < *karč-i* 'to play cards' < *kárča* 'card'

Intransitive verbs are formed using the suffix *-ov-*. The base forms for these derivations are adjectives and also some transitive verbs.

bàr-o > **bar-óv-av* > *bar-ój-av* 'big' > 'to grow, to become big'
šuk-o > **šuč-óv-av* > *šuč-ój-av* 'dry' > 'to dry, to become dry'
tát o > **tať-óv-av* > *tať-ój-av* 'warm' > 'to heat up, to become warm'
sik-á-v > **sikl-óv-av* > *sikl-ój-av* 'show' > 'to learn, to be shown'

A variant of the suffix, *-isajov-*, is sometimes used instead. It is attached to nouns and sometimes also to adjectives, regardless of their origin.

kor-ój-av = *kor-isajój-av* < *kor-o* 'to go blind' < 'blind'
modr-ój-av = *modr-isajój-av* < *modr-o* 'to turn blue' < 'blue'

As mentioned, the passive voice is not formed by adding a suffix, but through analytical constructions using the past participle and the verb *ov-* and its perfective stem *ul-*.

Té lí pé-k-i ú-l-i táj šaját-a cúj kér-es ...
 if she bake-PFV.PART-F.SG become-PFV-3SG and salad-F.NOM.SG to make.NPFV-2SG
 'Once it's baked and you make a salad to go with it ...'
Ákor táh-a račáha umlá-d-o ój-s.
 then tomorrow-F.NOM.SG morning hang-PART.PFV-M.SG will.NPFV-2SG
 'Then, first thing tomorrow morning, you'll be hanged.'

The suffix *-ger-* forms verbs with an iterative meaning. The first example contains the original suffix *-ker-*.

či-ker-av < *čid-av* 'to throw repeatedly, to throw about, ...' < 'to throw'

<i>čin-ger-av</i>	< <i>čin-av</i>	'to cut repeatedly, to cut into pieces, ...'	< 'to cut'
<i>defin-ger-av</i>	< <i>defin-av</i>	'to push repeatedly, to stomp, ...'	< 'to push'
<i>irin-ger-av</i>	< <i>irín-av</i>	'to turn repeatedly, to stir, ...'	< 'to turn'
<i>phag-(g)ér-av</i>	< <i>phág-av</i>	'to break repeatedly, to break into pieces, ...'	< 'to break'
<i>tschor-in-ger-av</i>	< <i>tschór-av</i>	'to pour repeatedly, to water, ...'	< 'to pour'

4.2.2.4.1_Verbal particles and prefixes

Verbal particles have developed primarily under German influence. As the following list of examples shows, these are mostly derived from adverbs.

Table 33: Verbal particles

Particle	Translation	Example	Translation
<i>ánde</i>	'into'	<i>ánde džáv</i>	'to go in'
<i>ángle</i>	'before'	<i>ángle pérav</i>	'to happen'
<i>úpre</i>	'on'	<i>úpre čínáv</i>	'to cut open'
<i>use</i>	'towards, to'	<i>úse džáv</i>	'to go to'

Verbal particles can be separated from the verb, such as *tel* 'down' from the verb *cidav* 'to pull' in the following example.

Táj még fróh som-áhi, káj mán-ge í hólev tél ná cid-ín-e.
 and even happy be.1SG-REM KOMP I.OBL-DAT ART.F.NOM.SG trousers.F.NOM.SG down NEG pull-PFV-3PL
 'I was actually glad they didn't pull my trousers down.'

On the other hand, there are three prefixes that cannot be separated from the verb:

ca- < deu. *zer-* *ca-džáv* < deu. *zer-gehen* 'to melt away'
fa- < deu. *ver-* *fa-dáv* < deu. *ver-geben* 'to forgive'
ter- < deu. *er-* *ter-džijav* < deu. *er-leben* 'to experience'

4.2.2.5_The verb 'to be'

The existential verb 'to be', which also functions as a copula, uses three roots: *s-*, *ov-* and *u-*; the latter being the suppletive stems of the verb 'to become'.

Table 2: Forms of the verb 'to be'

	Present indicative	Past perfective	Present subjunctive	Future	Past nonperfective	Irrealis
1SG	<i>s-óm</i>	<i>s-óm-ahi</i>	<i>ój-av</i>	<i>oj-á</i>	<i>oj-áhi</i>	<i>u-j-óm-ahi</i>
2SG	<i>s-ál</i>	<i>s-ál-ahi</i>	<i>ój-s</i>	<i>ój-eh-a</i>	<i>ój-eh-ahi</i>	<i>u-j-á-l-ahi</i>
3SG	<i>hí</i>	<i>sín(a)</i>	<i>ó-l</i>	<i>ó-l-a</i>	<i>ó-l-ahi</i>	<i>u-j-áhi</i>
1PL	<i>s-ám</i>	<i>s-ám-ahi</i>	<i>ój-as</i>	<i>ój-áh-a</i>	<i>ój-áh-ahi</i>	<i>u-j-ám-ahi</i>
2PL	<i>s-án</i>	<i>s-án-ahi</i>	<i>ó-n</i>	<i>ó-n-a</i>	<i>ó-n-ahi</i>	<i>u-j-á-n-ahi</i>
3PL	<i>hí</i>	<i>sín(a)</i>	<i>ó-n</i>	<i>ó-n-a</i>	<i>ó-n-ahi</i>	<i>u-j-á-n-ahi</i>

The *s*-root forms the present indicative with the perfective person and number markers *-om*, *-al*, *-am*, *-an*. In the third person, **sí(n)* is replaced by *hi*. The perfective past is formed using the present forms extended with the [+ remote] marker *-ahi*. Sometimes, in the first and second persons, forms of the extended root *sij-* are found, e.g. *síjom* 'I am', *sijálahi* 'you were', *síjam* 'we are', *sijánahi* 'you were'. The third-person form *sín(a)* 'he/she was, they were' is a contracted form of **sín-ahi*.

Mé **sóm** lé kiralískeri čáj.

Ándi dár múli **sómahi**.

Mé dikáv, tú igen čoro **sál**.

Tré éršti muršéha sohárdi **sálahi**?

Mró dúmo pújsto **hi**.

Ój ándi špíta **sin**.

Amén láče pajtášča **sám**.

T'akór štár másek odój **sámahi**.

Tumén Róma **sán**?

Kíči tumén **sánahi** fačúvča?

Adála sohajárde **hí** gadžénca.

Ón mré kusínen **sín**.

'I am the king's daughter.'

'I was scared to death.'

'I can see that you are very poor.'

'Were you married to your first husband?'

'My back is ruined.'

'She was in hospital.'

'We are good friends.'

'And then we were there for four months.'

'Are you Roma?'

'How many children were there?'

'These are married to gadje.'

'They were my cousins.'

The present indicative and perfective past are negated in the first and second persons using the particle *na*. The third-person negations are *nan* in the present tense, and *nana* < **nan-ahi* in perfective past.

Table 35: Negation

	Present indicative	Perfective past
1/2	<i>ná</i> + be.PRS	<i>ná</i> + be.REM
3	<i>nán</i>	<i>nána</i>

Ná sámahi dúr odój,

mér ó Rústi ávnahi.

Óda **nán** čáčo.

Akór **nána** tút láčo iléto.

'We didn't stay there long,
because the Russians arrived.'

'That's not true.'

'You didn't have a good life back then.'

The ov-root is used for the present subjunctive, the future tense, the non-perfective and the imperative. The present subjunctive is formally identical to the indicative form.

Hám tú íste mírni **ójs**, mínt ...

Čák té siklól léskeri háсна **óvla**.

Túke lekféder **óvlahi**,

té túke ándi špíta džáhahi ék dí.

Čák **óven** šúkar mírne, míndžar ládas.

'But you must be quiet, because ...'

'The only benefit for him will be learning.'

'The best thing for you would be to
go to hospital for a day.'

'Just be quiet, we'll be off soon.'

The u-root is used to express the irrealis, the impossible condition.

Té mé adáj **ú-j-om-ahi**, I-és-ker-o šér-o dónde čin-č-om-ahi.

if I here be-PFV-1SG-REM his-OBL.SG-GEN-M.SG head-M.NOM.SG apart beat-PFV-1SG-REM

'If I had been here, I would have smashed his head in two.'

4.2.3_Particles

This chapter deals with adverbs, prepositions, negators and conjunctions. Subordinating conjunctions and verbal complements are covered in the section on syntax. The modal particles *šaj* 'can', *naštig* 'cannot', *ne* 'should', *iste* 'must' and *mereš* 'like', as well as the verbal particles, are covered in the section on verbs. The definite article as a marker of definiteness is discussed under nouns.

4.2.3.1_Adverbs

The formation of modal verbs from pre-European adjectives using the suffix *-e* < **-es* is inherited. Adjectives derived from *-án-* and *-íkan-* may lose the final *-e* in this process.

<i>čáč-e</i>	'properly'	< <i>čáč-o/i</i>	'true'
<i>sorál-e</i>	'strongly'	< <i>sorál-o/i</i>	'strong'
<i>román-Ø</i>	'Romani-style'	< <i>román-o/i</i>	'Romani-'
<i>gadžikán-Ø</i>	'non-Romani-style'	< <i>gadžikán-o/i</i>	'Gadjo-'

The suffix *-on*, borrowed from Hungarian, competes with the original *-e* in pre-European stems. Furthermore, it is the primary suffix used to derive modal and temporal adverbs from stems of European origin.

<i>náng-on</i>	: <i>náng-e</i>	'nakedly'	< <i>náng-o</i>	'naked'
<i>nasvál-on</i>	: <i>nasvál-e</i>	'sickly'	<i>nasvál-o</i>	'sick'
<i>bošič-on</i>		'at Christmas'	<i>bošič-a</i>	'Christmas'

The suffix *-a* is used to form three lexicalised adverbs with ethnic meanings:

<i>úngrik-a</i>	'in a Hungarian way'	< <i>úngrik-o</i>	'Hungarian'
<i>nímčk-a</i>	'in a German way'	< <i>nímčk-o</i>	'German'
<i>horváck-a</i>	'in a Croatian way'	< <i>horváck-o</i>	'Croatian'

Adjectives ending in a consonant have the same form as adverbs, e.g. *gódžar* 'cleverly', *sík* 'quickly'. Adjectives of German origin ending in *-i* are used as adverbs in the same way as in German: *fájni* [ADJ] > *fájn* [ADV] < deu. *fein* 'fine' The exception is *flájsi* < deu. *fleißig* 'diligent', which appears in the second of the following examples.

Má sáj sík váker!
NEG.IMP so quick speak.IMP.2SG
'Don't speak so quickly!'

Í rómn-i flájsi kéd-l-ahi ó pátr-a pál l-és-te.
ART.F.SG woman-F.NOM.SG diligent pick.NPFV-3SG-REM ART.PL leave-F.NOM.PL behind he-OBL-LOK
'The woman busily picked up the leaves behind him.'

Odá fájn džán-el té cíd-el.
DEM.M.SG fine know.NPFV-3SG KOMP play-INF
'He plays beautifully.'

The ablative suffix *-al* primarily forms adverbs of place with an ablative ('from where?') and/or locative meaning ('where? where to?'). The same suffix is used in the interrogative *mér-al?* 'from which direction?' < *mér-e?* 'which direction?'

Table 36: Local adverbs in *-al*

Adverb	Ablative	Lokative	Temporal
<i>ándral</i>	'from the inside'	-	-
<i>ánglal</i>	'from the front'	'in front'	-
<i>ávral</i>	'from the outside'	'outside'	-
<i>čáčal</i>	'from the right'	-	-
<i>dúral</i>	'from a distance'	-	-
<i>maškáral</i>	'from the centre'	-	-
<i>méral</i>	'from which direction'	-	-
<i>pálal</i>	'from behind'	'behind'	'afterwards'
<i>pášal</i>	'from close by'	-	-
<i>príkal</i>	'from over there'	-	-
<i>télal</i>	'from below'	'below'	-

<i>úpral</i>	'from above'	'above'	-
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The suffix *-al* is also added to the nouns *kher* 'house' and *drom* 'path', as well as to the participle *čord-* 'stolen'.

khér-al 'from home'

dróm-al 'on the way'

čórč-al 'secretly'

The suffix *-e* forms locative adverbs with allative ('where to?') and locative ('where?') meanings. The adverbs *ángle* and *pále* also convey the temporal meanings 'before' and 'after'. The irregular locative suffix *-i* forms the locative adverb *ar-i* 'outside'.

Table 37: Local adverbs in *-e*

Adverb	Allative	Locative	Temporal
<i>ánde</i>	'inwards'	'inside'	-
<i>ángle</i>	'forwards'	'in front'	'before'
<i>maškáre</i>	-	'in the middle'	-
<i>mére</i>	'in which direction'	-	-
<i>pále</i>	'backwards'	'at the back'	'afterwards'
<i>páše</i>	-	'near'	-
<i>prike</i>	-	'over there'	-
<i>téle</i>	'downwards'	'below'	-
<i>úpre</i>	'upwards'	'above'	-

The suffix *-e* is also found in the following locative and allative forms, as well as in temporal adverbs.

<i>dives-e</i>	'during the day'	< <i>dí</i>	'day'
<i>dže(ve)nd-e</i>	'in winter'	< <i>dže(ve)nd</i>	'winter'
<i>khér-e</i>	'home'	< <i>khér</i>	'house'
<i>kurk-e</i>	'on Sundays'	< <i>kurko</i>	'Sunday'
<i>linaj-e</i>	'in summer'	< <i>linaj</i>	'summer'
<i>plan-e</i>	'at midday'	< <i>plano</i>	'noon'
<i>thán-e</i>	'in a place'	< <i>thán</i>	'place'

Akór ar thán-e cid-ín-e ánde, ár kher-és-te.
 then other place-LOC move-PFV-3PL in other house-OBL.M.SG-LOC
 'Then they moved to another place, to another house.'

Té dževénd-e, té lináj-e, sák-o dí dž-áhi.
 whether winter-LOC whether summer-LOC every.M.NOM.SG day.M.NOM.SG go.NPFV-1SG.REM
 'Whether in winter or summer, I went every day.'

The basic adverbs of time are:

adí 'today'

akán 'now'

ídž 'yesterday'

táha 'tomorrow'

With the exception of *kúrke* 'Sundays', the adverbs for the days of the week correspond to the dative forms of the relevant nouns, which is consistent with the temporal use of the dative

shown above. In addition, alternative forms appear with the Hungarian-derived suffix *-on*, whereby the nouns *hetvin* and *keden*, formed after the Hungarian adverbs, also mean 'Mondays' and 'Tuesdays' without change.

<i>hetvin-á-ke</i>	<i>hétvin</i>	'Mondays'	< <i>hétvin</i>	'Monday'
<i>keden-á-ke</i>	<i>kéden</i>	'Tuesdays'	< <i>kéden</i>	'Tuesday'
<i>srid-á-ke</i>	<i>sríd-on</i>	'Wednesdays'	< <i>sríd-a</i>	'Wednesday'
<i>četertek-ós-ke</i>	<i>četértek-on</i>	'Thursdays'	< <i>četértek-o</i>	'Thursday'
<i>paraštuj-á-ke</i>	<i>paraštúj-on</i>	'Fridays'	< <i>paraštúj-a</i>	'Friday'
<i>subot-á-ke</i>	<i>súbot-on</i>	'Saturdays'	< <i>súbot-a</i>	'Saturday'
<i>kurk-e</i>	<i>kúrk-on</i>	'Sundays'	< <i>kúrk-o</i>	'Sunday'

4.2.3.2 Prepositions

Most prepositions are derived from pre-European locative adverbs and thus denote spatial relationships. In addition, there are the words *miste*, *prike* and *use*, which are borrowed from Slavic languages and *mere* 'at, next to' from Hungarian.

Some prepositions with spatial meanings also convey specific temporal relationships. For example, the preposition *ande* has the spatial meaning 'in' and the additional temporal meaning 'within', while the preposition *angle* has the spatial meaning 'at' and the temporal meaning 'before'.

Tr-í	dáj	ánd-o	štár	váj	ófto	dí	mér-el.	
your-F.NOM.SG	mother.F.NOM.SG	in-M.SG	four	or	eight	day.M.NOM.SG	die.NPFV-3SG	
'Your mother will die in four or eight days.'								
Mé	khére	még	úpr-o	thém	á-j-om,	ná	ánd-i	špít-a.
I	home	yet	on-M.NOM.SG	world.M.NOM.SG	come-PFV-1SG	NEG	in-F.NOM.SG	hospital-F.NOM.SG
'I was born at home, not in hospital.'								
Jék	kúrk-o	ángl-i	bošič-a	khére	lad-ij-am.			
one	week-M.NOM.SG	before-F.NOM.SG	christmas-F.NOM.SG	home	drive-PFV-1PL			
'We drove home a week before Christmas.'								
Ángl-o	vúdar	terdžó-l-ahi.						
at-M.Nom.SG	door.M.Nom.SG	stand.NPFV-3SG-REM						
'He was standing at the door.'								

In addition to prepositions that express temporal and spatial relationships, the BR also includes prepositions with a causal meaning, such as *vasch*, *miste* 'because of', which require the dative case, or a privative meaning, such as *bi* 'without'. As can be seen from the table below, some prepositions contract the following definite article.

Table 38: Prepositions

Preposition	+ Article: M/F/PL	Meaning
<i>ándar</i> <i>ándre</i>	— <i>ándro / ándri / ándre</i>	'by, from'
<i>ánde</i>	<i>ándo / ándi / ánde</i>	'in, at, within, during'
<i>angle</i>	<i>ánglo / ángli / angle</i>	'before, previously'
<i>bí</i>	—	'without'
<i>dží</i>	—	'until'
<i>máškar</i>	—	'between'
<i>mére</i>	<i>méro / méri / mére</i>	'at, by, near, next to'
<i>míste</i>	<i>místo / místi / míste</i>	'because of'

<i>ót</i>	–	'since'
<i>pále</i>	<i>pálo / páli / pále</i>	'back, afterwards, because of'
<i>pédar</i>	–	'above'
<i>príke</i>	<i>príko / príki / príke</i>	'over, across, beyond'
<i>téle</i>	<i>telo / téli / téle</i>	'under'
<i>úpral</i>	–	'from above'
<i>úpre</i>	<i>úpro / úpri / úpre</i>	up, above
<i>úsar</i>	–	'from'
<i>úse</i>	<i>úso / úsi / úse</i>	'to, at'
<i>váš</i>	–	'because of, for'

In everyday speech, prepositions are often replaced by their German equivalents; frequently *bi* is replaced by *oni* < deu. *ohne* 'without' and *ot* by *sajt* < deu. *seit* 'since'.

Nouns in prepositional phrases are in the nominative, while pronouns are marked by the locative.

Í rákl-i gé-l-i ús-o badár-i.
 ART.F.NOM.SG girl-F.NOM.SG go.PFV-F.3SG to-M.NOM.SG doctor-M.NOM.SG
 'The girl went to the doctor.'
Má rón búter míste mán-ge!
 NEG.IMP cry.IMP.SG more because of I.OBL-DAT
 'Don't cry over me anymore.'

Occasionally, nouns with a spatial reference are also marked with the locative case.

Ánd-e klostér-is-te mér í khangér-i áč-n-ahi duj rašáj-a.
 in-OBL.M monastery-M.OBL.SG-LOC near ART.F.NOM.SG church-F.NOM.SG stay.NPFV-3PL-REM two priest-M.NOM.PL
 'Two priests lived in the monastery next to the church.'

Examples of combinations of prepositions with *dži* 'until' include:

Sá íste kér-l-ahi fá divése dží ánd-i rát.
 all must make-3SG-REM from daytime to in-F.NOM.SG night-F.NOM.SG
 'He/she had to do everything from morning until night.'
Šún-eh-ahi l-á dží úse amén-de úpre.
 hear.NPFV-2SG-REM she-ACC until to we.OBL-LOC up
 'You could hear her all the way up here.'

4.2.3.3_Negation particles

The general negative particle is *ná*, whereas *má* is used with the imperative.

Ná džánav. 'I don't know'
Ná diklál. 'You didn't see.'
Té ná óv asóu dilíno. 'That you're not that stupid.'
Má rón! 'Don't cry!'
Má láha váker! 'Don't speak to her!'

The negator *ná* is also used as an independent negation particle.

Ná, ná džá-l áfka!
 NEG NEG go-3SG so
 'No, that won't do!'

The combination of the negative particles 'ni' and 'na' means 'nor':

Mé ná džán-áv lé té pobistér-el, táj mé lé ní ná kam-á té pobistér-el
 I NEG know.NPFV-1SG he.AKK KOMP forget-INF and I he.AKK NEG NEG will.NPFV-1SG.FUT KOMP forget-INF
 'I cannot forget it, nor will I ever want to!'

The negative focus particle *menik/nemik* 'not even' is composed of the particles *ni* 'neither' and *meg* 'even'.

Ménik bočkór-a l-á nána.
 not even shoe-F.NOM-PL she-Akk be.REM.NEG.3SG
 'She didn't even have any shoes.'

4.2.3.4_Conjunctions

The general coordinating conjunctions in BR are *táj* 'and' and *váj* 'or'.

Ó čúrč-a táj ó kát-a šlajfín-l-ahi.
 ART.PL knife-F.NOM.PL and ART.Nom.PL scissors-F.NOM.PL grind.NPFV-3SG-REM
 'He sharpened the knives and scissors.'

phúr-i váj térn-i
 old-F.SG or young-F.SG
 'old or young'

Before a vowel, *taj* is reduced to *t'*.

Ánde lédž-av ó rónč-i, t' odój šučár-av l-én.
 into take.NPFV-1SG ART.NOM.PL cloths-F.Nom.PL and there dry.NPFV-1SG they-PL.ACC
 'I'll take the clothes in and dry them there.'

... t' akór ó amerikanér-ča á-l-e.
 und dann ART.NOMPL Amerikaner-PL komm-PFV-3PL
 '... und dann kamen die Amerikaner.'

The adversative conjunction is *hám* 'but' < hun. *hánem*.

Í rók-a pál á-l-i, hám lé šošóv-e ná án-č-a.
 ART.F.NOM.SG fox-F.NOM.SG back come-PFV-F.3SG but ART.OBL hare-M.AKK.SG NEG bring-PFV-3SG
 'The fox came back, but he didn't bring the hare.'

Correlative conjunctions include *té ... té* 'both ... and', *ní ... ní* 'neither ... nor' (cf. sla. *ni ... ni*), and *váj ... váj* 'either ... or' (cf. hun. *vagy ... vagy*).

t' ó rákl-o t' ó čav-ór-o
 and ART.M.NOM.SG boy.non-Romani-M.NOM.SG and ART.M.NOM.SG boy.Romani-DIM-M.NOM.SG
 'and the non-Roma boy and the Roma boy'

Mé ná džán-av ní té písín-el ní té gín-el.
 I NEG know.NPFV-1SG neither KOMP write-INF nor KOMP read-INF
 'I can neither read nor write.'

Váj bikn-el-ahi l-én, váj ánde l-en parúv-l-ahi.
 either sell.NPFV-3SG-REM they-PL.AKK or in they-PL.AKK change-3SG-REM
 'Either he sold them, or he traded them in.'

4.3_Syntax

This section deals with word order, phrase syntax and subordinate clauses.

4.3.1_Word order

The preferred word order in the BR for neutral declarative sentences is:
 Subject (S)—Object (O)—Verb (V).

Ajá mró džijípe hája.
 S O V
 she my life ate
 'She ruined my life.'

Mé súmi thajav.

S O V
I soup cooked
'I cooked soup.'

Ó rúv jéke báličé hája.

S O V
the wolf a pig ate
'The wolf ate a pig.'

In contrast, pronominal objects come after the verb:

O múrš astárča lé.

S V O
the man caught him
'The man caught him.'

Pronoun objects come between the particle and the verb:

Táj ánde lé čidiĵa ándi hánig.

PTCL O V
'And he dragged him into the well.'

Mé íste lé lákav.

PTCL O V
'I have to find him.'

Articles and attributive adjectives, also genitives, are placed before the head noun.

Áfka búť bėša fagéle.

ATTR SUBST
'And so many years passed.'

Čák párne plásta mánge pékal.

ATTR SUBST
'I only need white sheets.'

Lá gadžákeri kájnhí ná bijánlahi.

ART ATTR SUBST
'The Gadzi's hen didn't lay any eggs.'

Adpositional phrases usually consist of a noun phrase—a noun or pronoun with modifiers, articles, etc.—preceded by a preposition.

Káda úse ámende álo.

PREP PRON
'When he came to us.'

úpr-i táti péča

PREP-ART ATTR SUBST
'on the warm stove'

4.3.2 Verbal complements

Verbal complements are marked by the feature [$\pm$ factual]. The factual complementiser is either the original *káj* < inc. *kva* or the borrowed *hót* < hun. *hogy*.

Džánav,

káj ájs.

'I know,

that you come.'

Phukáde aménge,

hót ó búču kesdínél.

'They told us,

that the fair is about to begin.'

Non-factual additions are introduced by the compound conjunctions *káj té* or *hót té*, or sometimes simply by *té*.

Kamá,

te ájs.

'I want

that you come.'

*Phukáca aménge,
káj khér té ájas.
Mé kamá,
hót tú úse mánde té ójs.*

'He told us,
that we should stay at home.'
'I want,
you to be with me.'

In these examples the particle *te* stands before the verb. In sentences with negative complements the negator and the object follow the particle *te* and the verb is at the end.

*Ándo vész kénca určáne,
káj té ná lén láken.
Šáj tháva eklík,
káj té ná lén í bók čínel.
Áfka pé irínča,
káj té ná lákeri ják díkel.*

'He flew with them into the forest,
so that no one would find them.'
'I can cook something, so they don't starve (so
hunger doesn't get the better of them).'
'He turned away,
so as not to see her eyes.'

As mentioned earlier, modal verbs take the non-factual *té*.

*Kamlá té sól.
Trománahi té džál.
Ná pekájs té dával.*

'I want to sleep.'
'They dared to leave.'
'You needn't be afraid.'

4.3.3_Subordination

This section covers interrogative, relative and adverbial clauses.

4.3.3.1_Interrogative clauses

Interrogative pronouns introduce indirect questions.

*Mé látar minding phúčahi,
sóske mé sáj káli sól.
Ná phénáv túke,
sár mé bučójav.
Akán í rómni ná džánlahi,
só láha té kérel.
Íste díkav,
kó hí khér.
Óv phúčla mándar,
kátar sól.*

'I always asked her
why I am so dark.'
'I'm not telling you,
what my name is.'
'Then the woman didn't know
what to do with her.'
'I need to check
who's at home.'
'He asked me (from me)
where I was from.'

The particles *té* or *óbste*, < deu. *ob* 'whether' + *te*, introduce indirect yes-no questions.

*Mé ná džánáv,
té hí még léngero váj ná.
Mé ná džánáv,
óbste čáčo váj čak áfka lé vakérnahi.*

'I don't know,
whether it's still hers or not.'
'I don't know, whether it's true or whether
they're just saying that.'

4.3.3.2_Relative clauses

The two interrogative pronouns *kó* 'who' and *só* 'what' as well as the demonstrative pronoun *sávo* 'which' are used as relative pronouns.

*Dé léske ó čiknípe,
só lé borséNDAR hí.*

'Give him the fat,
the one from the hedgehogs.'

<i>Ó márhi,</i> sáve dževénde són ...	'The animals, that hibernate in winter ...'
<i>Í Vílma sína,</i> savátar adá thán kínčom pálal.	'It was Wilma, from whom I later bought this place.'
<i>Mé sóm ojá,</i> kasáha tumáro királi khélča cíli rát.	'I am the one, with whom your king danced all night.'

In possessive constructions, only *kó* and *sávo* are used.

<i>Pápal ojá ré áli,</i> kás somnakúno šnúr ándi mén sín.	'Once again came the fawn, the one with a golden cord around its neck.'
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4.3.3.3_Adverbial clauses

This sub-chapter deals with causal, conditional, concessive, final and temporal clauses. These are introduced by conjunctions listed in the table below.

Table 39: Conjunctions of adverbial clauses

Specification		Conjunctions	Meaning
Conditional	real	<i>té</i>	'wenn'
	potential	<i>té</i>	'wenn'
	unreal	<i>te</i>	'wenn'
Concessive		<i>ké káj</i> <i>sár té</i>	'obwohl 'als wenn'
Final		<i>hót káj</i> <i>káj, hót té, scháj, náschtig, íste</i>	'deshalb'
Causal		<i>káj, mért/márt, mínt/mént</i>	'weil'
Temporal	anterior	<i>kada</i>	'nachdem'
	simultaneous	<i>sár</i> <i>dschi(dokle)</i>	'als' 'während'
	posterior	<i>angloda</i> <i>dschi(meg)</i>	'bevor' 'bis'

4.3.3.3.1_Conditional clauses

The particle *té* introduces conditional clauses. The perfect past tense is used to express the real condition.

<i>Té pápal géjal,</i> <i>akór ná ájs mánge búter ánde.</i>	'When you leave again, don't come back in.'
<i>Mé íste mérav</i> <i>té tú ná újal mró.</i>	'I must die, unless you become mine.'

The potential condition is marked by the non-perfective past tense, whereas the Irrealis or extended perfective past marks the unreal condition.

<i>Jó, té tu džánehahi,</i> <i>só mánge hí!</i>	'Oh, if only you knew, what's wrong with me!'
<i>Pújsto mán čičenahi,</i> <i>té ná lén díjomahi.</i>	'They would have ruined me, if I hadn't given it to them.'

4.3.3.3.2_Concessive clause

The compound particles *ké káj* 'although' and *sár té* 'as if' introduce concessive clauses.

<i>Hám odá gódžar mánuš sína,</i> <i>ké káj pílahi.</i>	'But he was a clever man, although he did drink.'
<i>Cám lén čalávlahi, áfka,</i> <i>sár té dóbo čalávlahi</i>	'He beat her so hard, as if he were drumming.'

4.3.3.3.3_Final clause

There are two ways to introduce final clauses: using the combination *hót káj* 'so that' or combinations of the particles *káj*, *hót* and *té*, *šáj*, *náštig*, *íste*.

<i>Tél čídnahi sápuj táj kója,</i> <i>hót káj té nandžáres.</i>	'They threw soap and such things down, so that you could have a bath.'
<i>Kéres sá lé fačúnge,</i> <i>káj valasó té ól lén</i>	'You do everything for the children, so that they have something to eat.'
<i>Akór t' ó šlesínki ímar sáj kóvle úle,</i> <i>hót šáj lén hás.</i>	'Then the spleen will have softened enough, that you can eat it.'
<i>Hám adá sáj kúč sína,</i> <i>hót náštig=lé tél počínčam.</i>	'But it was so expensive, that we couldn't afford it.'

4.3.3.3.4_Causal clauses

Causal clauses are usually introduced by the borrowed particles *mért/márt* 'because' < hun. *mert* and *mínt/mént* 'because' < hun. *mint* 'as'.

<i>Mért šepínahahi,</i> <i>úpr' ávlahi ó práho.</i>	'Because we swept, the dust rose.'
<i>Pápal sohárča,</i> <i>mínt mró dád ándo habúri pélo.</i>	'She got married again, because my father had been killed in the war.'

Sometimes the particle *káj* is also used in this function.

<i>T' úpro šéro lé adáj činča ák asáj kojáha,</i> <i>káj míndig hohávlahi.</i>	'And she used to hit him over the head with things like that because he was always lying.'
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4.3.3.3.5_Temporal clauses

Káda 'after' introduces temporal clauses indicating an earlier event or anteriority.

<i>Káda múli,</i> <i>ná sutschóm trín másek.</i>	'After she died, I didn't sleep for three months.'
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The conjunctions *sar* 'as' and *dschi* 'while' indicate simultaneity.

<i>Sár kesdíntschom té molínel,</i> <i>krík=lo sín.</i>	'When I started praying, he was gone.'
<i>Dschí óv Gereciste ándi schpíta sína,</i> <i>léskeri meláli gráuslichí dáj náschi géli.</i>	'While he was in hospital in Graz, his nasty, horrible mother left.'

Angloda 'before' and *dschímeg* (< *dschí* + hun. *még*) 'until' express posteriority.

<i>Angloda ále aménde,</i> <i>dur Bečíte ačáhahi.</i>	'Before they came to us, they lived in Vienna for a long time.'
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*Odój garútscha pe,
dschímeg ó habúri ár sín.*

'She hid there,
until the war was over.'

Conjunctions meaning 'since', such as the Slavic-derived *ot* and the German-derived *sájt* or *sájt só* (< deu. *seit* + *so* 'what'), express either simultaneity—as in the first of the following examples—or anteriority—as in the second sentence—depending on the sequence of tenses in the main and subordinate clauses.

*Ót andi iškola džálahi,
mirneder taj lačeder hi.
Ná, meg ná kertschóm gánci,
sájt só mrí dáj múli.*

'Since he started school,
he's been calmer and better behaved.'
'No, I haven't made any bean crumble since
my mother died.'

Similarly, the conjunction *kada* can also express simultaneity.

*Káda khér ájom,
nána níko khér.*

'When I got home,
no one was there.'

The function and meaning of temporal conjunctions sometimes become apparent only from the context and the sequence of tenses in the main and subordinate clauses.

5_Lexicon

The core vocabulary of a language consists of words characterised by high frequency, versatility and cultural stability, such as terms for the body and nature (*hand, head, water, fire, sun*), family and social roles (*father, mother, friend, person*), time and space (*now, today, yesterday, here, up*), numbers and quantities (*one, two, three, many, none*), as well as basic verbs (*to be, to do, to say, to go, to come*) and function words (*the, I, you, this, and*). Apart from *pàjtaš* < Hun. *pajtás* 'friend' and the Slavic-derived *níšta* 'none', the examples just cited derive in BR from Indo-Aryan, the oldest lexical layer of Romani. Of the hundred words in the Swadesh list, 84 are from Indo-Aryan (inc.):³⁸

Table 40: Swadesh List³⁹

1. <i>mé</i>	'I'	inc. <i>ma</i>	51. <i>čučí</i>	'breasts'	inc. <i>cuccu</i>
2. <i>tú</i>	'you'	inc. <i>tuvam</i>	52. <i>vódži</i>	'heart'	arm. <i>hogi</i>
3. <i>amén</i>	'we'	inc. <i>asmād</i>	53. <i>búko</i>	'liver'	inc. <i>vřkka</i>
4. <i>adá</i>	'this'	inc. <i>a-</i>	54. <i>leech</i>	'drink'	inc. <i>pibati</i>
5. <i>odá</i>	'that'	inc. <i>o-</i>	55. <i>háv</i>	'to eat'	inc. <i>khādati</i>
6. <i>kó</i>	'who'	inc. <i>kaḥ</i>	56. <i>dandérav</i>	'to bite'	inc. <i>danta</i>
7. <i>só</i>	'what'	inc. <i>kasya</i>	57. <i>díkav</i>	'to see'	inc. <i>dřkšati</i>
8. <i>ná</i>	'not'	inc. <i>na</i>	58. <i>šúnav</i>	'to hear'	inc. <i>šřṇoti</i>
9. <i>sá</i>	'all'	inc. <i>sarva</i>	59. <i>džánav</i>	'to know'	inc. <i>jānāti</i>
10. <i>bút</i>	'many'	inc. <i>bahutva</i>	60. <i>sójav</i>	'to sleep'	inc. <i>svapati</i>
11. <i>jék</i>	'one'	inc. <i>ekka</i>	61. <i>mérav</i>	'to die'	inc. <i>marate</i>
12. <i>dúj</i>	'two'	inc. <i>duvā</i>	62. <i>murdárav</i>	'to kill'	inc. <i>mřtakaroti</i>
13. <i>báro</i>	'big'	inc. <i>vaḍra</i>	63. <i>usínav</i>	'to swim'	hun. <i>úszik</i>
14. <i>major</i>	'long'	inc. <i>major</i>	64. <i>určav</i>	'to fly'	inc. <i>uḍḍiya</i>
15. <i>tíkno</i>	'small'	inc. <i>tikṣṇa</i>	65. <i>džáv</i>	'to walk'	inc. <i>yāti</i>
16. <i>džúvli</i>	'woman'	inc. <i>yuvati</i>	66. <i>ájav</i>	'to come'	inc. <i>āpayati</i>
17. <i>róm</i>	'man'	inc. <i>ḍomba</i>	67. <i>pašlójav</i>	'to lie'	inc. <i>pārśva</i>
18. <i>manuš</i>	'human'	inc. <i>mānuṣa</i>	68. <i>bešav</i>	'to sit'	inc. <i>upaviśati</i>
19. <i>mačo</i>	'fish'	inc. <i>matsya</i>	69. <i>terdójav</i>	'to stand'	inc. <i>dhřta</i>
20. <i>čiríkli</i>	'bird'	inc. <i>ciṭaka</i>	70. <i>dáv</i>	'to give'	inc. <i>dadāti</i>
21. <i>džúkel</i>	'dog'	inc. <i>jakuṭa</i>	71. <i>phénav</i>	'to say'	inc. <i>bhanati</i>
22. <i>džúv</i>	'louse'	inc. <i>jūkā</i>	72. <i>khám</i>	'sun'	inc. <i>gharm.a</i>
23. <i>kašt</i>	'tree'	inc. <i>kāṣṭha</i>	73. <i>čón</i>	'moon'	inc. <i>jyōtsnā</i>
24. <i>mógo</i>	'seed'	hun. <i>mag</i>	74. <i>čerhéní</i>	'star'	ira. <i>čarḥana</i>
25. <i>pátrin</i>	'leaf'	inc. <i>pattra</i>	75. <i>páj</i>	'water'	inc. <i>pāñiya</i>
26. <i>kórna</i>	'root'	sla. <i>korijen</i>	76. <i>bríšind</i>	'rain'	inc. <i>varśati</i>
27. <i>kóra</i>	'bark'	sla. <i>kora</i>	77. <i>bár</i>	'stone'	inc. <i>Varta</i>
28. <i>cípa</i>	'skin'	grc. <i>tsipa</i>	78. <i>póši</i>	'sand'	inc. <i>pāmśu</i>
29. <i>más</i>	'flesh'	inc. <i>māmsa</i>	79. <i>phúv</i>	'earth'	inc. <i>bhūmi</i>
30. <i>rát</i>	'blood'	inc. <i>rakta</i>	80. <i>félho</i>	'cloud'	Hun. <i>felhő</i>
31. <i>kokálo</i>	'bone'	grc. <i>kokkalon</i>	81. <i>thúv</i>	'smoke'	inc. <i>dhūma</i>
32. <i>číken</i>	'fat'	inc. <i>cikkaṇa</i>	82. <i>jág</i>	'fire'	inc. <i>agni</i>
33. <i>kúku</i>	'egg'	grc. <i>kūkki</i>	83. <i>práho</i>	'ash'	sla. <i>prah</i>
34. <i>šíng</i>	'horn'	inc. <i>śřṇga</i>	84. <i>thárav</i>	'burn'	inc. <i>dhāṭayati</i>

38 As this list (Swadesh 1971) consists of universal terms that form part of the stable core vocabulary—i.e. terms that are rarely replaced by loanwords—it can be used to determine whether two languages are related, how close that relationship is, and roughly when they diverged from one another.

39 The origin or etymology of the individual lexemes has been researched independently on the one hand, and cross-checked against Boretzky (1992) and the dictionary by Boretzky/Igla (1994) on the other.

35. <i>póri</i>	'Tail'	inc. <i>pūta</i>	85. <i>dróm</i>	'path'	grc. <i>dromos</i>
36. <i>póri</i>	'feather'	inc. <i>parṇa</i>	86. <i>hég-o</i>	'mountain'	hun <i>hegy</i>
37. <i>bál</i>	'hair'	inc. <i>vāla</i>	87. <i>lólo</i>	'red'	inc. <i>lohita</i>
38. <i>šéro</i>	'head'	inc. <i>śira.s</i>	88. <i>seléno</i>	'green'	sla. <i>zelen</i>
39. <i>kán</i>	'ear'	inc. <i>karṇa</i>	89. <i>čúto</i>	'yellow'	sla. <i>žut</i>
40. <i>jak</i>	'eye'	inc. <i>akṣi</i>	90. <i>párno</i>	'white'	inc. <i>pāṇḍu</i>
41. <i>nák</i>	'nose'	inc. <i>nakka</i>	91. <i>kálo</i>	'black'	inc. <i>kāla</i>
42. <i>múj</i>	'mouth'	inc. <i>mukha</i>	92. <i>rát</i>	'night'	inc. <i>rātrī</i>
43. <i>dánd</i>	'tooth'	inc. <i>danta</i>	93. <i>Dad</i>	'hot'	inc. <i>tapta</i>
44. <i>čīb</i>	'tongue'	inc. <i>jihvā</i>	94. <i>šilálo</i>	'cold'	inc. <i>śīta</i>
45. <i>náj</i>	'claw'	inc. <i>nakha</i>	95. <i>phérdo</i>	'full'	inc. <i>bharati</i>
46. <i>pró</i>	'foot'	inc. <i>piṇḍa</i>	96. <i>nevo</i>	'new'	inc. <i>nava</i>
47. <i>čang</i>	'knee'	inc. <i>jaṅghā</i>	97. <i>lačo</i>	'good'	inc. <i>accha</i>
48. <i>vá</i>	'hand'	inc. <i>hasta</i>	98. <i>angrustálo</i>	'round'	ira. <i>anguštārī</i>
49. <i>pér</i>	'belly'	inc. <i>peṭṭa</i>	99. <i>šúko</i>	'dry'	inc. <i>śuṣka</i>
50. <i>mén</i>	'neck'	inc. <i>manyā</i>	100. <i>anáv</i>	'name'	inc. <i>nāman</i>

The core vocabulary of BR, like that of all Romani varieties, not only confirms its affiliation with the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European languages, but also reflects the migration route of the Roma to Europe. Influences from Iranian languages (ira.) leave their mark on the vocabulary, as do Armenian (arm.) and Byzantine Greek (grc.), which, together with the so-called 'hereditary words' from Indo-Aryan, form the pre-European vocabulary of Romani; together they account for 91 out of 100 in the list above. Furthermore, all Romani varieties share loanwords from the Balkan or South Slavic languages (sla.). All subsequent layers of loanwords or languages are variety-specific; in the case of BR, these are Hungarian (hun.), German (deu.) and, to an increasing extent, English (eng.).

In BR, 522 basic lexemes of pre-European origin are attested; the majority from Indo-Aryan and just under a hundred from the other pre-European layers.⁴⁰ The kinship terms, among other things, demonstrate how essential this vocabulary is.

Table 41: Kinship terms

Generation	+2	+1	∅	-1	-2
direct	<i>čavéskero</i> <i>čajákero</i> < 'grandson'	<i>čávo</i> < inc. 'son'	<i>phrál</i> < inc. 'brother'	<i>dád</i> < inc. 'father'	<i>pápu</i> < grc. 'grandfather'
	<i>čavéskero</i> <i>čajákero</i> 'granddaughter'	<i>čaj</i> < inc. 'daughter'	<i>phén</i> < inc. 'sister'	<i>dáj</i> < inc. 'mother'	<i>bába</i> < sla. 'grandmother'
indirect		<i>phraléskero/pheňákero</i> <i>čávo</i> 'nephew'	<i>kusájn</i> < deu. 'cousin [M]'	<i>báči</i> < hun. 'uncle'	
		<i>phraléskeri/pheňakeri</i> <i>čaj</i> 'niece'	<i>kusína</i> < deu. 'cousin [F]'	<i>múam</i> < deu. 'aunt'	

The vast majority of kinship terms originate from Indo-Aryan. 'Nephew' and 'niece' are described using elements of the core vocabulary as 'brother/sister's son/daughter', just as 'grandson' and 'granddaughter' are described as 'of the son' or 'the son's' and 'of the daughter' or 'the daughter's'. Only for indirect kinship and the grandparents' generation are loanwords used, although it is likely that these degrees of kinship were not distinguished in the past. Grandparents are still sometimes referred to today as 'old parents' (*phuro dad* or *phuri daj*), and for indirect relatives within the extended family, the respective direct equivalents

40 See the list at the end of the section.

are also used. The terms for the immediate in-laws also derive from Indo-Aryan, whereas more distant in-laws are referred to using a Slavic loanword.

<i>bóri</i>	'daughter-in-law'	< inc. <i>vadhūṭī</i>
<i>džamútro</i>	'son-in-law'	< inc. <i>jāmāṭr</i>
<i>sastro/i</i>	'father-in-law/mother-in-law'	< inc. <i>śvāśura</i>
<i>šogori/kija</i>	'brother-in-law/sister-in-law'	< sla. <i>šogor</i>

For cardinal numbers, the lexemes up to 'one hundred' derive either from Indo-Aryan or Byzantine Greek:

<i>jek</i>	'one'	< inc. <i>ekka</i>
<i>duj</i>	'two'	< inc. <i>duvā</i>
<i>trin</i>	'three'	< inc. <i>trīṇi</i>
<i>štár</i>	'four'	< inc. <i>catvāra</i>
<i>pánč</i>	'five'	< inc. <i>pañca</i>
<i>šov</i>	'six'	< inc. <i>ṣaṣ</i>
<i>éfta</i>	'seven'	< grc. <i>efta</i>
<i>ófto</i>	'eight'	< grc. <i>oxtó</i>
<i>éña</i>	'nine'	< Grc. <i>enniá</i>
<i>déš</i>	'ten'	< inc. <i>daśa</i>
<i>biš</i>	'twenty'	< inc. <i>vimśati</i>
<i>tránda</i>	'thirty'	< grc. <i>triánda</i>
<i>šel</i>	'one hundred'	< inc. <i>śata</i>

The other numbers between one and one hundred are combinations of these basic lexemes, such as *biš-u-trín* 'twenty-three', *efta-var-déš* 'seventy' or 'seven-times-ten' and *trin šel* 'three hundred'. The Slavic-derived *níšta* is used for 'zero', the Hungarian-derived *eser* for 'thousand', whilst *milijona* 'million' is borrowed from German.

Core meanings from the basic vocabulary and further distinctions, primarily from recent loanwords, also characterise the structuring of the passage of time, with the basic meanings expressed using Indo-Aryan lexemes.

<i>dí</i>	'day'	< inc. <i>divasa</i>
<i>rát</i>	'night'	< inc. <i>rātrī</i>
<i>bérš</i>	'year'	< inc. <i>varṣa</i>
<i>ívend</i>	'winter'	< inc. <i>hemanta</i>
<i>línaj</i>	'Summer'	< inc. <i>nidāgha</i>
<i>másek</i>	'month'	< inc. <i>māsa</i>
<i>kúrke</i>	'week'	< grc. <i>kiriakí</i>
<i>kúrke</i>	'Sunday'	< grc. <i>kiriakí</i>
<i>hétvin</i>	'Monday'	< hun. <i>hétfőn</i>
<i>kéden</i>	'Tuesday'	< hun. <i>Tuesday</i>
<i>srída</i>	'Wednesday'	< sla. <i>Wednesday</i>
<i>četérteko</i>	'Thursday'	< sla. <i>Thursday</i>
<i>Friday</i>	'Friday'	< grc. <i>paraskeví</i>
<i>subóta</i>	'Saturday'	< sla. <i>subota</i>
<i>hour</i>	'hour'	< hun. <i>hour</i>
<i>minúta</i>	'minute'	< deu. <i>minute</i>
<i>second</i>	'second'	< deu. <i>second</i>

A similar list can be compiled for colour terms. The lexemes for the three primary colours 'white', 'black' and 'red' originate from Indo-Aryan.

<i>párno</i>	'white'	< inc. <i>pāṇḍu</i>
<i>kálo</i>	'black'	< inc. <i>kāla</i>
<i>lólo</i>	'red'	< inc. <i>lohita</i>
<i>seléno</i>	'green'	< sla. <i>zelen</i>
<i>čúto</i>	'yellow'	< sla. <i>žut</i>
<i>módro</i>	'blue'	< sla. <i>moder</i>
<i>sméd'o</i>	'brown'	< sla. <i>smeđ</i>
<i>bráuni</i>	'brown'	< deu. <i>brown</i>
<i>orange</i>	'orange'	< eng. <i>orange</i>
<i>vijoléti</i>	'violet'	< deu. <i>violet</i>

As mentioned, words in the core vocabulary are characterised not only by cultural stability and high frequency, but also by versatility. Verbs such as *kérav* < inc. *karoti*, with the basic meaning 'to make', have a semantic range extending from 'to do', 'to produce' through 'to cause', 'to transform', 'to prepare' and 'to cook' to 'to taste' and 'to yield'. The specific meaning always arises from usage or contextual disambiguation in spoken language.

The same applies to the range of meanings of verbs of volition or the volitive semantic field; cf. also BR *vólja* 'will'. The two basic vocabulary verbs *kámav* and *mángav* have a range of meanings from 'to love', 'to like', 'to be fond of' and 'to enjoy doing', through 'to wish', 'to want' and 'to intend', to 'to desire', 'to crave' and 'to demand'. When to use which of the two verbs can be described as follows: The more love, the more *kámav*; the more demand, the more *mángav*. In informal spoken usage, these two verbs are sufficient to always express the desired nuance of meaning within the range shown, through contextual disambiguation. The differentiation required in formal written usage is achieved through more recent loanwords, resulting in the following gradation of meaning.

<i>kámav</i>	'to love, to like, to want'	< inc. <i>kāma</i>
<i>kivanínav</i>	'to wish, to want'	< hun. <i>kíván</i>
<i>sertínav</i>	'to like, to wish, to be willing to do, to want'	< hun. <i>szeret</i>
<i>akarínav</i>	'intend, want'	< hun. <i>akar</i>
<i>mángav</i>	'to desire, to demand, to want'	< inc. <i>mārgati</i>

What is striking about the examples of core meanings from the basic vocabulary and the nuances provided by recent loanwords – further examples could be cited – is the presence of lexemes from Byzantine Greek alongside Indo-Aryan heritage words in the basic vocabulary, which is, after all, relatively stable compared to loanwords. Moreover, more than half of the one hundred non-Indo-Aryan pre-European stems in BR are of Greek origin. The reason for this is most likely prolonged and intensive contact between Romani and Byzantine Greek, which also suggests changes in the structure of Romani. Under the influence of Greek, the definite article, amongst other things, developed (Matras 2002: 96f.). The integration morphology, i.e. the strategies and suffixes for incorporating loanwords from contact languages, also originates from Greek (Bakker 1997).

5.1_Documentation

The documentation of the vocabulary begins with text analysis during the codification process and, together with the query results, yields around 1,500 entries. A basic vocabulary of a language comprises between 1,000 and 3,000 words, which are sufficient for the needs of oral communication. Basic communication is understood to mean the ability to make oneself understood in the most important everyday situations.

The next step was to compile a vocabulary list of 3,000 entries. The terms selected for this list roughly correspond to the vocabulary required for fluent everyday communication, media consumption and the production of simple texts, which is roughly equivalent to level B2 (advanced language use) of the Common European Framework of Reference for Languages.⁴¹ As part of the Romlex project, this list was expanded to more than 7,000 entries.⁴²

The corpus will then be continuously expanded. The online dictionary published alongside this description contains around 12,500 entries. These are the result, on the one hand, of the analysis of documented translations and newly created texts, and, on the other hand, of targeted lexical expansion. This expansion is carried out by applying word-formation possibilities – the derivational morphology and compound formation described in the previous section on the structure of BR – and productive integrative morphology or the adoption patterns for loan-words.

5.1.1_Derivation

The derivational possibilities of BR are described in detail in the chapter on structure, based on the documented vocabulary of the codification texts.

The stock of adjectives is primarily expanded by derivations from nouns with four, fundamentally semantically defined endings:

<i>beč-ítik-o/-i</i>	'Viennese'	< <i>Beč-i</i>	'Vienna'	<i>-ítiko-</i>	'TOPONYM'
<i>mušt-ún-o/-i</i>	'cidery'	< <i>múšt-o</i>	'cider'	<i>-un-</i>	'SUBSTANCE'
<i>phendeh-án-o/-i</i>	'hazelnutty'	< <i>phendéh-a</i>	'hazelnut'	<i>-an-</i>	'CATEGORY'
<i>rup-ikán-o/-i</i>	'silver-like'	< <i>rúp</i>	'silver'	<i>-ikán-</i>	'AFFINITY'

As the examples show, the meanings are not always unambiguous, but depend on the context.⁴³ For instance, *pendeháno* can mean 'hazelnut-shaped', but it can also form part of a noun phrase, such as *pendeháni čokolád* ('hazelnut chocolate'). The derivational suffix does not always follow semantic criteria. The ending *-al*, otherwise reserved for pre-European adjectives, may also occur. In the following example, this is most likely explained by the identical ending in the German equivalent:

nacion-ál-o/-i 'national' < *nación-a* 'nation'

Adjectives borrowed from Hungarian and derived from Hungarian nouns often, though not always, as the last example shows, have the Hungarian-derived suffix *-Všn-*:

<i>dih-ěšn-o/-i</i>	'wild'	< hun. <i>divje</i>
<i>pup-óšn-o/-i</i>	'humpbacked'	< <i>púp-o</i> 'hump' < hun. <i>púp</i>
<i>pav-án-o/-i</i>	'peacock'	< <i>páv-a</i> 'peacock' < hun. <i>páva</i> <i>-an-</i> 'CATEGORY'

Modal adverbs derived from adjectives are included primarily when they have a meaning that differs from the base form. In some cases, forms with the inherited suffix *-e* and the productive Hungarian-derived suffix *-on* are attested

<i>kísn-e</i>	: <i>kísn-on</i>	'already'	< <i>kísn-o</i>	'finished'
<i>neréd-e</i>		'in a mess'	< <i>neréd-o</i>	'messy'

41 <https://www.coe.int/en/web/common-european-framework-reference-languages>

42 <http://romani.uni-graz.at/romlex/>

43 The large number of adjectives included in the online dictionary is due to the fact that most users of the BR lack intuitive knowledge of the semantics of derivational suffixes because of the limited use of the language, and the dictionary should therefore be seen as an aid in this regard.

pharikán-e 'barely' < *pharikán-o* 'arduous'
čúl-e : *čúl-on* 'rare' < *čul-o* 'little'

The stock of nouns has been supplemented primarily by abstract and agentive formations, as well as by adjectives turned into nouns with meanings that deviate from the derivational base, or that are figurative or essential to the basic vocabulary.

As for abstract nouns, the inherited suffix *-ipe* remains productive.

faln-ípe 'absence' < *faln-inav* 'to be missing'
guljar-ípe 'sweet' < *guljár-av* 'to sweeten'
meneč-ípe 'management' < *meneč-inav* 'to manage'
rakl-ípe 'puberty' < *rakl-o/-i* 'boy/girl'

Adjectives used as nouns are declined in the same way as Proto-European nouns ending in *-o* in the masculine nominative singular and *-i* in the feminine nominative singular.

dilín-o/-i [N] 'fool' < *dilín-o/-i* [ADJ] 'silly'
godžar-o/-i [N] 'wise' < *godžar* [ADJ] 'clever'
 Most *-o/-i* [N] 'down-to-earth' < *phuval-o/-i* [ADJ] 'earthy'

The productive agentive formation used to expand the lexical inventory forms the nominative singular masculine with the Greek-derived *-i* and the corresponding feminine form with the Slavic-derived *-kíja*:

fot-óš-i/-kíja 'rag-collector' < *fót-o* 'rags'
intelekt-áš-i/-kíja 'intellectual' < *intelekt* 'Intellect'
komik-ér-i/-kíja 'Comedian' < *komik* 'Comic'
šelj-ár-i/-kíja 'Rope-maker' < *šél-o* 'rope'

Verb derivation in BR is no longer productive, which is why only potential derivations are reconstructed in the lexical expansion. This is always appropriate when it can be assumed that the forms were also used in the past. The following three derivational suffixes are attested:

-ar- 'to make' 'FACTIVE'
-aj- / -av- 'let' 'CAUSATIVE'
*-oj- < *-ov-* 'to become' 'INCHOATIVE'

Whilst the inchoative suffix is realised only as *-oj-* due to the elision of the *v*, alternative forms with *-av-* occur in the causative ending. The derivational base is generally nominal for factitive and inchoative forms, and predominantly verbal for causative forms.

lól-o [ADJ] 'red'
lol-ár-av 'to make red, to redden'
lol-ój-av 'to turn red, to blush'
šitíkn-o [ADJ] 'dark'
šitíkn-ár-av 'to darken, to obscure [something]'
šitíkn-ój-av 'to grow dark, to darken [oneself], to twilight'
phén-av [V] 'to say'
phen-áj-av 'to have someone speak, to interview'
píj-av [V] 'to drink'
píj-áj-av 'to make someone drink, to water'

Verbal phrases are formed with the corresponding verbs, using recent loanwords and, frequently, lexemes from older layers of the language in spontaneous speech.

<i>keráv</i>	'to make'	'FACTIVE'
<i>múkav</i>	'let'	'CAUSATIVE'
<i>ójav</i>	'to become'	'INCHOATIVE'

In addition to the generally encountered *buti kerav* 'to do work' for 'to work' in Romanes, there are verbal phrases with a factitive meaning, such as:

<i>báŋge keráv</i>	: <i>baŋǵ-ár-av</i>	'to bend, to curve'	< <i>báŋg-o</i>	'crooked'
<i>nasvále keráv</i>	: <i>nasval-ár-av</i>	'to make healthy, to heal'	< <i>nasval-o</i>	'healthy'
<i>afoch kerav</i>		'to make simple, to simplify'	< <i>áfochi</i>	'simply'
<i>glót keráv</i>		'to smooth, to flatten'	< <i>glóti</i>	'smooth'

The last example, 'to smooth out', can also be expressed using the loanword verb *gletínel*. It should be noted that these verbal phrases always use the adverbial form.

The causative verb *mukav* 'to make' is formed in verbal phrases using the so-called substitute infinitive with the particle *te*.

<i>áčav te múkel</i>	: <i>ač-áj-av</i>	'to let remain'
<i>kerav te múkel</i>	: <i>ker-áj-av</i>	'let do'
<i>nerínav te múkel</i>		'let someone win'
<i>reglínav te múkel</i>		'to let be settled'

The inchoative suffix *-oj-* is sometimes replaced by the formally identical verb stem *ój-av* 'to become'. In recent loanwords, these verb phrases consisting of an adverb and a verb are the expected forms.

<i>párne ojáv</i>	: <i>parn-ój-av</i>	'to turn white, to pale'	< <i>párn-o</i>	'white'
<i>sorále ojáv</i>	: <i>soraj-ój-av</i>	'to become strong, to grow stronger'	< <i>sorál-o</i>	'strong'
<i>savárošnon ojáv</i>		'to become cloudy, to cloud over'	< <i>savaróšno</i>	'cloudy'
<i>perfékt ojáv</i>		'to become perfect, to perfect oneself'	< <i>perfékti</i>	'perfect'

These verbal phrases correspond formally to the analytical present passive, which, as explained in the section on structure, is formed using adverbs derived from perfective participles [PFV.PART]. Participles and their substantivisation are included according to the above pattern for adjectives whenever they have meanings that differ from the derivational base or are essential to the core vocabulary.

<i>džán-av</i>	[V]	'to know'
<i>džán-d-o/i</i>	[PAST PARTICIPLE]	'known, familiar, famous'
<i>džán-d-o/i</i>	[N]	'Well-known people, famous people, celebrities'
<i>šmugl-ín-av</i>	[V]	'to smuggle'
<i>šmugl-ím-o/i</i>	[PAST PARTICIPLE]	'smuggled'
<i>šmugl-ím-o</i>	[N]	'smuggled goods'
<i>čung</i>	[N]	'saliva'
<i>čung-ár-av</i>	[V]	'to produce saliva, to spit'
<i>čung-ar-d-o/i</i>	[PAST PARTICIPLE]	'spat, spat upon, contemptuously'

čung-ar-d-o/i [N] 'spat upon, contemptible, vile'

The same applies to the non-perfective participles [NPFV.PART] and their possible nominalisations:

džij-av [V] 'to live'

džij-ind-o/i [NPFV.PART] 'living, alive'

džij-ind-o/i [N] 'living beings'

glic-in-av [V] 'to glitter, to shine'

glic-ind-o/i [PRESENT PARTICIPLE] 'glittering, shining'

glic-ind-o/i [N] 'sparkling, shining, brilliant'

The lexical expansion also takes into account particle verbs and prefixed verbs, the vast majority of which are formed on the German model. Three borrowed verbal prefixes are codified in the BR:

ca- < Ger. *zer-*

fa- < ger. *ver-*

ter- < germ. *er-*

Examples of prefix formation include the following:

ca-džáv 'to melt' < *džáv* 'to go'

ca-mórav 'to grind' < *mórav* 'to rub'

fa-džáv 'to pass' < *džáv* 'to go'

fa-roasínáv 'to travel' < *roasínáv* 'to travel'

ter-džíjav 'experience' < *džíjav* 'to live'

ter-likérav 'to receive' < *likérav* 'to hold'

As described in the chapter on structure, adverbs usually function as verbal particles. The phrase structure of BR – particle + verb – as opposed to the compound structure of German – prefix + verb – arises from the fact that in BR, negators, among other things, can appear between the verb particle and the verb. The following (incomplete) list of possible constructions with the verb *díkav* 'to look' gives an impression of the range of possibilities.

áče *díkav* 'to look at'

ánde *díkav* 'take a look'

ángle *díkav* 'to look ahead'

ár *díkav* 'to look out'

ári *díkav* 'to look out'

khétan *díkav* 'to look at each other'

krík *díkav* 'look around'

naši *díkav* 'look away'

orde *díkav* 'to look over here'

pál *díkav* 'to look back'

pálal *díkav* 'to look up'

pédar *díkav* 'to look over'

prík *díkav* 'to look over'

tél *díkav* 'to copy'

télal	<i>díkav</i>	'to look down'
úpre	<i>díkav</i>	'to look up'
úse	<i>díkav</i>	'to look at'

Lexical expansion in the verbal domain makes use not only of synthetic derivational morphology, but also of analytical phrase formation. In addition to particle verbs and analytical factitive, causative and inchoative formations, verbal phrases (VP) and noun phrases (NP) are always included in the lexical inventory if they correspond to single words in the primary contact language, German, or are essential to the basic vocabulary, such as:

<i>bříšind</i>	<i>dél</i>	[VP]	'it is raining'	'there is rain'
<i>díha</i>	<i>cídav</i>	[VP]	'to pant'	'take a breath'
<i>khére</i>	<i>ródav</i>	[VP]	'visit'	'to seek out (someone's) home'
<i>thárdi</i>	<i>mól</i>	[NP]	'brandy'	'burnt wine'
<i>vúsko</i>	<i>dróm</i>	[NP]	'path'	'narrow path'
<i>dandéngero</i>	<i>badári</i>	[NP]	'dentist'	'teeth doctor'
<i>flogóskeři</i>	<i>iškóla</i>	[NP]	'primary school'	'the people's school'

As the examples show, these include paraphrases such as 'drawing air' for 'panting' and 'narrow path' for 'path', loan translations from deu. Branntwein 'burnt wine' for 'brandy' and, as regards the last two examples, the use of the genitive noun phrase to replicate German compounds.

5.1.2 Composition

The genitive noun phrases mentioned above, as loan translations, already suggest that the morphology of composition, or word formation, in BR is not particularly pronounced. The majority of compounds are formed by deriving abstract nouns from particle verbs, whereby the respective particle contracts with the stem.

<i>ar-díkípe</i>	'view'	< <i>ár</i>	<i>díkáv</i>	'to look out'
<i>khetan-pisípe</i>	'summary'	< <i>khétan</i>	<i>pisínáv</i>	'to write down'
<i>naši-určípe</i>	'departure'	< <i>náši</i>	<i>úrčáv</i>	'to fly away'
<i>palal-našípe</i>	'pursuit'	< <i>pálal</i>	<i>nášáv</i>	'to chase'
<i>upre-rodípe</i>	'visit'	< <i>úpre</i>	<i>rodáv</i>	'visit'
<i>use-ledžípe</i>	'application'	< <i>use</i>	<i>lédžáv</i>	'to apply for'

As the following examples show, adjectives, adverbs, pronouns, numerals and nouns are involved in compound formation.

<i>avre-themútno/i</i>	'foreign'	'from another country'	PRON+ADJ
<i>sa-murdarípe</i>	'Holocaust'	'all+murder'	PRON+N
<i>but-feštúno/i</i>	'multicoloured'	'many colours [GEN]'	PRON+ADJ
<i>duj-čibčéngero/i</i>	'bilingual'	'two+languages [GEN]'	NUM+N.GEN
<i>lače-vodžálo/i</i>	'kind-hearted'	'kind-hearted'	ADV+ADJ
<i>nasvale-godákero/i</i>	'mentally ill'	'sick+brain [GEN]'	ADV+N.GEN
<i>odarik</i>	'there'	'that side'	PRON+N
<i>per-nángo/i</i>	'barefoot'	'bare+foot'	N+ADJ
<i>pherde-beršéngero/i</i>	'of legal age'	'of full age [GEN]'	ADV+N.GEN
<i>trin-patréngero/i</i>	'three-leaved'	'three+leaves [GEN]'	NUM+N.GEN

Compositional morphology is characterised primarily by the derivation of abstract nouns and loan translations.

Apart from the language's inherent means of word formation—derivation and compounding—the vocabulary of the BR is continually expanded through the external processes of borrowing and integration.

5.1.3_Integration

The integration of European verb stems with the Greek-derived marker *-in-* and the perfective participle suffix *-im-* remains productive:

<i>pis-ín-av</i>	'to write'	<i>pis-ím-</i>	'written'	< sla. <i>pisati</i>
<i>gondol-ín-av</i>	'to think'	<i>gondol-ím-</i>	'thought'	< hun. <i>gondol</i>
<i>bigl-ín-av</i>	'to iron'	<i>rigl-ím-</i>	'ironed'	< deu. <i>bügeln</i>
<i>releks-ín-av</i>	'to relax'	<i>releks-ím-</i>	'relaxed'	< eng. <i>relax</i>

Of the adaptation suffixes for the integration of masculine nouns, which also derive from Greek patterns, *-o* in the nominative singular – oblique singular *-os-* and *-i* in the nominative plural – is essentially limited to loanwords from Slavic and Hungarian languages, as well as to early borrowings from the Burgenland contact dialect. Today, *-o* is productive only in the integration of German loanwords ending in *-ium* or *-ismus*.

<i>bób-o</i>	'maize'	< sla. <i>bob</i>
<i>bob-ós-ke</i>	'for maize'	
<i>klúč-o</i>	'key'	< sla. <i>ključ</i>
<i>kluč-i</i>	'keys'	
<i>grow-o</i>	'oak'	< sla. <i>hrast</i>
<i>dómb-o</i>	'hill'	< hun. <i>domb</i>
<i>falát-o</i>	'piece'	< hun. <i>falat</i>
<i>tefél-o</i>	'cream'	< hun. <i>tejföl</i>
<i>hokón-o</i>	'hoe'	< deu. <i>Hacke</i>
<i>anticiganísm-o</i>	'anti-Gypsyism'	< deu. <i>Antiziganismus</i>
<i>ministerij-o</i>	'ministry'	< deu. <i>Ministerium</i>

The integration of masculine nouns ending in *-i* in the nominative singular—oblique singular *-is-* and *-ča* in the nominative plural—now applies only to the integration of German and English-derived lexemes ending in *-Vr*.⁴⁴

<i>fisikér-i</i>	'physicist'	< deu. <i>Physiker</i>
<i>fisiker-ča</i>	'physicists'	
<i>miksér-i</i>	'mixer'	< deu. <i>Mixer</i>
<i>mikser-ís-tar</i>	'from mixer'	
<i>projector-i</i>	'projector'	< eng. <i>Projektor</i>
<i>republikaer-i</i>	'republican'	< eng. <i>Republikaner</i>
<i>komputer-i</i>	'computer'	< eng. <i>computer</i>

Apart from that, masculine nouns are borrowed from German without any marking. They form the oblique singular forms with *-(j)is-* and the nominative plural with *-ča*.

<i>kamél</i>	'camel'	< deu. <i>Kamel</i>
<i>kamél-ča</i>	'Camels'	
<i>problem</i>	'problem'	< deu. <i>Problem</i>
<i>problem-ís-tar</i>	'of the problem'	
<i>dráma</i>	'drama'	< deu. <i>Drama</i>
<i>dramá-ča</i>	'Dramas'	

⁴⁴ The ending of the oblique plural is *-en*, as with pre-European nouns.

piré 'puree' < deu. *Puree*
pire-jís-ke 'for puree'

The integration of feminine nouns ending in *-a* in the nominative singular – oblique singular *-a-* and *-i* in the nominative plural – also derived from Greek, is productive:

sáň-a 'sledge' < sla. *saňe*
sáň-i 'sledges (PL)'
lénč-a 'lentil' < hun. *lencse*
lénč-a-ha 'with lentils'
páus-a 'break' < deu. *Pause*

Apart from a few Hungarian lexemes – fewer than ten are attested – unmarked feminine loanwords derive primarily from German and, increasingly, from English as well. Like unmarked masculine nouns, they form the nominative plural with the suffix *-ča* and the general oblique singular suffix *-a-*.

kéden 'Tuesday' < hun. *kedden*
kéden-ča 'Tuesdays'
róas 'journey' < deu. *Reise* [dial]
róas-a-ke 'for journey'
garáš 'garage' < deu. *Garage*
kancláj 'office' < deu. *Kanzlei*
džém 'Jam' < eng. *jam*

The unmarked integration of nouns in the nominative singular primarily concerns loanwords from German. Regardless of gender, these form the plural with the productive suffix *-ča*. Whilst the oblique singular feminine ends in *-a-* and the oblique plural in *-en-*, corresponding to the general forms, the productive masculine oblique singular suffix is *-is-*.

Adjectives borrowed directly from German are unmarked and indeclinable:

íadeni 'to become' < deu. *irden*
perfect 'perfect' < deu. *perfekt*
socijáli 'social' < deu. *sozial*

The means of integrative morphology outlined above make it possible to adopt a word from another language for every additional term required and to integrate it structurally, thereby making it an element of the BR's vocabulary.

5.1.4_Productivity

Based on the description of word—ionderivation and composition—as well as word borrowing and integration, the following overview of productive morphological means available for expanding the vocabulary emerges.

To illustrate productivity, the following word-formation examples are taken from the current contact language, German.

Table 42: Derivation

DERIVATION	ADJECTIVES	< N	<i>-an-</i>	CATEGORY	<i>histor-an-o</i>	'historical'	< <i>histórij-a</i>
		< N	<i>-ikan-</i>	AFFINITY	<i>kval-íkan-o</i>	'jelly-like'	< <i>kvál-a</i>
		< N	<i>-itic-</i>	TOPONYM	<i>Greek-ítik-o</i>	'Greek'	< <i>Greece</i>
		< N	<i>-un-</i>	SUBSTANCE	<i>blech-ún-o</i>	'tinny'	< <i>bléch-o</i>
	ADVERBS	< ADJ	<i>-e</i>	MODAL	<i>nacional-e</i>	'national [ADV]'	< <i>nacijón-a</i>

	NOUNS	< ADJ	-on	MODAL	<i>fríšn-on</i>	'fresh [ADV]'	< <i>fríšn-o</i>
		< ADJ		ABSTRACT	<i>glot-ípe</i>	'smoothness'	< <i>glóti</i>
		< N		ABSTRACT	<i>pension-ípe</i>	'retirement'	< <i>pensijón-a</i>
		< V		ABSTRACT	<i>vaccine-ípe</i>	'vaccination'	< <i>impf-ín-av</i>
		< ADJ		AGENTIVE	<i>sajcht-óš-i/-kija</i>	'Superficial'	< <i>sájchti</i>
		< N		AGENTIVE	<i>orgl-áš-i/-kija</i>	'organist'	< <i>órgl-ina</i>
		< V		AGENTIVE	<i>plauder-ér-i/kija</i>	'chatterbox'	< <i>plauder-ín-av</i>
	PARTICIPLES	< V	-im-	PTCP.PFV	<i>gips-ím-o</i>	'plastered'	< <i>gips-ín-av</i>
		< V	-Vnd	PTCP.NPFV	<i>ordn-índ-o</i>	'ordering'	< <i>ordn-ín-av</i>

As the following examples suggest, with the exception of *segútno* < *ségo* 'corner' < hun. *szeg*, these are Indo-Aryan loanwords; the formation of compounds primarily concerns loan translations from German using pre-European as well as Slavic, Hungarian and, as far as nouns are concerned, German lexemes; *arlejsípe* 'selection' in the table below. Neologisms following productive formation patterns with German or English lexemes are, however, always possible. Compound formation is therefore potentially productive.

Table 43: Compostion

COMPOSITION	ADJECTIVES	ADV+ADJ	<i>maškar-themútno</i>	'international'	'inter+national'
		ADV+N.GEN	<i>jagale-ratészero</i>	'hot-blooded'	'hot+blooded'
		N+ADJ	<i>šer-nángo</i>	'bareheaded'	'head+naked'
		NUM+ADJ	<i>trin-segútno</i>	'triangular'	'three+edgy'
		NUM+N.GEN	<i>deš-beršéngero</i>	'ten-year-old'	'ten+years.GEN'
	NOUNS	PRON+N	<i>abérš</i> < <i>ada+bérš</i>	'this year'	'this+year'
		PTCL+N	<i>use-ajípe</i>	'arrival'	'to-coming'
		PTCL+N	<i>ar-lejsípe</i>	'selection'	'out+chosing'

As regards integration morphology, it should be noted that the marking of masculine nouns with -o in the nominative singular is attested only for loanwords from German ending in -ium or -ismus.

Table 44: Integration

INTEGRATION	ADJECTIVES		UNMARKED	<i>normáli</i>	'normal'
	NOUNS	FEM	NOM.SG -a / OBL.SG -a- / PL -i	<i>prognós-a</i>	'forecast'
		FEM	UNMARKED / OBL.SG -a- / PL -ča	<i>virčóft</i>	'economy'
		MASK	NOM.SG -o / OBL.SG -is- / PL -ča	<i>simpósij-o</i>	'symposium'
		MASK	UNMARKED / OBL.SG -is- / PL -ča	<i>princíp</i>	'principle'
	VERBS		MARKER -in- / PAST -č- / 3RD.PL -de	<i>parkn-ín-av</i>	'to park'
		PART	PFV -im-	<i>parkn-im-o/i</i>	'parked'
		PART	NPFV -ind-	<i>park-ind-o/-i</i>	'parking'

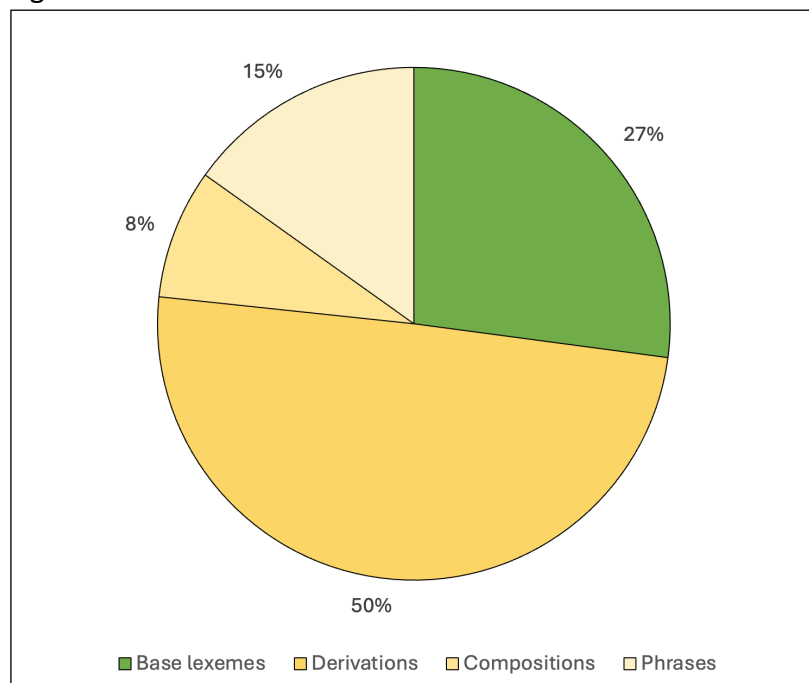
The productive means of word formation and borrowing outlined here ensure any further necessary expansion of the BR lexicon.

5.2_Lexicometry

Based on the online dictionary, the vocabulary of the BR is described below in lexical-metric terms, i.e. in numerical terms.

The approximately 12,500 entries or headwords in the online dictionary comprise around 3,400 base lexemes and 9,100 word-formation products. The following figure shows the percentage ratio of these two groups and distinguishes between derivation, composition and phrases in word formation.

Figure 1: Base lexemes and word formation



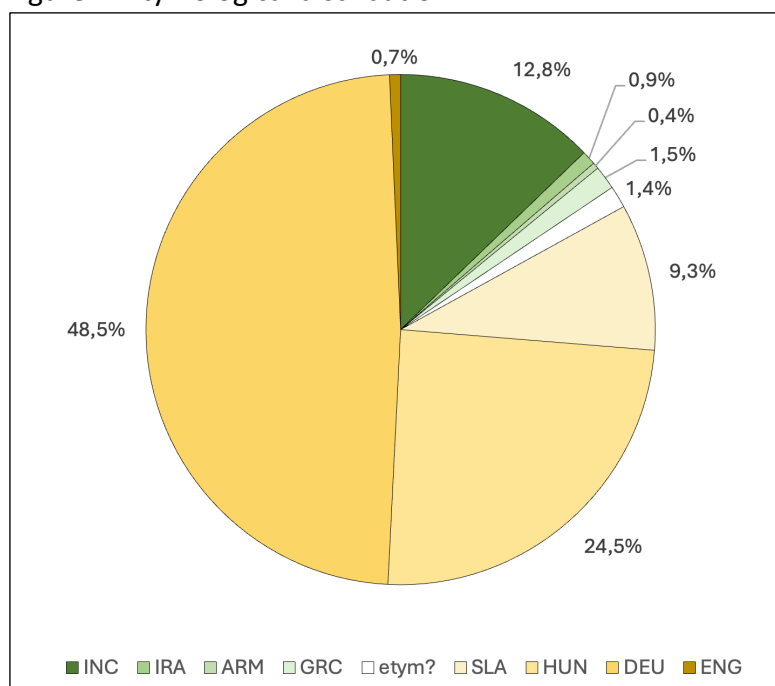
Derivations account for the vast majority, at 50% or around 6,800. Of the just over 8% or 1,000 compounds, around 600 are nominalised particle verbs, such as *uprerodípe* 'visit' < *upre rodav* 'to visit'. The fact that their number is even smaller compared to derivations also illustrates the lower productivity of compounding compared to derivation in the word formation of the BR and in Romanes in general. In addition, there are 15%, i.e. around 1,900 phrases, including more than 1,100 noun phrases and around 650 particle verbs. As word-formation products have so far been recorded only as examples and by no means exhaustively, their number in relation to the base lexemes may continue to increase as lexical expansion continues.⁴⁵

As regards the distribution of word classes, BR follows the general trend of Indo-European languages. These have a high proportion of nouns; verbs, by contrast, are far less frequent, and the number of particles is generally low as well. Of the approximately 3,400 attested base lexemes, around 2,700 are nouns, i.e. nouns, adjectives and numerals, just under 550 verbs and around 150 particles. The relatively low number of verbs and particles compared to other Indo-European languages is most likely explained, among other things, by their generally broad range of meanings in context-disambiguating spoken usage.

The basic lexemes are distinguished according to their origin or etymology into the European and pre-European strata mentioned several times above, with 47 lexemes being etymologically unclassifiable; "etym?" in the following figure.

⁴⁵ In the Digital Dictionary of the German Language (www.dwds.de), more than 90% of the entries (*types*) are word-formation products, compared to only around 10% basic lexemes, although the latter account for almost 70% of the words (*tokens*) in the associated texts.

Figure 2: Etymological distribution



Of the 522 documented pre-European basic lexemes, 52 are from Byzantine Greek (GRC), 15 from Armenian (ARM), 29 from Iranian (IRA) and 425 from Indo-Aryan (INC), which in turn supports the view that Romani belongs to the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European languages.

The majority—just under 85%—of the documented basic lexemes are of European origin. In addition to loanwords from South Slavic languages and Hungarian, almost half come from the primary contact language, German, and increasingly from English as well.

However, the high proportion of loanwords by no means makes BR a 'inferior language'. In Japanese, whose culture is often regarded as unique, half of the basic lexemes originate from Chinese, with a further ten per cent—and rising, as per —coming from English. For example, the terms for 'culture' *bunka* and 'science' *kagaku* correspond to the Chinese *wénhuà* 文化 and *kēxué* 科学 respectively, with the characters themselves also adopted into Japanese as *kanji*. The term *poketto monsutā*—*poketto* < eng. *pocket* and *monsutā* < eng. *monster*—created on the English model, has today been adopted into German not only in its Japanese short form as *Pokemon*, but has also been integrated into the BR: *pokemoníske* 'for the Pokemon'. In German, too, around 30% of the vocabulary consists of loanwords. Three-quarters of the loanwords originate from the 'classical languages of learning', Greek and Latin, with another large group coming from French and a steadily increasing number of borrowings from English.

The notion of "pure languages" is an illusion, and dominated minority languages such as BR are fundamentally equal to any dominant language, not only lexically but also structurally and in terms of their functional potential.

5.3_Pre-European vocabulary of BR

5.3.1_Indo-Aryan loanwords

1	<i>adá</i>	< inc. <i>a-</i>	'this'	214	<i>mól</i>	< inc. <i>madhu</i>	'wine'
2	<i>ágor</i>	< inc. <i>agra</i>	'end'	215	<i>mórav</i>	< inc. <i>mṛndati</i>	'to rub'
3	<i>agún</i>	< inc. <i>agra</i>	'earlier'	216	<i>mró/i</i>	< inc. <i>mahāra</i>	'mine'
4	<i>ájav</i>	< inc. <i>āpayati</i>	'to come'	217	<i>múj</i>	< inc. <i>mukha</i>	'mouth'
5	<i>akán</i>	< inc. <i>kṣaṇa</i>	'now'	218	<i>múkav</i>	< inc. <i>mukkaī</i>	'let'
6	<i>akárav</i>	< inc. <i>kathayati</i>	'to call'	219	<i>múlo/i</i>	< inc. <i>mṛta</i>	'dead'
7	<i>ákor</i>	< inc. <i>akṣoṭa</i>	'nut'	220	<i>murdárav</i>	< inc. <i>mṛtakaroti</i>	'to kill'
8	<i>álav</i>	< inc. <i>lāpa</i>	'word'	221	<i>múrš</i>	< inc. <i>mānuṣya</i>	'man'
9	<i>amén</i>	< inc. <i>asmād</i>	'we'	222	<i>músi</i>	< inc. <i>mūṣa</i>	'arm'
10	<i>ánav</i>	< inc. <i>ānayati</i>	'to bring'	223	<i>múter</i>	< inc. <i>mūtra</i>	'urine'
11	<i>ánav</i>	< inc. <i>nāman</i>	'Name'	224	<i>ná</i>	< inc. <i>na</i>	'not'
12	<i>ánde</i>	< inc. <i>antarāt</i>	'inside'	225	<i>náj</i>	< inc. <i>nakha</i>	'nail, claw'
13	<i>ándre</i>	< inc. <i>antara</i>	'inside'	226	<i>nák</i>	< inc. <i>nakka</i>	'nose'
14	<i>angar</i>	< inc. <i>aṅgāra</i>	'coal'	227	<i>nángo/i</i>	< inc. <i>nagna</i>	'naked'
15	<i>ángle</i>	< inc. <i>agra</i>	'front'	228	<i>nášav</i>	< inc. <i>naśyati</i>	'to run'
16	<i>arákav</i>	< inc. <i>araksati</i>	'to protect'	229	<i>náštig</i>	< inc. <i>na+aṣṭi</i>	'not allowed'
17	<i>ári</i>	< inc. <i>bahis</i>	'outside'	230	<i>nasvalo/i</i>	< inc. <i>naśvara</i>	'sick'
18	<i>ásan</i>	< inc. <i>śānā</i>	'whetstone'	231	<i>névo/i</i>	< inc. <i>nava</i>	'new'
19	<i>ásav</i>	< inc. <i>hasyate</i>	'to laugh'	232	<i>odá</i>	< inc. <i>o-</i>	'that'
20	<i>asávo/i</i>	< inc. <i>kasya</i>	'such'	233	<i>ójav</i>	< inc. <i>bhavati</i>	'to become'
21	<i>ašárav</i>	< inc. <i>uccāراتi</i>	'to praise'	234	<i>páj</i>	< inc. <i>pāṇiya</i>	'water'
22	<i>astárav</i>	< inc. <i>sthāpayati</i>	'catch'	235	<i>pále</i>	< inc. <i>pare</i>	'behind'
23	<i>ásvin</i>	< inc. <i>aśru</i>	'tear'	236	<i>pánč</i>	< inc. <i>pañca</i>	'five'
24	<i>áčav</i>	< inc. <i>ākṣeti</i>	'to remain'	237	<i>parikérav</i>	< inc. <i>pratīkaroti</i>	'to thank'
25	<i>áci</i>	< inc. <i>kādṛksa</i>	'often'	238	<i>párno/i</i>	< inc. <i>pāṇḍu</i>	'white'
26	<i>áver</i>	< inc. <i>apara</i>	'different'	239	<i>parújav</i>	< inc. <i>pārayati</i>	'to exchange'
27	<i>báj</i>	< inc. <i>bāhu</i>	'sleeve'	240	<i>parvárav</i>	< inc. <i>pratipālayati</i>	'to nourish'
28	<i>bákro/i</i>	< inc. <i>barkara</i>	'sheep'	241	<i>pašávro</i>	< inc. <i>parśu</i>	'rib'
29	<i>bál</i>	< inc. <i>vāla</i>	'hair'	242	<i>páše</i>	< inc. <i>pārśva</i>	'at'
30	<i>bálo/i</i>	< inc. <i>varāha</i>	'pig'	243	<i>pátiv</i>	< inc. <i>pratyaya</i>	'honour'
31	<i>bálval</i>	< inc. <i>vāta</i>	'wind'	244	<i>pátrin</i>	< inc. <i>pattrā</i>	'leaf'
32	<i>bángo/i</i>	< inc. <i>vaṅka</i>	'crooked'	245	<i>pačáv</i>	< inc. <i>pratyāyayati</i>	'to believe'
33	<i>bár</i>	< inc. <i>varta</i>	'stone'	246	<i>pé</i>	< inc. <i>appa</i>	'oneself [sg]'
34	<i>bár</i>	< inc. <i>vāṭa</i>	'garden'	247	<i>pékav</i>	< inc. <i>pakva</i>	'to bake'
35	<i>báro/i</i>	< inc. <i>vaḍra</i>	'big'	248	<i>pélo</i>	< inc. <i>pela</i>	'testicle'
36	<i>barválo/i</i>	< inc. <i>balavat</i>	'rich'	249	<i>per</i>	< inc. <i>peṭṭa</i>	'belly'
37	<i>bášav</i>	< inc. <i>vāśyate</i>	'to bark'	250	<i>pérav</i>	< inc. <i>patati</i>	'to fall'
38	<i>béng/ni</i>	< inc. <i>vyaṅga</i>	'devil'	251	<i>phába</i>	< inc. <i>bhabbā</i>	'apple'
39	<i>bérš</i>	< inc. <i>varṣa</i>	'year'	252	<i>phagérav</i>	< inc. <i>bhājyate</i>	'to break'
40	<i>béšav</i>	< inc. <i>upaviśati</i>	'to sit'	253	<i>phák</i>	< inc. <i>pakṣa</i>	'wing'
41	<i>bí</i>	< inc. <i>vi</i>	'without'	254	<i>phándav</i>	< inc. <i>bandhati</i>	'to tie'
42	<i>bijánav</i>	< inc. <i>vijānati</i>	'to lay eggs'	255	<i>phar</i>	< inc. <i>paṭṭa</i>	'silk'
43	<i>bíjav</i>	< inc. <i>vilīyate</i>	'to melt'	256	<i>pharájav</i>	< inc. <i>sphāṭayati</i>	'to split'
44	<i>bíjav</i>	< inc. <i>vivāha</i>	'wedding'	257	<i>pháro/i</i>	< inc. <i>bhāra</i>	'heavy'
45	<i>bíkinav</i>	< inc. <i>vikriṇāti</i>	'to sell'	258	<i>phén</i>	< inc. <i>bhaginī</i>	'sister'
46	<i>birívli</i>	< inc. <i>varaṭa</i>	'bee'	259	<i>phénav</i>	< inc. <i>bhanati</i>	'to say'
47	<i>bíš</i>	< inc. <i>vimśati</i>	'twenty'	260	<i>phérav</i>	< inc. <i>bharati</i>	'to fill'
48	<i>bičájav</i>	< inc. <i>vikṣepayate</i>	'to send'	261	<i>phérdža</i>	< inc. <i>parihāsa</i>	'fun'
49	<i>bók</i>	< inc. <i>bubhuksā</i>	'hunger'	262	<i>phérno</i>	< inc. <i>phēṇṭa</i>	'nappy'
50	<i>bólav</i>	< inc. <i>boḍayati</i>	'to baptise'	263	<i>phíko</i>	< inc. <i>spiya</i>	'shoulder'
51	<i>bóri</i>	< inc. <i>vadhūṭi</i>	'daughter-in-law'	264	<i>phiráno/i</i>	< inc. <i>priyate</i>	'beloved'
52	<i>brišind</i>	< inc. <i>varśati</i>	'rain'	265	<i>phírav</i>	< inc. <i>phirmā</i>	'to go for a walk'
53	<i>búko</i>	< inc. <i>vṛkka</i>	'liver'	266	<i>phívlo/i</i>	< inc. <i>vidhavā</i>	'widow/widower'
54	<i>búl</i>	< inc. <i>buli</i>	'buttocks'	267	<i>phóv</i>	< inc. <i>bhruva</i>	'eyebrow'
55	<i>búlho/i</i>	< inc. <i>bahula</i>	'wide'	268	<i>phrál</i>	< inc. <i>bhrātṛ</i>	'brother'
56	<i>búr</i>	< inc. <i>būṭā</i>	'bush'	269	<i>phúdav</i>	< inc. <i>sphuṭati</i>	'to blow'
57	<i>bút</i>	< inc. <i>bahutva</i>	'a lot'	270	<i>phukájav</i>	< inc. <i>bukkati</i>	'to tell'
58	<i>búti</i>	< inc. <i>vṛtti</i>	'work'	271	<i>phúkni</i>	< inc. <i>phūṭka</i>	'bladder'
59	<i>cídav</i>	< inc. <i>tarati</i>	'to pull'	272	<i>phúmb</i>	< inc. <i>pūya</i>	'pus'
60	<i>dád</i>	< inc. <i>dāddā</i>	'father'	273	<i>phúro/i</i>	< inc. <i>vṛddha</i>	'old [being]'
61	<i>dáj</i>	< inc. <i>dādi</i>	'mother'	274	<i>phús</i>	< inc. <i>busa</i>	'straw'
62	<i>dánd</i>	< inc. <i>danta</i>	'tooth'	275	<i>phúčav</i>	< inc. <i>pṛcchati</i>	'to ask'
63	<i>dár</i>	< inc. <i>dara</i>	'fear'	276	<i>phučójav</i>	< inc. <i>phučav</i>	'to swell'
64	<i>dáv</i>	< inc. <i>dadāti</i>	'to give'	277	<i>phúv</i>	< inc. <i>bhūmi</i>	'earth'
65	<i>Dél</i>	< inc. <i>devatā</i>	'god'	278	<i>píjav</i>	< inc. <i>pibati</i>	'to drink'
66	<i>déš</i>	< inc. <i>daśa</i>	'ten'	279	<i>piri</i>	< inc. <i>piṭhara</i>	'pot'

67	<i>dí</i>	< inc.	<i>divasa</i>	'hello'	280	<i>píšav</i>	< inc.	<i>duhyate</i>	'to milk'
68	<i>díkav</i>	< inc.	<i>ḍṛkṣati</i>	'to see'	281	<i>píšom</i>	< inc.	<i>pluṣi</i>	'flea'
69	<i>dilíno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>dīna</i>	'silly'	282	<i>pičájav</i>	< inc.	<i>pruṣita</i>	'to run'
70	<i>doríka</i>	< inc.	<i>davara</i>	'band'	283	<i>pobistérav</i>	< inc.	<i>pravismarati</i>	'to forget'
71	<i>dráb</i>	< inc.	<i>dravya</i>	'medicinal herb'	284	<i>pór</i>	< inc.	<i>parṇa</i>	'feather'
72	<i>dráka</i>	< inc.	<i>drākṣā</i>	'grape'	285	<i>pór</i>	< inc.	<i>peṭṭa</i>	'intestine'
73	<i>džamútro</i>	< inc.	<i>jāmāṭṛ</i>	'son-in-law'	286	<i>póri</i>	< inc.	<i>pūta</i>	'tail'
74	<i>džánav</i>	< inc.	<i>jānāti</i>	'to know'	287	<i>posájav</i>	< inc.	<i>sprṣati</i>	'to prick'
75	<i>džangárav</i>	< inc.	<i>jāgarti</i>	'to wake up'	288	<i>póši</i>	< inc.	<i>pāmśu</i>	'sand'
76	<i>džáv</i>	< inc.	<i>yāti</i>	'to go'	289	<i>pošiča</i>	< inc.	<i>pasiti</i>	'pocket [clothing]'
77	<i>džéno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>jana</i>	'person'	290	<i>počinav</i>	< inc.	<i>prakṛiṇāti</i>	'to count'
78	<i>dží</i>	< inc.	<i>hyaḥ</i>	'until'	291	<i>prájav</i>	< inc.	<i>spāṭayati</i>	'to open'
79	<i>džijav</i>	< inc.	<i>jivati</i>	'to live'	292	<i>prasáv</i>	< inc.	<i>prahasati</i>	'mock'
80	<i>džili</i>	< inc.	<i>gīti</i>	'song'	293	<i>prástav</i>	< inc.	<i>pratiṣṭhati</i>	'to ride'
81	<i>dživ</i>	< inc.	<i>hima</i>	'snow'	294	<i>prindžárav</i>	< inc.	<i>pratyabhijñāna</i>	'to know'
82	<i>džóv</i>	< inc.	<i>yava</i>	'oats'	295	<i>pró</i>	< inc.	<i>piṇḍa</i>	'foot'
83	<i>džúkel</i>	< inc.	<i>jakuṭa</i>	'dog'	296	<i>puráno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>purāṇa</i>	'old [things]'
84	<i>džúv</i>	< inc.	<i>jūkā</i>	'louse'	297	<i>pútrav</i>	< inc.	<i>sphuṭati</i>	'to separate'
85	<i>džúvli</i>	< inc.	<i>yuvati</i>	'woman'	298	<i>raj</i>	< inc.	<i>rājan</i>	'Lord'
86	<i>dúj</i>	< inc.	<i>duvā</i>	'two'	299	<i>ráklo</i>	< inc.	<i>laḍḍa</i>	'boy/girl'
87	<i>dúk</i>	< inc.	<i>duḥkha</i>	'pain'	300	<i>rándav</i>	< inc.	<i>randati</i>	'scratch'
88	<i>dúmo</i>	< inc.	<i>dumbha</i>	'back'	301	<i>ráni</i>	< inc.	<i>rājñī</i>	'mistress'
89	<i>dúr</i>	< inc.	<i>dūra</i>	'far'	302	<i>ránik</i>	< inc.	<i>daṇḍa</i>	'branch'
90	<i>épaš</i>	< inc.	<i>pārśva</i>	'half'	303	<i>rášaj</i>	< inc.	<i>ṛṣi</i>	'priest'
91	<i>féder</i>	< inc.	<i>bhadrá</i>	'better'	304	<i>rát</i>	< inc.	<i>rakta</i>	'blood'
92	<i>gád</i>	< inc.	<i>gātra</i>	'shirt'	305	<i>rát</i>	< inc.	<i>rātrī</i>	'night'
93	<i>gádžo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>gārhya</i>	'non-Rom/ni'	306	<i>rik</i>	< inc.	<i>ḍhigga</i>	'page'
94	<i>garújav</i>	< inc.	<i>gaḍḍ</i>	'to hide'	307	<i>ródav</i>	< inc.	<i>ḍhuṇḍhati</i>	'to seek'
95	<i>gáv</i>	< inc.	<i>grāma</i>	'village'	308	<i>rój</i>	< inc.	<i>ḍova</i>	'spoon'
96	<i>génav</i>	< inc.	<i>gaṇayati</i>	'to count, to read'	309	<i>rójav</i>	< inc.	<i>rodati</i>	'to cry'
97	<i>gér</i>	< inc.	<i>gara</i>	'scabies'	310	<i>Róm</i>	< inc.	<i>ḍamba</i>	'Rome'
98	<i>gív</i>	< inc.	<i>godhūma</i>	'wheat'	311	<i>róvli</i>	< inc.	<i>lakuṭa</i>	'stick'
99	<i>gódi</i>	< inc.	<i>gorda</i>	'brain'	312	<i>rúp</i>	< inc.	<i>rūpya</i>	'silver'
100	<i>góđžar</i>	< inc.	<i>gordhabhara</i>	'clever'	313	<i>ruš</i>	< inc.	<i>ruṣṭa</i>	'anger'
101	<i>gója</i>	< inc.	<i>guda</i>	'sausage'	314	<i>rúv</i>	< inc.	<i>ruka</i>	'wolf'
102	<i>góno</i>	< inc.	<i>goṇi</i>	'sack'	315	<i>sá</i>	< inc.	<i>sarva</i>	'all'
103	<i>gúlo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>guḍa</i>	'sweet'	316	<i>sál</i>	< inc.	<i>asī</i>	'you are'
104	<i>gúruv</i>	< inc.	<i>gorūpa</i>	'cow'	317	<i>alone</i>	< inc.	<i>stha</i>	'we are'
105	<i>hájnav</i>	< inc.	<i>ākhyāta</i>	'to understand'	318	<i>sán</i>	< inc.	<i>santi</i>	'you are'
106	<i>hánav</i>	< inc.	<i>khanati</i>	'to dig'	319	<i>sáno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>ślakṣṇa</i>	'thin'
107	<i>hánig</i>	< inc.	<i>khāni</i>	'well'	320	<i>sáp</i>	< inc.	<i>sarpa</i>	'snake'
108	<i>hárko</i>	< inc.	<i>khāta</i>	'ditch'	321	<i>sár</i>	< inc.	<i>jaṭā</i>	'body hair'
109	<i>hárho/i</i>	< inc.	<i>khaṇḍa</i>	'short'	322	<i>sár</i>	< inc.	<i>sāratram</i>	'like'
110	<i>háro</i>	< inc.	<i>khaṇḍaka</i>	'sword'	323	<i>sásto/i</i>	< inc.	<i>svastha</i>	'healthy'
111	<i>harújav</i>	< inc.	<i>kharju</i>	'scratch'	324	<i>sástro/i</i>	< inc.	<i>śvāśura</i>	'father/mother- in-law'
112	<i>hás</i>	< inc.	<i>kāsā</i>	'cough'	325	<i>šá</i>	< inc.	<i>śāka</i>	'herb'
113	<i>háv</i>	< inc.	<i>khādati</i>	'to eat'	326	<i>šáj</i>	< inc.	<i>śaknoti</i>	'may'
114	<i>hé</i>	< inc.	<i>hā</i>	'yes'	327	<i>šél</i>	< inc.	<i>śata</i>	'hundred'
115	<i>héf</i>	< inc.	<i>kheya</i>	'hole'	328	<i>šélo</i>	< inc.	<i>śulba</i>	'rope'
116	<i>héra</i>	< inc.	<i>haḍḍa</i>	'leg [foot]'	329	<i>šérand</i>	< inc.	<i>śiraanta</i>	'head end [of the bed]'
117	<i>hí</i>	< inc.	<i>asti</i>	'he/she is, they are'	330	<i>šéro</i>	< inc.	<i>śiras</i>	'head'
118	<i>híjav</i>	< inc.	<i>kiṭṭa</i>	'to defecate'	331	<i>šíl</i>	< inc.	<i>śīta</i>	'cold'
119	<i>hohájav</i>	< inc.	<i>khakkhati</i>	'to lie'	332	<i>šing</i>	< inc.	<i>śṛṅga</i>	'horn'
120	<i>hór</i>	< inc.	<i>khola</i>	'deep'	333	<i>šója</i>	< inc.	<i>svara</i>	'whistle'
121	<i>húhur</i>	< inc.	<i>kukurmuttā</i>	'mushroom'	334	<i>šóšov</i>	< inc.	<i>śaśa</i>	'hare'
122	<i>húrho/i</i>	< inc.	<i>khuṭṭa</i>	'tiny'	335	<i>šov</i>	< inc.	<i>śaṣ</i>	'six'
123	<i>hútav</i>	< inc.	<i>kṣubda</i>	'to jump'	336	<i>štár</i>	< inc.	<i>catvāra</i>	'four'
124	<i>idž</i>	< inc.	<i>hiyas</i>	'yesterday'	337	<i>šúdro/i</i>	< inc.	<i>śītala</i>	'cool'
125	<i>ispídav</i>	< inc.	<i>saṃpīḍayati</i>	'to push'	338	<i>šúkar</i>	< inc.	<i>śukravāra</i>	'beautiful'
126	<i>ivend</i>	< inc.	<i>hemanta</i>	'winter'	339	<i>šúko/i</i>	< inc.	<i>śuṣka</i>	'dry'
127	<i>jág</i>	< inc.	<i>agni</i>	'fire'	340	<i>šúnav</i>	< inc.	<i>śṛṇoti</i>	'to hear'
128	<i>ják</i>	< inc.	<i>akṣi</i>	'eye'	341	<i>šúšo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>śucyati</i>	'clean'
129	<i>jálo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>ālla</i>	'raw'	342	<i>šút</i>	< inc.	<i>śukta</i>	'vinegar'
130	<i>járo</i>	< inc.	<i>ārta</i>	'flour'	343	<i>šuvlo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>śūyate</i>	'swollen'
131	<i>jék</i>	< inc.	<i>ekka</i>	'one'	344	<i>síjav</i>	< inc.	<i>sīvyati</i>	'to sew'
132	<i>káj</i>	< inc.	<i>kva</i>	'where'	345	<i>sik</i>	< inc.	<i>śighra</i>	'quick'
133	<i>kálo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>kāla</i>	'black'	346	<i>sikájav</i>	< inc.	<i>śikṣate</i>	'to show'
134	<i>kámav</i>	< inc.	<i>kāma</i>	'to love'	347	<i>só</i>	< inc.	<i>kasya</i>	'what'
135	<i>kán</i>	< inc.	<i>karṇa</i>	'ear'	348	<i>sohárav</i>	< inc.	<i>śapatha</i>	'to marry'
136	<i>kángli</i>	< inc.	<i>kaṅkata</i>	'comb'	349	<i>sójav</i>	< inc.	<i>svapati</i>	'sleep'
137	<i>kár</i>	< inc.	<i>kāṭa</i>	'penis'	350	<i>sóm</i>	< inc.	<i>asmi</i>	'I am'

138	<i>káro</i>	< inc.	<i>kaṇṭha</i>	'thorn'	351	<i>somnák</i>	< inc.	<i>suvarṇa</i>	'gold'
139	<i>kášt</i>	< inc.	<i>kāṣṭha</i>	'tree'	352	<i>sósten</i>	< inc.	<i>sūthan</i>	'underpants'
140	<i>kát</i>	< inc.	<i>kartari</i>	'scissors'	353	<i>srásta</i>	< inc.	<i>śastra</i>	'Iron'
141	<i>kédav</i>	< inc.	<i>grhnāti</i>	'to gather'	354	<i>súng</i>	< inc.	<i>śiṅghati</i>	'smell'
142	<i>kérav</i>	< inc.	<i>karoti</i>	'to do'	355	<i>súno</i>	< inc.	<i>supna</i>	'dream'
143	<i>kerko/i</i>	< inc.	<i>kaṭuka</i>	'bitter'	356	<i>súv</i>	< inc.	<i>sūcī</i>	'needle'
144	<i>kermúso</i>	< inc.	<i>gharamūṣa</i>	'mouse'	357	<i>táj</i>	< inc.	<i>and</i>	'and'
145	<i>kerčárav</i>	< inc.	<i>kvathati</i>	'to cook'	358	<i>taslárav</i>	< inc.	<i>ṭhāsnā</i>	'to choke'
146	<i>khájnhi</i>	< inc.	<i>kukkuṭīnī</i>	'chicken'	359	<i>táto/i</i>	< inc.	<i>tapta</i>	'warm'
147	<i>khák</i>	< inc.	<i>kakṣa</i>	'armpit'	360	<i>té</i>	< inc.	<i>tadā</i>	'that'
148	<i>khám</i>	< inc.	<i>gharma</i>	'sun'	361	<i>téle</i>	< inc.	<i>tala</i>	'below'
149	<i>khámno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>garbhiṇī</i>	'pregnant'	362	<i>térdo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>dhṛta</i>	'standing'
150	<i>khánd</i>	< inc.	<i>gandha</i>	'stink'	363	<i>térno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>taruṇa</i>	'young'
151	<i>khás</i>	< inc.	<i>ghāsa</i>	'hay'	364	<i>thabójav</i>	< inc.	<i>dhātayati</i>	'to shine'
152	<i>khélav</i>	< inc.	<i>kriḍati</i>	'to play'	365	<i>thájav</i>	< inc.	<i>tāpayati</i>	'to cook'
153	<i>khér</i>	< inc.	<i>ghara</i>	'house'	366	<i>thán</i>	< inc.	<i>sthāna</i>	'place'
154	<i>khétan</i>	< inc.	<i>ekkasthāna</i>	'together'	367	<i>thárav</i>	< inc.	<i>dagdha</i>	'to burn'
155	<i>khíno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>kṣiṇa</i>	'tired'	368	<i>tháv</i>	< inc.	<i>darbha</i>	'thread'
156	<i>khóro</i>	< inc.	<i>ghaṭa</i>	'jug'	369	<i>thojav</i>	< inc.	<i>dhāvati</i>	'to wash'
157	<i>khósav</i>	< inc.	<i>ghaṁsati</i>	'to wipe'	370	<i>thúd</i>	< inc.	<i>dugdha</i>	'milk'
158	<i>khósno</i>	< inc.	<i>skoṣati</i>	'cloth'	371	<i>thúlo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>sthūla</i>	'thick'
159	<i>khújav</i>	< inc.	<i>guphati</i>	'to plait'	372	<i>thúv</i>	< inc.	<i>dhūma</i>	'smoke'
160	<i>khúl</i>	< inc.	<i>gūtha</i>	'excrement'	373	<i>tíkno/i</i>	< inc.	<i>tikṣṇa</i>	'small'
161	<i>khúro</i>	< inc.	<i>ghoṭa</i>	'stallion'	374	<i>trádav</i>	< inc.	<i>tardati</i>	'to drive'
162	<i>khúšav</i>	< inc.	<i>khosnā</i>	'to peel'	375	<i>trín</i>	< inc.	<i>trīṇi</i>	'three'
163	<i>kíjelo</i>	< inc.	<i>kīla</i>	'stick'	376	<i>trúš</i>	< inc.	<i>trṣā</i>	'thirst'
164	<i>kínav</i>	< inc.	<i>kriṇāti</i>	'to buy'	377	<i>tea</i>	< inc.	<i>chāpa</i>	'daughter'
165	<i>kíral</i>	< inc.	<i>kilāṭa</i>	'cream cheese'	378	<i>čolájav</i>	< inc.	<i>cārayati</i>	'to beat'
166	<i>kírat</i>	< inc.	<i>kerātrī</i>	'evening'	379	<i>čálo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>chādayati</i>	'satt'
167	<i>kírivo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>grhya</i>	'godfather/mother'	380	<i>čám</i>	< inc.	<i>jambha</i>	'cheek'
168	<i>kírmo</i>	< inc.	<i>kṛmi</i>	'worm'	381	<i>čándav</i>	< inc.	<i>chardayati</i>	'to vomit'
169	<i>kíšlo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>kṛśa</i>	'skinny'	382	<i>čáng</i>	< inc.	<i>jaṅghā</i>	'knee'
170	<i>kíči</i>	< inc.	<i>kīyat</i>	'how much'	383	<i>čár</i>	< inc.	<i>cāri</i>	'grass'
171	<i>kó</i>	< inc.	<i>kaḥ</i>	'who'	384	<i>čárav</i>	< inc.	<i>caṭṭ</i>	'to lick'
172	<i>kólin</i>	< inc.	<i>kola</i>	'breast'	385	<i>čáro</i>	< inc.	<i>caru</i>	'bowl'
173	<i>korkóro/i</i>	< inc.	<i>ekala</i>	'lonely'	386	<i>čáčo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>satya</i>	'right'
174	<i>kóvlo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>komala</i>	'soft'	387	<i>čávo</i>	< inc.	<i>chāpa</i>	'son'
175	<i>kúni</i>	< inc.	<i>kaphoṇi</i>	'elbow'	388	<i>čīb</i>	< inc.	<i>jihvā</i>	'tongue'
176	<i>kúrav</i>	< inc.	<i>kuṭṭayati</i>	'to have intercourse'	389	<i>čídav</i>	< inc.	<i>chupati</i>	'to throw'
177	<i>kúč</i>	< inc.	<i>kucch</i>	'dear'	390	<i>číjav</i>	< inc.	<i>kṣipati</i>	'to put'
178	<i>ládav</i>	< inc.	<i>lardayati</i>	'to drive'	391	<i>čík</i>	< inc.	<i>cikka</i>	'dirt'
179	<i>ládž</i>	< inc.	<i>lajjā</i>	'shame'	392	<i>číken</i>	< inc.	<i>cikkaṇa</i>	'fat'
180	<i>lájav</i>	< inc.	<i>upalābhayati</i>	'to comb'	393	<i>čínav</i>	< inc.	<i>chinatti</i>	'to cut'
181	<i>lákav</i>	< inc.	<i>rakṣati</i>	'to find'	394	<i>čirikli</i>	< inc.	<i>ciṭaka</i>	'bird'
182	<i>langáv</i>	< inc.	<i>laṅgati</i>	'to lame'	395	<i>čón</i>	< inc.	<i>jyōtsnā</i>	'moon'
183	<i>láčo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>accha</i>	'good'	396	<i>čór</i>	< inc.	<i>cūḍa</i>	'beard'
184	<i>láv</i>	< inc.	<i>labhate</i>	'to take'	397	<i>čórav</i>	< inc.	<i>corayati</i>	'to steal'
185	<i>lén</i>	< inc.	<i>nadī</i>	'river'	398	<i>čórav</i>	< inc.	<i>kṣoṭayati</i>	'to pour'
186	<i>lók</i>	< inc.	<i>likṣā</i>	'nit'	399	<i>čóro/i</i>	< inc.	<i>chora</i>	'arm'
187	<i>líl</i>	< inc.	<i>likhita</i>	'letter'	400	<i>čúlo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>cyotati</i>	'little'
188	<i>lím</i>	< inc.	<i>silimha</i>	'snot'	401	<i>čúm</i>	< inc.	<i>cumba</i>	'Kiss'
189	<i>línaj</i>	< inc.	<i>nidāgha</i>	'summer'	402	<i>čúngat</i>	< inc.	<i>thūtkāra</i>	'Saliva'
190	<i>línra</i>	< inc.	<i>nidrā</i>	'sleep'	403	<i>čúri</i>	< inc.	<i>kṣuri</i>	'knife'
191	<i>ló</i>	< inc.	<i>ta-</i>	'he'	404	<i>čúči</i>	< inc.	<i>cuccu</i>	'breast [fem.]'
192	<i>lój</i>	< inc.	<i>loha</i>	'money'	405	<i>čúčo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>tucchya</i>	'empty'
193	<i>lóko/i</i>	< inc.	<i>laghu</i>	'light'	406	<i>tú</i>	< inc.	<i>tuvam</i>	'you'
194	<i>lólo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>lohita</i>	'red'	407	<i>tumén</i>	< inc.	<i>tumhe</i>	'her'
195	<i>lón</i>	< inc.	<i>lavaṇa</i>	'salt'	408	<i>údud</i>	< inc.	<i>dyuti</i>	'light'
196	<i>lúbni</i>	< inc.	<i>lubhyat</i>	'whore'	409	<i>ulájav</i>	< inc.	<i>upalābhayati</i>	'to separate'
197	<i>má</i>	< inc.	<i>mā</i>	'not'	410	<i>umlájav</i>	< inc.	<i>avalambate</i>	'to hang'
198	<i>mákav</i>	< inc.	<i>mrakṣati</i>	'smear'	411	<i>úpre</i>	< inc.	<i>uppari</i>	'up'
199	<i>mángav</i>	< inc.	<i>mārgati</i>	'to demand'	412	<i>určájav</i>	< inc.	<i>uḍḍīyatē</i>	'to dress'
200	<i>mānuš</i>	< inc.	<i>mānuṣa</i>	'human'	413	<i>určáv</i>	< inc.	<i>uḍḍīya</i>	'to fly'
201	<i>márav</i>	< inc.	<i>mārayati</i>	'to strike'	414	<i>úšnav</i>	< inc.	<i>utkṣāṇayati</i>	'to knead'
202	<i>máro</i>	< inc.	<i>maṇḍa</i>	'bread'	415	<i>ushtájav</i>	< inc.	<i>utsthāpayati</i>	'to wake up'
203	<i>más</i>	< inc.	<i>māmsa</i>	'meat'	416	<i>ústav</i>	< inc.	<i>utsthāti</i>	'to wake up'
204	<i>máškar</i>	< inc.	<i>madhya</i>	'between'	417	<i>úščav</i>	< inc.	<i>utkalati</i>	'to rise'
205	<i>máto/i</i>	< inc.	<i>matta</i>	'drunk'	418	<i>učárav</i>	< inc.	<i>chadati</i>	'to cover'
206	<i>máčin</i>	< inc.	<i>makṣā</i>	'fly'	419	<i>účo/i</i>	< inc.	<i>ucca</i>	'high'
207	<i>máčo</i>	< inc.	<i>matsya</i>	'fish'	420	<i>vá</i>	< inc.	<i>hasta</i>	'hand'
208	<i>me</i>	< inc.	<i>ma</i>	'I'	421	<i>váj</i>	< inc.	<i>vā</i>	'or'

209	<i>mél</i>	< inc.	<i>mala</i>	'dirt'	422	<i>vakérav</i>	< inc.	<i>vākya</i>	'to speak'
210	<i>mén</i>	< inc.	<i>manyā</i>	'neck'	423	<i>váš</i>	< inc.	<i>vašnā</i>	'because of'
211	<i>mérav</i>	< inc.	<i>marate</i>	'to die'	424	<i>vóšt</i>	< inc.	<i>ošt̥ha</i>	'lip'
212	<i>minč</i>	< inc.	<i>madhya</i>	'vulva'	425	<i>vúdar</i>	< inc.	<i>duvāra</i>	'door'
213	<i>mirikli</i>	< inc.	<i>maṇi</i>	'pearl'					

5.3.2_Iranian loanwords

1	<i>angrústi</i>	< ira.	<i>anguštārī</i>	'ring'	16	<i>pendéha</i>	< ira.	<i>banduk</i>	'hazelnut'
2	<i>angúšto</i>	< ira.	<i>angušt</i>	'finger'	17	<i>phúrt</i>	< ira.	<i>purt</i>	'bridge'
3	<i>armája</i>	< ira.	<i>ārmān</i>	'vow'	18	<i>póšum</i>	< ira.	<i>pašm</i>	'wool'
4	<i>ársič</i>	< ira.	<i>arzīz</i>	'tin'	19	<i>postano</i>	< ira.	<i>paḥta</i>	'linen'
5	<i>ásdav</i>	< ira.	<i>vazdena</i>	'to lift'	20	<i>rés</i>	< ira.	<i>raz</i>	'vine'
6	<i>ávdžin</i>	< ira.	<i>angabīn</i>	'honey'	21	<i>résav</i>	< ira.	<i>rasīdan</i>	'to arrive'
7	<i>bást</i>	< ira.	<i>baxt</i>	'happiness'	22	<i>ríl</i>	< ira.	<i>recita</i>	'flatul'
8	<i>désto</i>	< ira.	<i>daste</i>	'grip'	23	<i>sír</i>	< ira.	<i>sīr</i>	'onion'
9	<i>dís</i>	< ira.	<i>daryāb</i>	'castle'	24	<i>sór</i>	< ira.	<i>zōr</i>	'strength'
10	<i>kópal</i>	< ira.	<i>kūpāl</i>	'stick'	25	<i>tór</i>	< ira.	<i>tavar</i>	'Axe'
11	<i>kóro/i</i>	< ira.	<i>kūr</i>	'blind'	26	<i>čerhéni</i>	< ira.	<i>čarḥana</i>	'star'
12	<i>kúči</i>	< ira.	<i>kūza</i>	'cup'	27	<i>čúmnik</i>	< ira.	<i>čabuk</i>	'Peiče'
13	<i>lóš</i>	< ira.	<i>rošan</i>	'Joy'	28	<i>vérda</i>	< ira.	<i>wardyūn</i>	'dare'
14	<i>órde</i>	< ira.	<i>ardem</i>	'her'	29	<i>věš</i>	< ira.	<i>běša</i>	'forest'
15	<i>patávo</i>	< ira.	<i>pātāba</i>	'scrap'					

5.3.3_Armenian loanwords

1	<i>burník</i>	< arm.	<i>burrne</i>	'palm'	9	<i>paťárav</i>	< arm.	<i>patem</i>	'to wrap'
2	<i>dúdum</i>	< arm.	<i>dudruma</i>	'pumpkin'	10	<i>patrája</i>	< arm.	<i>patrag</i>	'Easter'
3	<i>grá</i>	< arm.	<i>grast</i>	'horse'	11	<i>píšot</i>	< arm.	<i>phamphušt</i>	'bellows'
4	<i>híp</i>	< arm.	<i>xuph</i>	'lid'	12	<i>thém</i>	< arm.	<i>them</i>	'land'
5	<i>húmer</i>	< arm.	<i>xemor</i>	'dough'	13	<i>čékat</i>	< arm.	<i>čakat</i>	'forehead'
6	<i>khóji</i>	< arm.	<i>khoni</i>	'beef tallow'	14	<i>čohána/i</i>	< arm.	<i>čivağ</i>	'witch'
7	<i>moméli</i>	< arm.	<i>mometēn</i>	'candle'	15	<i>vódži</i>	< arm.	<i>hogi</i>	'heart'
8	<i>mórti</i>	< arm.	<i>mort</i>	'leather'					

5.3.4_Greek loanwords

1	<i>amóji</i>	< grc.	<i>amoni</i>	'anvil'	27	<i>kúrko</i>	< grc.	<i>kiriakí</i>	'Sunday'
2	<i>angáli</i>	< grc.	<i>angali</i>	'lap'	28	<i>molí</i>	< grc.	<i>molibi</i>	'lead'
3	<i>ármí</i>	< grc.	<i>armī</i>	'sauerkraut'	29	<i>múlhi</i>	< grc.	<i>omixlī</i>	'fog'
4	<i>céfli</i>	< grc.	<i>tsefli</i>	'milk skin'	30	<i>ófto</i>	< grc.	<i>oxtó</i>	'eight'
5	<i>cípa</i>	< grc.	<i>tsípa</i>	'skin'	31	<i>pápu</i>	< grc.	<i>pappoús</i>	'grandfather'
6	<i>cuknúda</i>	< grc.	<i>tsiknida</i>	'nettle'	32	<i>pápin</i>	< grc.	<i>pápia</i>	'goose'
6	<i>dróm</i>	< grc.	<i>dromos</i>	'path'	33	<i>paramísi</i>	< grc.	<i>paramithi</i>	'fairy tale'
8	<i>džámba</i>	< grc.	<i>zampa</i>	'frog'	34	<i>paraštúja</i>	< grc.	<i>paraskeví</i>	'Friday'
9	<i>éfta</i>	< grc.	<i>efta</i>	'seven'	35	<i>parúnav</i>	< grc.	<i>paraxōnō</i>	'to bury'
10	<i>éňa</i>	< grc.	<i>enniá</i>	'nine'	36	<i>petálo</i>	< grc.	<i>pétalo</i>	'horseshoe'
11	<i>flógo</i>	< grc.	<i>phylē</i>	'people'	37	<i>pisti</i>	< grc.	<i>pixtí</i>	'gravy'
12	<i>fóro</i>	< grc.	<i>foros</i>	'city'	38	<i>ricín</i>	< grc.	<i>ritini</i>	'resin'
13	<i>géro/i</i>	< grc.	<i>ieros</i>	'regrettable'	39	<i>rumínav</i>	< grc.	<i>rīmazō</i>	'to spoil'
14	<i>hamsínav</i>	< grc.	<i>xásko</i>	'to yawn'	40	<i>sapújn</i>	< grc.	<i>sapoúni</i>	'soap'
15	<i>harkúma</i>	< grc.	<i>xárkoma</i>	'copper'	41	<i>sílaj</i>	< grc.	<i>okulabī</i>	'pliers'
16	<i>hóli</i>	< grc.	<i>xolí</i>	'rage'	42	<i>simádi</i>	< grc.	<i>simádi</i>	'pledge'
17	<i>irínav</i>	< grc.	<i>jirízo</i>	'to turn'	43	<i>sirími</i>	< grc.	<i>syrma</i>	'belt'
18	<i>jérni</i>	< grc.	<i>ríni</i>	'file'	44	<i>skámin</i>	< grc.	<i>skamní</i>	'armchair'
19	<i>kápa</i>	< grc.	<i>kápa</i>	'blanket'	45	<i>stádik</i>	< grc.	<i>skiadi</i>	'cap'
20	<i>karávčín</i>	< grc.	<i>karavída</i>	'cancer'	46	<i>súmi</i>	< grc.	<i>zumí</i>	'soup'
21	<i>klído</i>	< grc.	<i>klidí</i>	'lock'	47	<i>svíri</i>	< grc.	<i>sfiri</i>	'hammer'
22	<i>kokálo</i>	< grc.	<i>kokkalon</i>	'bone'	48	<i>táha</i>	< grc.	<i>taxiá</i>	'Morning'
23	<i>kopána</i>	< grc.	<i>kopana</i>	'trough'	49	<i>tránda</i>	< grc.	<i>triándá</i>	'thirty'
24	<i>krís</i>	< grc.	<i>krísi</i>	'judgement'	50	<i>trómav</i>	< grc.	<i>tolmo</i>	'may'
25	<i>kúku</i>	< grc.	<i>kūkki</i>	'egg'	51	<i>čírila</i>	< grc.	<i>kairos</i>	'long ago'
26	<i>kúkur</i>	< grc.	<i>kūkūli</i>	'hailstone'	52	<i>vúrca</i>	< grc.	<i>vúrta</i>	'brush'

6_Spelling

The creation of a writing system for BR, as described in the codification project chapter above, results in an inventory of 46 characters and character combinations.

Table 45: List of characters and combinations

Grapheme	initial	medial	final	English
<a>	<i>ákor</i>	<i>ráni</i>	<i>mamúca</i>	'nut', 'lady', 'monkey'
<aj>	<i>ájgeni</i>	<i>cájt</i>	<i>rášaj</i>	'own', 'time', 'priest'
<au>	<i>autéri</i>	<i>káunlina</i>	<i>čáu</i>	'car', 'jug', 'boy/son'
	<i>bríga</i>	<i>bobórka</i>	<i>dráb</i>	'worry', 'cucumber', 'medicinal herb'
<c>	<i>cípa</i>	<i>klínco</i>	<i>špíc</i>	'skin', 'nail', 'tip'
<ch>	–	<i>blécho</i>	<i>jóch</i>	'sheet metal', 'yoke'
<d>	<i>dráb</i>	<i>kéden</i>	<i>dánd</i>	'medicinal herb', 'Tuesday', 'tooth'
<ḍ>	–	<i>lonďárav</i>	–	'to salt'
<dž>	<i>džúvli</i>	<i>vódži</i>	<i>ládž</i>	'woman', 'heart', 'shame'
<e>	<i>éňa</i>	<i>lén</i>	<i>búke</i>	'nine', 'river', 'liver'
<ea>	<i>eašti</i>	<i>geám</i>	<i>šeá</i>	'first', 'yeast', 'mole'
<ej>	<i>éjinkl</i>	<i>vejtéri</i>	<i>jokej</i>	'grandson', 'weather', 'hockey'
<f>	<i>fóro</i>	<i>kéfa</i>	<i>héf</i>	'city', 'brush', 'hole'
<g>	<i>gúlo</i>	<i>flógo</i>	<i>jág</i>	'sweet', 'people', 'fire'
<ğ>	–	<i>banğárav</i>	–	'to bend'
<h>	<i>híšo</i>	<i>múlhi</i>	–	'shadow', 'beside'
<i>	<i>ivend</i>	<i>hánig</i>	<i>pajtáši</i>	'winter', 'fountain', 'friend'
<ia>	<i>iádeni</i>	<i>fiabéri</i>	<i>šiá</i>	'earthen', 'fever', 'at least'
<j>	<i>járo</i>	<i>bíjav</i>	–	'flour', 'wedding'
<k>	<i>kát</i>	<i>kéčka</i>	<i>jak</i>	'scissors', 'goat', 'eye'
<kh>	<i>khér</i>	<i>fakhélav</i>	–	'house', 'to gamble away'
<ķ>	–	<i>faboķárav</i>	–	'to starve'
<l>	<i>lóš</i>	<i>melálo</i>	<i>mól</i>	'joy', 'dirty', 'wine'
<lj>	–	<i>guljárav</i>	–	'to sweeten'
<m>	<i>máro</i>	<i>moméli</i>	<i>čám</i>	'bread', 'candle', 'cheek'
<n>	<i>nák</i>	<i>kénva</i>	<i>phén</i>	'nose', 'book', 'sister'
<ň>	–	<i>éňa</i>	–	'nine'
<o>	<i>ófto</i>	<i>hórdo</i>	<i>góno</i>	'eight', 'barrel', 'sack'
<ö>	–	<i>röméri</i>	–	'Roman'
<oa>	<i>oáxlina</i>	<i>roás</i>	–	'acorn', 'journey'
<oj>	<i>ójav</i>	<i>bójd</i>	<i>rój</i>	'become', 'soon', 'spoon'
<p>	<i>pér</i>	<i>pápin</i>	<i>rúp</i>	'stomach', 'goose', 'silver'
<ph>	<i>phúv</i>	<i>faphándel</i>	–	'earth', 'to connect'
<r>	<i>rik</i>	<i>báro</i>	<i>búr</i>	'side', 'big', 'bush'
<s>	<i>sáp</i>	<i>bórso</i>	<i>khás</i>	'snake', 'hedgehog', 'hay'
<š>	<i>šúkar</i>	<i>bríšind</i>	<i>trúš</i>	'beautiful', 'rain', 'thirst'

<t>	<i>tór</i>	<i>táto</i>	<i>bást</i>	'axe', 'warm', 'happiness'
<th>	<i>thúd</i>	<i>fathárel</i>	–	'milk', 'to burn'
<t̥>	–	<i>bastáke</i>	–	'fortunately'
<č>	<i>číb</i>	<i>bočkóra</i>	<i>pánč</i>	'language', 'shoe', 'five'
<u>	<i>údud</i>	<i>dúr</i>	<i>fáču</i>	'light', 'far', 'child'
<ü>	–	<i>fülfedéri</i>	–	'fountain pen'
<ua>	–	<i>luám</i>	–	'clay'
<uj>	<i>Ujvára</i>	<i>sapújn</i>	<i>dúj</i>	'Güssing', 'soap', 'two'
<v>	<i>vérdá</i>	<i>ásvin</i>	<i>gáv</i>	'cart', 'tear', 'village'

6.1_Spelling criteria

Spelling is based on etymological, phonological, and morphological criteria, with morphology regarded as the most important.

6.1.1_Phonological criteria

The South Burgenland dialect of German, as the primary contact variety of the Roman dialect, shapes its phonetics; consequently, the phonetic realisations correspond to those of the German contact dialect. Owing to the large number of loanwords, this influence also affects the phonemic inventory and therefore has implications for the written form of the language. In general, it can be said—and this applies not only to phonetics but also to the morphology and syntax of Roman—that structures not supported by German may be lost or adapted to German.

The inventory of symbols is based on the phonology described in the chapter on structure; this will be repeated below only to the extent necessary to clarify the strategies for representing the symbols in writing and the phonetic realisations of the individual graphemes.

6.1.1.1_Consonants und Affricates

The issue regarding the spelling of consonants and affricates concerns:

- The dichotomy [$\pm$ voiced],
- The dichotomy [$\pm$ aspirated] in pre-European vocabulary,
- The spelling of affricates and alveolar fricatives.

6.1.1.1.1_Plosives

The three series of plosives /b, d, g/,⁴⁶ /p, t, k/ and /p^h, t^h, k^h/ in Romanes are present in BR, albeit with certain restrictions, and are therefore realised as graphemes. The voiceless plosives <p, t, k> occur in all positions:⁴⁷

póšta /poʃta/ 'post'
púpa /pupa/ 'navel'
tip /tip/ 'tip'
táto /tato/ 'warm'
tínta /tinta/ 'ink'

⁴⁶ Lenis variants are represented as devoiced voiced phonemes, /C̥/.

⁴⁷ The examples given below are taken from the coding sample.

but /bʊt/ 'many'
kefa /kefa/ 'brush'
kuku /kuku/ 'egg'
rik /rik/ 'side'

Aspirated voiceless plosives occur mainly at the beginning of words:

phérav /pʰeɪraf/ : *pérav* /peɪraf/ 'to fill' : 'to fall'
thúd /tʰu:t/ : *tút* /tut/ 'milk' : 'you.ACC'
khér /kʰeɪr/ : *kér!* /ker/ 'house' : 'do it!'

Medial occurrence arises either from adding a prefix to a verb or verbal noun beginning with an aspirated plosive, or from forming a compound whose second element begins with such a sound. Even when the aspiration is not realised medially, as in the second example, the spelling is retained for morphological reasons—see below.

andphénári /andpʰena:ri/ 'prompter' < *ánde+phenári*
sakothán /sakotan/ 'everywhere' < *sako+than*
fakhújav /fakʰujaf/ 'to weave' < *fa+khujav*

Unlike in other varieties of Roman, /b, d, g/ are not pronounced as fully voiced sounds, but rather as lenis /b̥, d̥, g̥/. Due to final devoicing, they are realised as fortis in word-final position. However, this is not reflected in the written form because of morphological criteria.

údud /udut/ 'light'

The degree of lenition, as well as any slightly voiced realisations, depends on the context. Initially, however, lenition usually occurs:

báro /b̥a:ro/ 'big'
dúr /d̥u:r/ 'far'
gér /g̥e:r/ 'scabies'

The 'lenis' sounds are often pronounced with a slight voicing, particularly in a sonorous environment and especially in an intervocalic position:

próba /pro:b̥a/ : /pro:ba/ 'test'
garúdo /garu:d̥o/ : /garu:do/ 'hidden'
bogári /b̥oɡa:ri/ : /boga:ri/ 'beetle'

The digraphs <đ, ʈ, ǰ, gǰ>, representing /d̥ʲ, t̥ʲ, k̥ʲ, g̥ʲ/, occur only word-medially:

sméd'o /sme:d̥ʲo/ 'brown'
váǰo /va:g̥ʲo/ 'wealth'
faboǰárav /fabok̥ʲa:raf/ 'to starve'
fát'o /fa:t̥ʲo/ 'veil'

6.1.1.1.2_Fricatives

Unlike Romanes, which has six fricative phonemes /f, v; s, z; ʃ, ʒ/, BR has only four: /f, v; s; ʃ/. As with the plosives, the [± voiced] dichotomy is neutralised in final position and, in initial and medial positions, reduced to a lenis-fortis distinction.

The fortis /f/ occurs in all positions. The lenis /v/ is realised in initial and medial positions:

fóro /fɔro/ 'city'
lárfa /larfa/ 'larva'
héf /hef/ 'hole'
véka /ve:ka/ 'basket'
ásvin /a:svin/ 'tear'

The final fortis realisation resulting from German final consonant hardening, however, is not reflected in the written form on morphological grounds.

phóv /pʰo:f/ 'brow'

Among the dental and alveolar fricatives, the fortis phonemes /s, ʃ/ predominate. Lenited variants /z, ʒ/ sometimes occur in medial position in a sonorant environment, while the slightly voiced variants /z, ʒ/ rarely occur in intervocalic position. Consequently, none of these variants is written as they are allophones of the fortis phonemes.

sap /sap/ 'snake'
šúkar /ʃu:kar/ 'beautiful'
bórso /bɔ:rso/ 'hedgehog'
ésa /esa/ : /eʒa/ 'donkey'
bášno /ba:ʃno/ : /ba:ʒno/ 'rooster'
bríšind /bri:ʃind/ /bri:ʒind/ 'rain'
hás /has/ 'cough'
truš /truʃ/ 'thirst'

The velar fricative /x/ occurs only initially or medially in loanwords from German.

bíachlina /biːxlina/ 'booklet'
kóuch /koːx/ 'porridge'

The uvular fricative /h/ also occurs only at the beginning and in the middle of a word.

has /has/ 'cough'
gríha /gri:ha/ 'sin'

The Lenis–Fortis distinction also applies to the affricates. /tʃ, tʃ, dʒ/ are phonemic and transcribed as <c, č, dž>, respectively. The allophones /tʃ, tʃ, dʒ/ may occur between vowels:

címba /tsi:mɔa/ 'eyelash'
góca /go:tsa/ : /go:dʒa/ 'duck'
mérc /me:rts/ 'March'
čór /tʃo:r/ 'thief'
kúči /ku:tʃi/ 'cup'
pánč /panʃ/ 'five'
džív /dʒi:f/ 'snow'
endžéli /endʒe:li/ : /endʒe:li/ 'angel'
ládž /la:dʒ/ 'shame'

The palatal approximant <j> occurs at the beginning and in the middle of words:

júpa /jupa/ 'jacket'

bíjav /bi:jaf/ 'wedding'

6.1.1.1.3_Nasals and liquids

BR has three nasals and three liquids. The bilabial nasal /m/ and the alveolar nasal /n/ are transcribed as <m, n> and occur in all positions, whereas the palatalised nasal /nʲ/ or <ň> occurs only in the medial position.

máro /ma:ro/ 'bread'
moméli /mome:li/ 'candle'
lím /lim/ 'snot'
níro /ni:ro/ 'birch'
kénva /kenʷa/ 'book'
lén /len/ 'river'
aríña /ari:nʲa/ 'as long as'

The same distributional pattern is found among the liquids. Whereas the alveolar vibrant /r/ and the alveolar lateral /l/ occur in all positions, the palatalised lateral /lʲ/ occurs only in the medial position. These three phonemes are transcribed as.

réda /re:ɖa/ 'crease'
múrš /murʃ/ 'man'
féder /feɖer/ 'better'
lárma /la:rma/ 'noise'
lólo /lolo/ 'red'
mél /mel/ 'dirt'
guljárav /gulʲa:rav/ 'to sweeten'

6.1.1.2_Vowels and diphthongs

In addition to the basic set of vowels <a, e, i, o, u> found in Romani, BR also includes <ö, ü>, which occur only in German loanwords. The inherited set of diphthongs /aʲ, oʲ, uʲ/ has also been expanded by additional diphthongs found in loanwords from the German dialect.

6.1.1.2.1_Vowels

The seven vowels of BR are defined as follows:

Tale 46: Vowels

Definition			Phonem	Graphem
[HIGH]	[FRONT]	[UNROUNDED]	/ɪ/	<i>
[HIGH]	[FRONT]	[ROUNDED]	/y/	<ü>
[HIGH]	[REAR]	[ROUNDED]	/ʊ/	<u>
[MEDIUM]	[FRONT]	[UNROUNDED]	/ɛ/	<e>
[MEDIUM]	[FRONT]	[ROUNDED]	/ø/	<ö>
[MEDIUM]	[BACK]	[ROUNDED]	/ɔ/	<o>
[LOW]			/a/	<a>

As the examples given so far show, the inherited vowels <a, e, i, o, u> occur in all positions, whereas <ö, ü> are attested only in medial position in German loanwords:

ksól /ksø/ 'journeyman'
špúcajg /ʃpytsaʲg/ 'toy'

6.1.1.2.2_Diphthongs

There are five falling diphthongs and four rising diphthongs. The inherited falling diphthongs occur in all positions, but they are especially common in the middle of a word.⁴⁸

<i>ajípe</i>	/a ^h i ^h pe/	'coming'
<i>lináje</i>	/li ^h na ^h i ^h e/	'summer'
<i>ráj</i>	/ra ^h i/	'sir'
<i>ojípe</i>	/o ^h i ^h pe/	'becoming'
<i>amóji</i>	/a ^h mo ^h i/	'anvil'
<i>šóšoj</i>	/ʃo ^h ʃo ^h /	'hare'
<i>Újbindoaf</i>	/u ^h bindoaf/	'Olbendorf'
<i>múj</i>	/mu ^h i/	'mouth'

The falling diphthongs occur in the initial and medial positions of German loanwords:⁴⁹

<i>autéri</i>	/a ^h u ^h te:ri/	'car'
<i>mauréri</i>	/ma ^h u ^h re:ri/	'bricklayer'
<i>ejnkl</i>	/ɛ ^h ɲkl/	'grandson'
<i>bléjco</i>	/b ^h lɛ ^h tso/	'toe'

With a few exceptions, the four rising diphthongs <ea, ia, oa, ua> occur mainly in the middle of words derived from the German contact dialect.

<i>eášť</i>	/ɛ ^h a ^h ʃt/	'first'
<i>reáľina</i>	/rɛ ^h a ^h ľina/	'tube'
<i>fájervea</i>	/fa ^h iə ^h vɛ ^h a/	'fire brigade'
<i>iádeni</i>	/i ^h a ^h ðəni/	'earthen'
<i>diánst</i>	/d ^h i ^h a ^h ɲst/	'duty'
<i>šía</i>	/ʃi ^h a ^h /	'hard'
<i>oáčľina</i>	/o ^h a ^h ɲľina/	'acorn'
<i>roáľnina</i>	/rɔ ^h a ^h ľnina/	'tyre'
<i>vuáľeti</i>	/v ^h u ^h a ^h ľəti/	'restless'

The following table summarises the nine diphthongs:

Table 47: Diphthongs

/ai/↓	/au/↓	/ɛi/↓	/oi/↓	/ui/↓	/ɛa/↑	/ia/↑	/ɔa/↑	/ua/↑
<aj>	<au>	<ej>	<oj>	<uj>	<ea>	<ia>	<oa>	<ua>

6.1.2_Morphological criteria

The primary aim of morphological criteria is to represent grammatical or bound morphemes consistently, while the phonetic realisation is of secondary importance.

48 Thus, the initial <uj> is attested only in the two place names *Újvára* 'Güssing' and *Újbindoaf* 'Olbendorf') while final <oj> occurs only in *rój* 'spoon' and in the variant *šóšoj* of *šóšov* 'hare'.

49 The two attested forms ending in <au>, which also occur in lexemes of the pre-European vocabulary, are the alternative forms *asáu* of *asávo* 'such a one' and *čáu* of *ávo* 'son', resulting from v-deletion. The same applies to the alternative forms *čáuri* of *čávori* 'little girl' and *čáuro* of *čávoro* 'little boy'.

The most common and productive plural suffix in BR is realised as either the fortis /-tʃa/ or the lenis /-ɖʃa/, depending on the final sound of the stem. However, because the fortis variant is more frequent, it is always written as :

*mastérč**a*** /mastertʃa/ 'mayors'
*fačúvč**a*** /fatʃuɐɖʃa/ 'children'

The abstract suffix /-ipe/ or /-iɓe/ is also consistently written as <-ipe>, using the grapheme for the fortis variant, due to its frequency:

*pekí**pe*** /pekipe/ 'cake'
*bolají**pe*** /bolajipe/ 'baptism'

Exceptions are the three abstract nouns *hábe* 'food', *píbe* 'drink', and *pačábe* 'belief', in which /i/ is lost and the ending is written with .

The spelling of final fortis realisations using the corresponding lenis grapheme also follows morphological criteria. Nouns whose stem or nominative singular form ends in a plosive or labiodental fricative are realised as fortis in final position due to German influence and the final hardening discussed above. However, if these sounds are realised as lenis in medial positions or in plural, case, or derivational forms, spelling them with the lenis grapheme in final position is likewise justified for the sake of consistency:⁵⁰

dráb /ɖrap/ 'medicinal herb' : *drabéha* /ɖrabɐha/ 'with medicinal herbs'
gád /gat/ 'shirt' : *gáda* /gɑːɖa/ 'shirts'
hánig /hanik/ 'well' : *hanigéske* /hanigeske/ 'for fountains'
phúv /pʰuf/ 'earth' : *phuvéstar* /pʰuɐstar/ 'from the earth'

The first-person singular present suffix /-af/, realised as <av>, is spelt according to a similar principle. Because of intervocalic v-deletion, the first-person singular future form corresponds to <á>, */-áɐa/, and the non-perfect past form to <áhi>, */-áɐahi/. As most other written Romani varieties use the same convention—supporting etymological consistency—the underlying v-form determines the spelling:

*džán**av*** /ɖjaːnaf/ 'to know'
*hintín**av*** /hintinaf/ 'to spread'
*sój**av*** /soʔaf/ 'to sleep'

To preserve the multisyllabic structure of forms with intervocalic /v/-deletion, as in the last of the above examples, *sójav* /soʔaf/ < *sóvav, /v/ is replaced by the palatal approximant /j/ to avoid diphthongisation: *soav /soɐaf/. The same strategy is applied to vowel sequences in loanwords in order to preserve the biphonemic structure and the disyllabic pronunciation.

pijav /piʔaf/ 'to drink'
harújav /haruʔaf/ 'to scratch'
demokratíja /ɖemokratiʃa 'democracy'
inicijativa /initsiʔatiːɐa/ 'initiative'

50 In contrast, in the case of *hef* 'hole', for example, the fortis is always written, as even in the medial position—as in *hefatar* 'from the hole', for instance—it is always pronounced /f/ and never /ɸ/.

The spelling of the article in the prepositional phrase follows morphophonological criteria. Prepositions ending in /-e/ cause the following article to contract, omitting the final vowel.

<i>ándo veš</i>	< * <i>ánde ó veš</i>	'in the woods'
<i>méri khangeri</i>	< * <i>mére í khangéri</i>	'next to the church'
<i>príko dómbi</i>	< * <i>príke ó dómbi</i>	'beyond the hills'
<i>místo nasvalipéske</i>	< * <i>míste ó nasvalipéske</i>	'because of the illness'
<i>úso fóre</i>	< * <i>úse ó fóre</i>	'near the towns'

With prepositions that end in a consonant, the article is pronounced separately. With prepositions that end in a consonant, the article is pronounced separately.

<i>máškar ó kášta</i>	'between the trees'
<i>pédar ó vúdar</i>	'above the door'
<i>úsar ó gáv</i>	'away from the village'
<i>váš í džuvláke</i>	'because of the woman'

The spelling of verbs modelled on German prefixed verbs is determined by morphosyntactic rules. Whenever another particle—the negator *na* or the complementiser *te* of the analytical infinitive—can be inserted between the verb and the particle, they are written separately and are referred to as particle verbs:

<i>áun díkav</i>	'to look at'	: <i>áun ná díkav</i>	'to not look at'
<i>ári vakérav</i>	'to talk out of it'	: <i>Láče džánes ári té vakérel tút.</i>	'You're good at talking your way out.'

The prefixes *ca-*, *fa-*, and *ter-*, which are borrowed from German, are inseparably attached to the verb and therefore form prefixed verbs:

<i>cadžáv</i>	'to melt away'	: <i>na cadžáv</i>	'not to melt away'
<i>terdžíjav</i>	'to experience'	: <i>na terdžíjav</i>	'not to experience'
<i>faphándlav</i>	'to bandage'	: <i>Kesdínel te faphándlel len.</i>	'He/she begins to bandage them.'

6.1.3_Etymological criteria

The spelling of pre-European lexemes is always determined by etymological considerations whenever plosives, fricatives, and affricates—due to the influence of the German contact dialect on the phonetics of BR—are realised as both fortis and lenis, especially in final position, but sometimes also in initial position. In such cases, the spelling is determined by the word's etymology and, consequently, by international conventions for the spelling of Romani.

Table 48: Spelling of inherited words

Roman	/roman/	/roman/	Etymology	international	English:
<i>bár</i>	/b̥ar/	/par/	inc. <i>vāṭa</i>	<i>bar</i>	'garden'
<i>béng</i>	/b̥eng/	/penk/	inc. <i>vyaṅga</i>	<i>beng</i>	'devil'
<i>dráb</i>	/d̥rab/	/trap/	inc. <i>dravya</i>	<i>drab</i>	'medicinal herb'
<i>džuvli</i>	/d̥ʃuːvli/	/tʃuːfli/	inc. <i>yuvati</i>	<i>džuvli</i>	'woman'

Etymological criteria and international spelling conventions are also important when it comes to the spelling of aspirated plosives.

Table 49: Spelling of the aspiration

Roman	/roman/	/roman/	Etymology	international	German
<i>phrál</i>	/pʰraːl/	/pʰraːl/	inc. <i>bhrātṛ</i>	<i>phral</i>	'brother'

<i>thúv</i>	/t ^h u ^v /	/t ^h uf/	inc. <i>dhūma</i>	<i>thuv</i>	'smoke'
<i>khás</i>	/k ^h as/	/k ^h as/	inc. <i>ghāsa</i>	<i>khas</i>	'hay'

The relevance of this etymological examination of initial aspiration in BR becomes clear when one considers that fortis plosives are always slightly aspirated at the beginning of a word. This means that the difference between /p^h, t^h, k^h/ and /p^h, t^h, k^h/ is only gradual and, consequently, relatively difficult to discern in cases where there are no minimal pairs.⁵¹

Etymology is also significant in the spelling of loanwords from South Slavic languages and Hungarian. In the case of more recent loanwords, however, this applies not only to the spelling of consonants but also to vowel usage.

Table 50: Slavic and Hungarian loanwords

Roman	/roman/	/roman/	Etymology	German
<i>bošiča</i>	/boʃi:tʃa/	/poʃi:tʃa/	sla. <i>bošić</i>	'Christmas'
<i>trašilo</i>	/traʃi:lo/	/draʃi:lo/	sla. <i>strašilo</i>	'scarecrow'
<i>klúčo</i>	/klu:tʃo/	/glu:dʃo/	sla. <i>ključ</i>	'key'
<i>fišgaróši</i>	/fiʃgaroʃi/	/viʃgaroʒi/	sla. <i>fiškal</i>	'solicitor'
<i>subóta</i>	/subota/	/sobota/	sla. <i>subota</i>	'Saturday'
<i>bíro</i>	/bi:ro/	/pi:ro/	hun. <i>bíró</i>	'judge'
<i>defínáv</i>	/definaf/	/tefinaf/	hun. <i>döf</i>	'to bump into'
<i>kípo</i>	/ki:po/	/gi:bo/	hun. <i>kép</i>	'picture'
<i>fódra</i>	/foðra/	/voðra/	hun. <i>fodor</i>	'trim'
<i>suňóga</i>	/suňoga/	/suňaga/	hun. <i>szúnyog</i>	'mosquito'

Borrowings from the German contact dialect that differ from the standard form in their phonetic realisation are transcribed both etymologically and phonetically as lexemes integrated into BR.

Table 51: German dialectal loanwords

Roman	/German dialectal/	English
<i>bíkslina</i>	/biksl/	'can'
<i>éršti</i>	/eeʃti/	'first'
<i>farájn</i>	/fara'n/	'club'
<i>nochberi</i>	/noxbe/	'neighbour'
<i>róco</i>	/rots/	'rat'

As the examples show, phonetic dialectal realisations are not always adopted. This applies primarily to post-vocalic /r/, which, unlike the modern dialectal forms /Ve/, /eeʃti/, and /noxbe/, is realised in BR as /Vr/, /erʃti/, and /noxberi/. As biksl-ina and roc-o demonstrate, older German loanwords from the South Burgenland contact dialect are usually structurally integrated through adaptation suffixes.

Loanwords from varieties of German that are close to the standard language are also adapted in line with the BR character set. Nouns, such as the above-mentioned *farajn*, are often adopted without integration markers, but, as loanwords, they form plural, case, and derivational forms in a manner consistent with the language structure. Agent nouns ending in <er> in German are most likely integrated due to the similar-sounding agent suffix /-Vri/.

51 Incidentally, the etymologies of the three examples show that the voiceless aspirated plosives /p^h, t^h, k^h/ in Romani can generally be traced back to the voiced aspirated plosives /b^h, d^h, g^h/ in Old Indo-Aryan.

Table 52: German loanwords

Roman	/roman/	German	English	Roman	English:
<i>kafé</i>	/kafe:/	<i>Kaffee</i>	'coffee'	<i>kaféstar</i>	'of coffee'
<i>mechanikér-i</i>	/mexanike:ri/	<i>Mechaniker</i>	'mechanic'	<i>mechanikeriha</i>	'with a mechanic'
<i>partáj</i>	/parta'/	<i>Partei</i>	'party'	<i>partajake</i>	'for a party'
<i>šauspilér-i</i>	/ʃaʊʃpile:ri/	<i>Šauspieler</i>	'actor'	<i>šauspilerkija</i>	'actress'

As the example *kafe* shows, double consonants are not written in BR. The German grapheme <ie> is also disregarded. Length is generally associated with the accent, which *šauspiléri* falls on the penultimate syllable. Writing it as <ie> would result in a long vowel and thus contradict the accent patterns of BR.

6.1.4_Summary

To summarise, the criteria applied in the codification, apart from the overarching criterion of acceptability, which primarily determines spelling based on the German model, are phonological, morphological, and etymological.

Phonological criteria, which are fundamental to any spelling system, are subordinate to morphological criteria, which are applied most consistently. Morphological and morpho-syntactic criteria determine whether words are written together or separately. Etymological criteria are used primarily in decisions between lenis and fortis graphemes, but also align BR with international spelling conventions regarding the pre-European lexicon.

6.2_Uppercase and lowercase

As far as capitalisation is concerned, apart from words at the beginning of a sentence and in headings, only endonymic ethnonyms, the word for 'God', and proper and place names are capitalised. However, as in German, adjectives derived from these are written in lower case.

<i>Róm</i>	'male member of the group'
<i>Róma</i>	'male members of the group' / 'self-designation for the ethnic group'
<i>Rómni</i>	'female member of the group'
<i>Rómnija</i>	'female members of the group'
<i>Román</i>	'designation for the own language'
<i>Romanípe</i>	'Romahood, Romani identity'
<i>romano/i</i>	'Romani, relating to the Roma'
<i>Dél</i>	'God'
<i>Delóro</i>	'Jesus'
<i>devléskero/i</i>	'divine'
<i>Fránz</i>	
<i>Jósef</i>	
<i>Hórvat</i>	
<i>Máier</i>	
<i>Mária</i>	
<i>Therésia</i>	
<i>Asija</i>	'Asia'
<i>Béči</i>	'Vienna'
<i>bečítiko/i</i>	'Viennese'
<i>Érba</i>	'Oberwart'
<i>Geréci</i>	'Graz'
<i>Himalája</i>	'Himalaja'

<i>Méksiko</i>	'Mexico'
<i>Pacífik</i>	'Pacifik'
<i>Pínka</i>	'Pinka'
<i>Somálíja</i>	'Somalia'

6.3_Punctuation

Because BR, and especially its syntax, is heavily influenced by German, its punctuation—that is, the rules governing structure and meaning—also largely follows the German model.

Full stop [.]

A full stop marks the end of a sentence and is used in abbreviations:⁵²

<i>Mé khére džáv.</i>	'I'm going home.'
<i>Ídž búť džénen úpro foro díklom.</i>	'Yesterday I saw lots of people at the market.'
<i>Agún ó džéne phukávnahi óda.</i>	'That's what people used to say.'
<i>t.a.d. = táj áfka duréder</i>	'etc. = and so on'
<i>t.a. = teléder avrénge</i>	'a.o. = among others'
<i>p. = peldáke</i>	'e.g. = for example'

Comma [,]

The comma is used in lists and between main and subordinate clauses.⁵³

<i>lole, selene, čute taj modre koja</i>	'red, green, yellow and blue things'
<i>Ó fačúvča grásten, gurúmnen, bákren, kéčken, felitíke čiriklen taj duj džúklen ándo baro ríto mér í lén díkle.</i>	'The children saw horses, cows, sheep, goats, various birds and two dogs in the large meadow by the river.'
<i>Džánav, káj tú hohájs.</i>	'I know you're lying.'
<i>Ov kamlá, té tú bastále ójs.</i>	'He wants you to be happy.'
<i>Káda kísne sína, Erbáte ladíja.</i>	'When he was ready, he drove to Oberwart.'
<i>Pélo, mínt máto ló sína.</i>	'He fell over because he was drunk.'

Question mark [?]

The question mark indicates questions.

<i>Ájs aménca?</i>	'Are you coming with us?'
<i>Katar ídž álo?</i>	'Where did he come from yesterday?'
<i>Kó sán?</i>	'Who are you?'
<i>Sár bučójs?</i>	'What's your name?'
<i>Sóske asáj dilíne díkes?</i>	'Why are you looking so stupid?'

Exclamation mark [!]

The exclamation mark is used in requests, commands and exclamations.

<i>Áv mánde kérem!</i>	'Come to me, please!'
<i>Džá mánge palal!</i>	'Follow me!'

⁵² The examples of abbreviations should be regarded as suggestions.

⁵³ For further examples of comma usage, see the "Syntax" section in the chapter on structure.

Dík godžáke!

'Look closely!'

Joj!

'Ooh!'

Aká!

'Look there!'

Colon [:]

The colon is used to introduce lists, explanations and direct speech; for the latter, see the examples below.

Odá lakáhahi: lila, kipi táj khelípča.

'Das fanden wir: Briefe, Bilder und Spiele.'

Kámla čak jéke: té dobínel.

'Er will nur eines: gewinnen.'

Semicolon [;]

The semicolon separates main clauses that are closely related in meaning.

Ov čoro Róm sí; t'odá isté kudulínel.

'He's a poor Rom; he has to beg.'

*Sína jék Róm táj jék Rómni; odólen dešudúj
fačúvča sína.*

'There were a Rom and a Romai; they had
twelve children.'

Quotation marks [" "]

Typographic quotation marks [" "] are used to indicate direct speech and quotations in texts.

Phénča: "Ájav keséder."

'He said, "I'll be back later."'

Nevesínen léskero falikerípe "jek faphagerípe".

'They call his behaviour "a crime".'

Í kénva bučól "i roas".

'The book is called "The Journey".'

Quotation marks also convey doubt, irony, rejection and euphemism:

Asáj "ekspérča" ná pekájas.

'We don't need "experts" like that.'

Čače páčal, hót odá jek "mastéri" hi.'

'He really thinks he's a "master".'

*Phénča adá "léskero našidžajípe", hám ój ári
čídlahi le.*

'She called it "him leaving", but she actually
threw him out.'

Quotations within direct speech are placed within single quotation marks (' '):

*Phénča léske: Džánav, hot oj man 'o dilíno' at-
kosínčal.*

'He said to him, "I know she called me 'the idi-
ot'."'

On its own, the single quotation mark functions as an apostrophe (') to indicate an omission or abbreviation:

t'odá = táj oda

'and that'

ús' ájav = úse ájav

'to arrive'

Brackets ()

Additions and explanations are placed in brackets:

Óda láče hi (čáče).

'That's good (really).'

Í daj (léskeri, na lákeri) muli hi.

'The mother (his, not hers) is dead.'

Dash [–]

Insertions are placed between dashes:

*Akán eášt—sár míndig késon—mró róm lé
habéske al.*

'Only now—late as ever—is my husband coming
home for dinner.'

6.4_Hyphenation

Word division is based on pronunciation; words are generally divided into syllables as spoken. A syllable generally consists of two phonemes, which means that words such as *odá* 'that' or *úlo* 'he/she became' are monosyllabic and cannot be divided.

Hyphenation between the vowel [V] and the consonant [C]

If an open syllable ending in a vowel (xxV) is followed by a syllable beginning with a consonant (Cxx), the final vowel and the initial consonant are separated (xxV-Cxx):

<i>džá-nav</i>	'know'
<i>ku-dú-ši</i>	'beggar'
<i>po-kó-la</i>	'hell'
<i>reá-ling</i>	'bolete'
<i>sá-ma-hi</i>	'we were'

Hyphenation of consonants [C]

If a closed syllable ending in a consonant, xxC, is followed by a syllable beginning with a consonant, Cxx, the two consonants are separated, xxC-Cxx:

<i>kéč-ka</i>	'goat'
<i>mín-dig</i>	'always'
<i>phív-li</i>	'widow'
<i>réc-luno</i>	'enigmatic'
<i>sep-tem-bé-ri</i>	'September'

Hyphenation between the consonant [C] and the vowel [V]

Two consecutive VC syllables are separated before the second vowel:

<i>ag-ún</i>	'earlier'
<i>úč-ar</i>	'high'

Monophonemic bi- and multigraphemic forms are inseparable:

- The falling diphthongs <aj, ej, ij, oj, uj>:
ájav 'to come', or *ójav* 'to become', are monosyllabic, even though the diphthongs originated from syllables: *ájav* < **avav*, *ójav* < **ovav*; the same applies to diphthongs formed by suffixation: *ka-fej-is-ke* 'for coffee' < *ka-fé* 'coffee'.
- The rising diphthongs <ea, ia, oa, ua>:
words such as *luám* 'clay' and *roás* 'journey' are therefore inseparable.
- The sibilant <š> and the Affricates <dž, č>:
gá-džo 'Nicht-Rom', jedoch nicht ~~*gad-žo*~~;
- The aspirated voiceless plosives <ph, th, kh>:
Medial hyphenation always occurs before the plosive: *up-re-pha-gí-pe* 'departure'

In conclusion, here is a text that demonstrates rules of spelling, punctuation, and hyphenation. The accompanying translation is freer than literal.

Ó hamíšno kudúši

Káj pé sí-na, káj pé ná-na; plás-ta sí-na, ká-pa ná-na. Ó Ró-ma agún ajá pa-ma-rí-si phu-káv-na-hi, hám odá ná džá-nav, óbs.te hí čá-čo váj čak áf-ka lé va-kér-na-hi. Mé náš-tig phé-nav. Ó Ró-ma ag-ún phu-káv-na-hi.

Sáj tík-no čó-ro Róm sín, táj odá té ku-du-lí-nel sí-na. Taj mín-dig sáj mé-reš há-la-hi, odá má-nuš, táj ní ná ul-áv-la-hi lé ko-lén-ca, té lés-tar vá-la-ko mán-gla-hi, óv ná ul-áv-la-hi. Av-éra té vá-la-so uš-tí-dna-hi, mín-dig u-láv-na-hi, óv ná, óv pró kója mín-dig kor-kóre há-la-hi.

Éf-kar té ku-du-lí-nel ló sí-na, táj má-ro uš-tí-dí-ja táj bál-vas. Duax ó věš ís-te khér džá-la-hi. Táj áf-ka sár duax ó věš khér džá-la-hi, tél pés-ke čín-ča ek-lík bál-vas táj ek-náj má-ro táj tél pé be-šár-ča táj há-la-hi. Táj up-réf-kar cúj lé-ske álo sáj tík-no šó-šov, táj phén-ča lés-ke: "Dé mán va-lá-so." Táj óv: "Ná, mé ná dáv mró té hál, tú tú-ke ró-de trí čár, tú čár hás."

T'ak-ór odá šó-šov béjg pés-ke gé-lo, táj óv báj-der gé-lo. Áf-ka sár duax ó věš džá-la-hi, va-lá-mi jék óra drauf pá-pal bo-káj-lo, táj pá-pal pés-ke tél béš-to táj má-ro pés-ke tél čín-do táj bál-vas, t'odój há-la-hi. Ak-án sáj vár-no ba-lí-čo da-héa álo, táj phén-la-hi lés-ke: "Dé mán ek-náj bál-vas táj ek-náj má-ro."—"Ná, mé ná tút dáv mró bál-vas táj ní mró má-ro, tú láf-ka hás ó ójx-li-ni, odó-la, só prí-ko kášt tél pér-en."—"Ahá", phén-ča ó bá-lo, odá vár-no ba-lí-čo, táj béjg pés-ke gé-lo.

Óv báj-der gé-lo, táj ná dúr sáj phú-ri gá-dži dík-la-hi. Ój áf-ka khé-tan rejx-lín-la-hi ó khás. Táj sár odój tér-do ló sí-na phúč-la lá-tar, só odój kór-el. Ój phén-ča: "Hé, mrá keč-ká-ke ó khás khé-tan rejx-lí-nav, áf-ka lá šáj té hál dáv, mínt av-er nán mán níš-ta lá-ke." Táj óv lá-ke phén-ča: "Té po-mo-ší-nav tú-ke? Hám ís-te mán po-čín-és, mínt hijá-ba ná kór-av tú-ke níš-ta bú-ti." Táj ój lés-ke phén-ča: "Hós hí tút bál-vas táj má-ro, só ka-mé-ha?" Táj óv: "Pál sár tú džán-es, hót mán bál-vas táj má-ro hí?"—"Hé, mán-ge ó már-hi phúk-an."—"Mé tú-ke po-mo-šín-av, hám íste mán dés va-lá-so."—"Hé", phén-ča, "bút nán mán, hám té mít áj-al, dáv tút jék kúči thúd mrá keč-ká-tar. Šáj lé tú-ke mít lés, té ná šáj lé ár píjs, hám po-mo-šín má-nge adá khás khér té lé-džel."—"Hé, mé túke po-mo-ší-nav, hám hijá-ba ná." Táj óv ak-ór lá-ke-ri bíkl líja, cam lé kór-ča táj khér lé lá-ke le-džija.

Ój ári gé-li táj lá keč-ka píš-ča, táj thúd lé díja. Táj káj ló sáj ha-lá-ne sí-na, štóts té lé pés-ke mít líja-hi, ó thúd sáj ha-lá-ne ár píja, hót er-čá-vo lés-ke úlo, ká-da báj-der gé-lo. Táj még ná álo khér, cá-m pé-lo, táj ó Ró-ma lá-kle lé táj khér lé kór-de. Táj óv phén-la-hi mín-dig: "Ojá čo-há-ni!" Táj phu-káv-la-hi lén-ge, hót odój khér sí-na án-do věš. Ón té dí-kel gé-le: Ná-na khér, táj odój ná-na phú-ri gá-dži, odój ná-na ní-ko. Táj már ná pa-čá-na-hi lés-ke. Óv hám ak-ór pá-pal fé-der úlo, hám ná úlo ló bú-ter sás-to.

Táj káj lés-ke ó Ró-ma tél štraj-tí-na-hi, hót odój áč-el va-lá-ko, án-do věš gé-lo táj odá khér ród-la-hi, ná lá-kla hám ó dróm bú-ter pál. Táj up-réf-kar, sár odój áf-ka džá-la-hi, odá vár-no ba-lí-čo pá-pal án-gle lés-te tér-do sí-na. T'odá há-la-hi bál-vas táj má-ro. Óv cúj gé-lo, táj phén-ča lés-ke: "Dé mán ék-naj án-dar ó bál-vas táj án-dar ó má-ro, té mé sóm bo-ká-lo." Ó ba-lí-čo lés-ke phén-ča: "Áh, áh, mé tút ná dáv, mínt ní tú mán ná díj-al, tú há ó oáx-li-ni, só lá-kes, mínt té tú lén šáj hás." Táj óv sáj oáx-li-ni cá-m kéd-la-hi pé-ske, hám ná džán-la-hi lén té hál. Akór báj-der gé-lo, táj ak-ór lé šó-šov ta-la-lín-ča, táj ó šó-šov phén-ča lés-ke: "Tú há čár, te ka-mé-ha, mínt tú mán ná díj-al."

Ak-ór báj-der gé-lo, ná lák-la bú-ter ó dróm pál, táj sá dúr án-do věš án-de pé-lo. Ó Ró-ma ród-na-hi lé, hám ná lák-le lé bú-ter. Táj bér-ša, bút bér-ša pa-lo-dá á poár džúv-la án-do věš gé-le var-gaj-én-ge, táj lák-le lé, hám ím-ar mú-lo ló sí-na táj čak ó ko-ká-li sí-na.

Áf-ka be-štro-fín-ča lé ó Dél, káj ló sáj ha-míš-no sí-na úp-ro már-hi, táj ná dija lén, ká-da lé bo-ká-le sí-na.

Ká-pa sí-na, plás-ta ná-na.

The miserly beggar

Be that as it may, that's just how it was; she had no blanket, only a cloth. No one can say whether it's true or made up: the Roma used to tell this story.

Once upon a time, there was a poor Rom who went out begging. This man always loved to eat, but he never shared with others. Even when someone asked him for something, he wouldn't share. Others always gave when they had received something, but not him—he always ate his food alone.

Once he had been out begging, had been given some bread and bacon, and was on his way home through the woods. After walking for a while, he cut himself a bit of bacon and a bit of bread, sat down and ate. Suddenly, a little hare hopped up to him and said, 'Give me something.'—"No," said the Rom, "I'm not giving you any of my food. Just go and find your grass, for that is what you eat."

So the little hare disappeared, and the Rom carried on. After he had been walking through the woods for perhaps an hour, he grew hungry again. He sat down once more, cut up some bread and bacon, and began to eat. Then a wild boar came along the path and said to him, "Give me a bit of bacon and a bit of bread."—"No, I won't give you either my bacon or my bread. You only eat acorns that fall from the tree."—"Ah-ah," said the wild boar, and trotted off.

The Rom carried on his way, and before long, he saw an old peasant woman raking hay. When he reached her, he asked what she was doing. She said, "I'm raking the hay for my goat. That way I can feed her, because otherwise I have nothing for her." He asked her if he should help her: "But you must pay me, for I won't do any work for you for free."—"You've got bacon and bread anyway," she said, "what do you want?" To which he replied: "But how can you know that I have bacon and bread?"—"The animals tell me."—"I'll help you, but you must give me something."—"Yes," she said, "I don't have much, but if you come with me, I'll give you a cup of milk from my goat. You can take it with you if you can't drink it all. Just help me bring the hay home."—"I'll help you. But not for nothing." With that, he took the hay, bundled it into a bale and carried it home for her.

The old woman went into the barn, milked the goat and gave the milk to the Rom. Instead of taking it with him, he drank the milk so greedily that he felt sick as he walked on. He hadn't even reached home before he collapsed, and the Roma found him and carried him home. He kept groaning, "That witch!" and told them there had been a house in the forest. They went to look: there was no house, nor was there an old woman. There was no one there. Now they no longer believed him. He did feel better again, but he never fully recovered.

Because the Roma wouldn't believe him that anyone lived there, he went into the forest to look for that house, but couldn't find his way back. Suddenly, the wild boar was standing before him again. It was eating bacon and bread. He went up to it and said, "Give me a little of the bacon and bread; I'm hungry too." But the boar said to him: "Ah, ah, I won't give you anything, for you haven't given me anything either. Eat the acorns you find, for you can eat them too." So he gathered acorns, but could not eat them. As he walked on, he met the hare, and the hare said to him: "Eat grass if you like, for you haven't given me anything either."

Then the Rom went on, lost his way, and ended up deep in the forest. The Roma searched for him, but could not find him anywhere. Years, many years later, some women went into the forest to gather mushrooms, and it was they who finally found him. But he was already dead and was nothing but bones.

That is how the Lord punished the miserly Rom, because he was so cruel to the animals and gave them nothing when they were hungry.

He had no blanket, only a cloth.

Abbreviations

1	first person	NARR	narrative
2	second person	NEG	negation, negative
3	third person	NMR	number
ABL	ablative case	NOM	nominative
ACC	accusative case	NP	noun phrase
ADJ	adjective	NPFV	non-perfective
ADV	adverb	NUM	number
ART	article	O(BJ)	object
BEN	benefactive case	OBL	oblique
CARD	cardinal number	ORD	ordinal number
CAUS	causative case	PASS	passive
COMP	complement	PERS	person
COND	conditional	PFV	perfective
CONJ	conjunction	PL	plural
CONJG	conjugation	POSS	possessive
COORD	coordinative	PREF	prefix
COP	cCopula	PREFV	prefix verb
DAT	dative	PREP	preposition
DECL	declension	PRON	pronoun
DEG	degree	PRS	present
DEM	demonstrative	PST	past time
F	feminine	PTCL	particle
FRAC	fractional number	PTCLV	particle verb
FUT	future	PTCP	participle
GEN	genitive	RECT	rectus
IMP	imperative	REFL	reflexive
IND	indicative	S(BJ)	subject
INDECL	indeclinable	SBJV	subjunctive
INDF	indefinite	SG	singular
INFL	inflection	SOC	sociative
INS	instrumental	SUB	subordinating
INT	interrogative	SUP	superlative
INTERJ	interjection	TEMP	temporal
INTR	intransitive	TMA	tense – mood – aspect
IRR	irreal	TNS	tense
LOC	locative	TR	transitive
M	masculine	V	verb
MOD	modal	VB	verbal
MULT	multiplicative	VOC	vocative
N	noun	VP	verb phrase

Characters

//	phonetic transcription
< >	graphemic transcription
[]	explanatory notes
*	unattested form
<	derived from
>	becomes

The symbols used for the (in most cases broad) phonetic transcription correspond to those of the International Phonetic Association (IPA).

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[Abstract / Back cover text / etc.]

Roman, as it is called, is the Romani variety spoken in Burgenland, Austria's eastern province bordering Hungary. Codified from the 1990s onward through its speakers' self-organisation, it is now present in the media and in education. Although it is likely the most prominent variety of Romanes in Austria—and has been recognised as a UNESCO Intangible Cultural Heritage since 2011—it is hardly used in everyday life anymore.

This shift from a vibrant community language to a codified variety with public functions, accompanied by a decline in its use in everyday contexts, certainly allows us to conclude that the development of other Romani varieties and of dominated languages in general is underway.

This publication provides a comprehensive account of the codification process, its outcomes, and the developments it has set in motion. Its description of the structure, vocabulary, and written usage of *Roman* lays the foundation for all those who identify with the language to learn and use it in the future.